



Probabilistische Datenwissenschaft für die Psychologie

Dirk Ostwald

Table of contents

Welcome	3
Citation	3
License	3
I Mathematical Foundations	4
1 Language and Logic	6
1.1 Mathematics Is a Language	6
1.2 Basic Building Blocks	7
1.3 Propositional Logic	8
1.4 Equivalence Transformations	13
1.5 Proof Techniques	15
2 Sets	16
2.1 Basic Definitions	16
2.2 Operations	19
2.3 Special Sets	20
3 Sums, Products, Powers	25
3.1 Sums	25
3.2 Products	28
3.3 Powers	30
4 Functions	32
4.1 Definition and Properties	32
4.2 Types of Functions	37
4.3 Elementary Functions	40
5 Sequences, Limits, Continuity	44
5.1 Sequences	44
5.2 Limits	46
5.3 Continuity	48
6 Differential Calculus	51
6.1 Definitions and Calculation Rules	51
6.2 Analytic Optimization	56
6.3 Differential Calculus of Multivariate Real-Valued Functions	59
7 Integral Calculus	67
7.1 Indefinite Integrals	67
7.2 Definite Integrals	69
7.3 Improper Integrals	76

7.4	Multidimensional Integrals	77
8	Vectors	80
8.1	Real Vector Space	80
8.2	Euclidean Vector Space	84
8.3	Linear Independence	91
8.4	Vector Space Bases	92
	References	97

Welcome

Welcome to the working version of *Probabilistic Data Science for Psychology (PDSP)*, a textbook on data-scientific methodology at the Institute of Psychology at Otto von Guericke University Magdeburg.



Figure 1 Probabilistic Data Science for Psychology

Citation

Ostwald, D. (2024) Probabilistic Data Science for Psychology. [10.5281/zenodo.10730199](https://doi.org/10.5281/zenodo.10730199)

License

This work is licensed under a Creative Commons Attribution 4.0 International License.

Part I

Mathematical Foundations

As the language of natural-scientific modeling, mathematics is also the language of probabilistic data science in psychology. In this role, mathematics mediates between intuitive scientific language and the variety of programming languages used to implement data-scientific analyses. Mathematical concept formation makes it possible to grasp concepts very precisely and in a generally understandable way, and to communicate them independently of the imprecision of everyday scientific language or the idiosyncrasies of different programming languages. Of course, mathematical language cannot assume this role detached from scientific-language intuition or practical application. In probabilistic data analysis, mathematics is therefore never an end in itself, but must always be understood as applied mathematics.

In this part, after some thoughts on the fundamental concepts of mathematics (Chapter 1), we present sets and functions (Chapter 2 and Chapter 4), the two pillars of modern mathematics, in compressed form. We supplement this presentation with some notational aspects in Chapter 3. Closely interwoven with the concept of a function are differential calculus and integral calculus. Here, too, the aim is not an exhaustive presentation, but in particular an explanation of some foundations that are central to the data-scientific concepts of optimization and to working with probability functions. We supplement these sections with some introductory thoughts on the analytical foundations of differential and integral calculus in Chapter 5. In dealing with the large data sets of contemporary science, matrix notation has proved useful. We first consider this subfield of linear algebra for single-column matrices and then for matrices in detail, again with the aim of providing notational and computational foundations for later sections.

Overall, this part therefore primarily serves as a brief introduction to foundations that will be taken up again in other parts, and in particular also as the introduction of a unified notation. Depending on need and interest, more in-depth self-study of the various contents is of course advisable. In the following literature notes, we provide an overview of sources and reading recommendations for the contents considered here.

Literature Notes

Bärwolff (2017) and Arens et al. (2018) form the primary basis for many of the topics presented here and offer an excellent and comprehensive entry point into the material covered. At the international level, Spivak (2008) and Strang (2009) provide very readable introductions to differential calculus and linear algebra, respectively. A deeper understanding, especially of analytical concepts, is provided, for example, by Abbott (2015) and Chiossi (2021). Searle (1982) offers a compact presentation of those aspects of matrix calculus and linear algebra that are used mainly in probabilistic data analysis. Deisenroth et al. (2020) provides an overview of many of the topics treated here under the moniker of machine learning.

1 Language and Logic

1.1 Mathematics Is a Language

Mathematics is the language of natural-scientific model building. For example, the expression

$$F = ma \tag{1.1}$$

corresponds, in the sense of Newton's second axiom, to a theory of the motion of objects under the action of forces (Newton (1687)). Likewise, the expression

$$\max_{q(z)} \int q(z) \ln \left(\frac{p(y, z)}{q(z)} \right) dz \tag{1.2}$$

corresponds, in the sense of variational inference, to contemporary theory about how the brain works (Friston (2005)). Mathematical symbolism serves in particular to communicate scientific insights precisely and aims to describe complex matters exactly and efficiently. As in reflective engagement with any form of language, the question "What is this supposed to mean?" therefore always remains the guiding question when working with mathematical content and symbolism.

As a language system, mathematics has a number of special features. First, its contents are often abstract. This is because mathematics strives for the broadest possible general comprehensibility and applicability. Mathematical approaches to the phenomena of the world are interested in making insights as easy as possible to transfer to other contexts. To make this possible, mathematics tries to work as precisely and understandably as possible, that is, in terms of precise concepts. It proceeds in a strictly hierarchical way, so that concepts introduced later often presuppose a good understanding of the underlying concepts introduced earlier.

The precision of mathematical language implies a high density of information. It is therefore rather sober and leaves out what is superfluous, so that, in the best case, *everything* in a mathematical text is relevant for communicating an idea. As recipients of mathematical texts, we perceive their information density through the high cognitive energy required when reading such a text. This high energy expenditure calls in particular for calm and slowness when reading with the aim of genuine understanding. The following quotation may serve as a guiding principle for working with mathematical texts: "A mathematical text cannot be read like a novel; one has to work through it" (Unger (2000)). After reading a short mathematical text, one should always ask critically whether one has really understood what has been read or whether further sources should be consulted to clarify the matter. It is also helpful, in the spirit of Richard Feynman's famous quotation "What I cannot create, I do not understand", to make one's own notes and to reconstruct mathematical language systems oneself.

If one wants to gain access to the world of natural-scientific model building, then it is helpful, when dealing with its mathematical expressions and symbolism, to use the same

strategies as when learning a foreign language. In addition to immersing oneself in the corresponding language space, that is, constant exposure to mathematical modes of expression, this certainly includes first memorizing concepts and translating texts into everyday language. A deep and secure understanding of mathematical model building then arises in particular through the application of mathematical ways of thinking in written and spoken form.

1.2 Basic Building Blocks

In the following, we introduce three basic building blocks of mathematical communication that will accompany us throughout: the concepts of a *definition*, a *theorem*, and a *proof*.

Definition

A *definition* is a cornerstone of a mathematical system that is neither justified nor deductively derived within that system. Definitions can only be evaluated according to their usefulness within a mathematical system. A definition is best memorized first and questioned only once one has understood its use in application or is not convinced by it. Some relaxation and calm are generally helpful when dealing with definitions that appear complex at first sight. To indicate that we define a symbol as something, we use the notation “ $:=$ ”. For example, the expression “ $a := 2$ ” defines the symbol a as the number two. In this text, definitions always end with the symbol $\bullet$.

Theorem

A *theorem* is a mathematical statement that can be recognized as correct (true) by means of a proof. That is, a theorem is always derived from definitions and/or other theorems. In this sense, theorems are the empirical results of mathematics. In applied, data-analytic mathematics, theorems are often helpful for calculations. It is therefore worth memorizing them, because they usually form the basis for data analysis and data interpretation. Equations often appear in theorems. These equations arise from the assumptions of the theorem. To mark equations, we use the equals sign “ $=$ ”. For example, in a given context, the expression “ $a = 2$ ” says that, because of certain assumptions, the variable a has the value two. In this text, theorems always end with the symbol $\circ$.

Proof

A *proof* is a chain of argumentation that draws on known definitions and theorems to establish the correctness (truth) of a theorem. Short proofs often contribute to understanding a theorem; long proofs tend to do so less. Proofs are therefore, in particular, answers to the question why a mathematical statement holds (“Why is this so?”). Proofs are not memorized. When proofs are short, it is sensible to work through them, because they usually repeat content that is assumed to be known. When they are long, it is more sensible to skip them at first so as not to get lost in details and lose the main path through the mathematical structure. In this text, proofs always end with the symbol $\square$.

In addition to definitions, theorems, and proofs, mathematical texts contain other typical building blocks, such as *axioms*, *lemmas*, *corollaries*, and *conjectures*. We will not use these terms and therefore give only a brief overview of them.

- *Axioms* are unproved fundamental assumptions in the sense that they serve as starting points for building mathematical systems. The transition between definitions and axioms is often fluid. Because we will not work at a particularly deep mathematical level, we prefer the term definition in almost all cases.
- A *lemma* is an “auxiliary theorem”, that is, a mathematical statement that is proved but is not as important as a theorem. Because, on the one hand, we focus on important content and, on the other hand, we do not want to discriminate among mathematical statements, we avoid this term and instead use the term theorem throughout.
- A *corollary* is a mathematical statement that follows from a theorem by a simple proof. Because the “simplicity” of mathematical proofs is a relative property, we avoid this term and instead also use the term theorem throughout.
- *Conjectures* are mathematical statements for which it is unknown whether they are provable or refutable. Because we work in the area of applied mathematics, we will not encounter conjectures.

1.3 Propositional Logic

Having now become acquainted with some basic building blocks of mathematical language systems, we turn to *propositional logic*, a simple system that allows relationships between mathematical statements to be established and formalized. Propositional logic plays a central role, for example, in the definition of set operations, in optimization conditions for functions, and in many proofs. In data-analytic applications, propositional logic is the basis of Boolean logic in programming. In mathematical psychology, propositional logic is the basis of the representational theory of measurement.

We begin with the definition of the concept of a mathematical *statement*.

Definition 1.1 (Statement). A *statement* is a sentence to which the property *true* or *false* can be assigned unambiguously.

•

The adjective *true* can also be understood as *correct*. We abbreviate true by “t” and false by “f”. In the field of real numbers, for example, the statement $1 + 1 = 2$ is true and the statement $1 + 1 = 3$ is false. Note that the binarity of the truth value of statements is a basic assumption of propositional logic and therefore to be understood formally and scientifically, not empirically. Truth values do not refer to definitions; definitions fix meanings.

A first way of working with statements is to negate them. This leads to the following definition.

Definition 1.2 (Negation). Let A be a statement. Then the *negation of A* is the statement that is false when A is true and true when A is false. The negation of A is denoted by $\neg A$, read as “not A ”.

•

For example, the negation of the statement “The sun is shining” is the statement “The sun is not shining”. The negation of the statement $1 + 1 = 2$ is the statement $1 + 1 \neq 2$, and the negation of the statement $x > 1$ is the statement $x \leq 1$. The definition of the negation of a statement A is represented in tabular form as follows:

Table 1.1 Truth table of negation

A	$\neg A$
t	f
f	t

Tables of this form are called *truth tables*. They are a popular tool in propositional logic, and we will use them often in the following.

If one wants to connect two statements logically, the concepts of *conjunction* and *disjunction* are available.

Definition 1.3 (Conjunction). Let A and B be statements. Then the *conjunction of A and B* is the statement that is true if and only if both A and B are true. The conjunction of A and B is denoted by $A \wedge B$, read as “ A and B ”.

•

The definition of conjunction implies the following truth table:

Table 1.2 Truth table of conjunction

A	B	$A \wedge B$
t	t	t
t	f	f
f	t	f
f	f	f

As an example, let A be the statement $2 \geq 1$ and let B be the statement $2 > 1$. Since both A and B are true, the statement $(2 \geq 1) \wedge (2 > 1)$ is also true. As another example, let A be the statement $1 \geq 1$ and let B be the statement $1 > 1$. Here, only A is true and B is false. Thus the statement $(1 \geq 1) \wedge (1 > 1)$ is false.

Definition 1.4 (Disjunction). Let A and B be statements. Then the *disjunction of A and B* is the statement that is true if and only if at least one of the two statements A and B is true. The disjunction of A and B is denoted by $A \vee B$, read as “ A or B ”.

•

The definition of disjunction implies the following truth table:

Table 1.3 Truth table of disjunction

A	B	$A \vee B$
t	t	t
t	f	t
f	t	t
f	f	f

$A \vee B$ is therefore also true when both A and B are true. The “or” considered here is thus more precisely an “and/or”. For this reason, disjunction is also called a “non-exclusive or”. As an example, let A be the statement $2 \geq 1$ and let B be the statement $2 > 1$. A is true and B is true. Thus the statement $(2 \geq 1) \vee (2 > 1)$ is true. Now again let A be the statement $1 \geq 1$ and let B be the statement $1 > 1$. Then A is true and B is false. Thus the statement $(1 \geq 1) \vee (1 > 1)$ is true.

One way of placing statements in a mechanical logical relationship is *implication*. It is defined as follows.

Definition 1.5 (Implication). Let A and B be statements. Then the *implication*, denoted by $A \Rightarrow B$, is the statement that is false if and only if A is true and B is false. A is called the *assumption (premise)* and B the *conclusion* of the implication. $A \Rightarrow B$ is read as “from A follows B ”, “ A implies B ”, or “if A , then B ”.

•

The definition of implication can be represented by the following truth table:

Table 1.4 Truth table of implication

A	B	$A \Rightarrow B$
t	t	t
t	f	f
f	t	t
f	f	t

An intuitive understanding of the definition of implication in the sense of the truth table above is obtained most readily by reading it as an attempt to capture and formalize the intuitive idea of a consequence in the context of propositional logic. To understand this, it is best to read the truth states in Table 1.4 in the order truth state of A , truth state of $A \Rightarrow B$, and finally truth state of B . Read in this way, the truth table shows that if A is true and $A \Rightarrow B$ is true, then B is true. Thus, if one constructs a true implication based on a true statement, for example by transforming equations, it follows that B is also true. If this is not possible, that is, if A is true and $A \Rightarrow B$ is always false, then B is also false. This is how statements may be refuted. Finally, one sees that if A is false and $A \Rightarrow B$ is true, then B can be either true or false. Only from a true premise does a true implication always yield a true conclusion. In particular, the definition of implication therefore satisfies the principle “anything follows from falsehood (ex falso sequitur quodlibet)”. Thus one cannot infer anything meaningful from false statements by means of implication.

In the context of implication, the concepts of *sufficient* and *necessary* conditions arise: If $A \Rightarrow B$ is true, one says that “ A is *sufficient* for B ” and that “ B is *necessary* for A ”. This terminology is explained in the context of implication as follows: If $A \Rightarrow B$ is true, then if A is true, B is also true. The truth of A is therefore enough for the truth of B . Thus A is sufficient for B . Furthermore, if $A \Rightarrow B$ is true, then if B is false, A is also false. The truth of B is therefore necessary for the truth of A .

Finally, to illustrate Table 1.4, we give a concrete everyday example. Let A be the statement “The bridge is damaged”, let B be the statement “The bridge is closed”, and let $A \Rightarrow B$ be the implication “If the bridge is damaged, then the bridge is closed”. We discuss the four cases of Table 1.4.

- A true, B true, $A \Rightarrow B$ true. If A is true, then the bridge is damaged, and if B is also true, then the bridge is also closed. In this case, the implication “If the bridge is damaged, then the bridge is closed” is therefore obviously true.
- A true, B false, $A \Rightarrow B$ false. If A is true, then the bridge is damaged, and if B is false, then the bridge is not closed. In this case, the implication “If the bridge is damaged, then the bridge is closed” is therefore obviously false.
- A false, B true, $A \Rightarrow B$ true. If A is false, then the bridge is not damaged, and if B is true, then the bridge is closed. Since the bridge is not damaged, however, no conclusion can be drawn regarding the implication “If the bridge is damaged, then the bridge is closed”; in particular, one cannot show that it would be false. Thus one assumes that the statement “If the bridge is damaged, then the bridge is closed” is true.
- A false, B false, $A \Rightarrow B$ true. If A is false, then the bridge is not damaged, and if B is false, then the bridge is not closed. Since the bridge is not damaged, however, no conclusion can be drawn regarding the implication “If the bridge is damaged, then the bridge is closed”; in particular, one cannot show that it would be false. Thus one again assumes that the statement “If the bridge is damaged, then the bridge is closed” is true.

A very frequently occurring relation between two statements is their *equivalence*.

Definition 1.6 (Equivalence). Let A and B be statements. The *equivalence of A and B* is the statement that is true if and only if A and B are both true or if A and B are both false. The equivalence of A and B is denoted by $A \Leftrightarrow B$ and read as “ A if and only if B ” or “ A is equivalent to B ”.

•

The definition of equivalence implies the following truth table:

Table 1.5 Truth table of equivalence

A	B	$A \Leftrightarrow B$
t	t	t
t	f	f
f	t	f
f	f	t

The definition of the concept of *logical equivalence* allows, among other things, the equivalence of two statements to be established by means of implications.

Definition 1.7 (Logical Equivalence). Two statements are called *logically equivalent* if their truth tables are the same.

•

As examples of logical equivalences that are frequently used in proof arguments, we show the statements of the following theorem.

Theorem 1.1 (Logical Equivalences). *Let A and B be two statements. Then the following statements are logically equivalent:*

- (1) $A \Leftrightarrow B$ and $(A \Rightarrow B) \wedge (B \Rightarrow A)$
- (2) $A \Rightarrow B$ and $(\neg B) \Rightarrow (\neg A)$

◦

Proof. By the definition of logical equivalence, we have to show that the truth tables of the statements under consideration are the same. We show first (1), then (2).

(1) We recall the truth table of $A \Leftrightarrow B$:

A	B	$A \Leftrightarrow B$
t	t	t
t	f	f
f	t	f
f	f	t

We further consider the truth table of $(A \Rightarrow B) \wedge (B \Rightarrow A)$:

A	B	$A \Rightarrow B$	$B \Rightarrow A$	$(A \Rightarrow B) \wedge (B \Rightarrow A)$
t	t	t	t	t
t	f	f	t	f
f	t	t	f	f
f	f	t	t	t

Comparing the truth table of $A \Leftrightarrow B$ with the first two and the last column of the truth table of $(A \Rightarrow B) \wedge (B \Rightarrow A)$ shows their equality.

(2) We recall the truth table of $A \Rightarrow B$:

A	B	$A \Rightarrow B$
t	t	t
t	f	f
f	t	t
f	f	t

We further consider the truth table of $(\neg B) \Rightarrow (\neg A)$:

A	B	$\neg B$	$\neg A$	$(\neg B) \Rightarrow (\neg A)$
t	t	f	f	t
t	f	t	f	f
f	t	f	t	t
f	f	t	t	t

Comparing the truth table of $A \Rightarrow B$ with the first two and the last column of the truth table of $(\neg B) \Rightarrow (\neg A)$ shows their equality. $\square$

The first statement of Theorem 1.1 says that the statement “ A and B are equivalent” is logically equivalent to the statement “from A follows B and from B follows A ”. This is the basis for many so-called *direct proofs* using equivalence transformations. The second statement of Theorem 1.1 says that the statement “from A follows B ” is logically equivalent to the statement “from not B follows not A ”. This is the basis for the technique of *indirect proof*. We consider these proof techniques more closely in the following section. First, we summarize the meanings of the symbols introduced in this section once more in the table below.

Table 1.10 Symbol overview. A and B are statements, that is, A and B are either true or false.

Symbol	Meaning	Note
$\neg A$	Not A	True when A is false, and vice versa
$A \wedge B$	A and B	True only when both A and B are true
$A \vee B$	A and/or B	True when at least one of the statements is true
$A \Rightarrow B$	From A follows B	B is necessary for A , A is sufficient for B
$A \Leftrightarrow B$	A is equivalent to B	Both $A \Rightarrow B$ and $B \Rightarrow A$ hold

1.4 Equivalence Transformations

Mathematical problems often lead to the case in which information about an unknown variable is represented implicitly by means of an equation or an inequality. To represent the information about the corresponding variable explicitly, that is, to determine its value in the case of equations or to determine the range of numbers in which the value of the variable lies in the case of inequalities, one uses *equivalence transformations*. Here, we consider only the equivalence transformations of equations and inequalities with respect to real variables that are familiar from school mathematics. Equivalence transformations of equations and inequalities have the property that the truth value of the statement formulated by an equation or inequality does not change when the corresponding transformation is applied. Both sides of the equation or inequality are always transformed. For the application of a mathematical operation that transforms an equation or inequality statement A into an equation or inequality statement B to be an equivalence transformation of the form $A \Leftrightarrow B$, both $A \Rightarrow B$ and $B \Rightarrow A$ must hold, as is well known. This implies that equivalence transformations are reversible (invertible) operations.

For equations, admissible equivalence transformations include in particular

- adding a number to both sides of the equation,
- subtracting a number from both sides of the equation,
- multiplying both sides of the equation by a nonzero number,
- dividing both sides of the equation by a nonzero number, and

- applying an invertible function to both sides of the equation.

Example

Anticipating Section 4.3, we consider the statement

$$2 \exp(x) - 2 = 0. \quad (1.3)$$

Then

$$\begin{aligned} 2 \exp(x) - 2 &= 0 \\ \Leftrightarrow 2 \exp(x) - 2 + 2 &= +2 \\ \Leftrightarrow 2 \exp(x) &= 2 \\ \Leftrightarrow \frac{1}{2} \cdot 2 \exp(x) &= \frac{1}{2} \cdot 2 \\ \Leftrightarrow \exp(x) &= 1 \\ \Leftrightarrow \ln(\exp(x)) &= \ln(1) \\ \Leftrightarrow x &= 0. \end{aligned} \quad (1.4)$$

In summary, therefore,

$$2 \exp(x) - 2 = 0 \Leftrightarrow x = 0. \quad (1.5)$$

For inequalities, admissible equivalence transformations include in particular

- adding a number to both sides of the inequality,
- subtracting a number from both sides of the inequality,
- multiplying both sides of the inequality by a nonzero number, with multiplication by a negative number reversing the inequality sign,
- dividing both sides of the inequality by a nonzero number, with division by a negative number reversing the inequality sign, and
- applying an invertible monotonically increasing function to both sides of the inequality; for monotonically decreasing functions, the inequality sign is reversed.

Example

We consider the statement

$$-5x - 2 \geq 8. \quad (1.6)$$

Then

$$\begin{aligned} -5x - 2 &\geq 8 \\ \Leftrightarrow -5x - 2 + 2 &\geq 8 + 2 \\ \Leftrightarrow -5x &\geq 10 \\ \Leftrightarrow -\frac{1}{5} \cdot 5x &\geq -\frac{1}{5} \cdot 10 \\ \Leftrightarrow -x &\geq -2 \\ \Leftrightarrow x &\leq -2. \end{aligned} \quad (1.7)$$

In summary, therefore,

$$-5x - 2 \geq 8 \Leftrightarrow x \leq -2. \quad (1.8)$$

1.5 Proof Techniques

In this section, we outline three fundamental proof techniques: *direct* and *indirect proofs*, and *proof by contradiction*. In what follows, especially the first technique will be used repeatedly to justify theorems.

We have:

- *Direct proofs* use equivalence transformations to show $A \Rightarrow B$.
- *Indirect proofs* use the logical equivalence of $A \Rightarrow B$ and $(\neg B) \Rightarrow (\neg A)$.
- *Proofs by contradiction* show that $(\neg B) \wedge A$ is false.

Equipped with this, we now prove the following theorem by means of a direct proof, an indirect proof, and a proof by contradiction (cf. Arens et al. (2018)).

Theorem 1.2 (Squares of Positive Numbers). *Let a and b be two positive numbers. Then $a^2 < b^2 \Rightarrow a < b$.*

◦

Proof. We first give a *direct proof*. Let $a^2 < b^2$ be the statement A and let $a < b$ be the statement B . Then

$$a^2 < b^2 \Leftrightarrow 0 < b^2 - a^2 \Leftrightarrow 0 < (b + a)(b - a) \Leftrightarrow 0 < (b - a) \Leftrightarrow a < b. \quad (1.9)$$

We now give an *indirect proof*. Let $a^2 \geq b^2$ be the statement $\neg A$. Furthermore, let $a \geq b$ be the statement $\neg B$. Then

$$a \geq b \Leftrightarrow a^2 \geq ab \wedge ab \geq b^2 \Leftrightarrow a^2 \geq b^2. \quad (1.10)$$

Finally, we give a *proof by contradiction*. To do so, we show that the assumption $(\neg B) \wedge A$ leads to a false statement. We have

$$a \geq b \wedge a^2 < b^2 \Leftrightarrow a^2 \geq ab \wedge a^2 < b^2 \Leftrightarrow ab \leq a^2 < b^2. \quad (1.11)$$

Furthermore,

$$a \geq b \wedge a^2 < b^2 \Leftrightarrow ab \geq b^2 \wedge a^2 < b^2 \Leftrightarrow a^2 < b^2 \leq ab. \quad (1.12)$$

Overall, this yields the false statement

$$ab \leq a^2 < b^2 \leq ab \Leftrightarrow ab < ab. \quad (1.13)$$

□

2 Sets

2.1 Basic Definitions

Sets collect mathematical objects and form the foundation of modern mathematics. We begin with the following definition.

Definition 2.1 (Sets). Following Cantor (1895), a *set* M is defined as “a collection into a whole of definite, distinct objects m of our intuition or of our thought (which are called the elements of the set)”. We write

$$m \in M \text{ or } m \notin M \quad (2.1)$$

to express that m is an element or not an element of M , respectively.

•

There are at least the following ways of defining sets:

- Listing the elements in curly braces, for example $M := \{1, 2, 3\}$.
- Specifying the properties of the elements, for example $M := \{x \in \mathbb{N} \mid x < 4\}$.
- Equating the set with another uniquely defined set, for example $M := \mathbb{N}_3$.

The notation $\{x \in \mathbb{N} \mid x < 4\}$ is read as “ $x \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $x < 4$ ”, where the meaning of $\mathbb{N}$ will be explained below. It is important to recognize that sets are *unordered* mathematical objects, that is, the order in which the elements of a set are listed does not matter. For example, $\{1, 2, 3\}$, $\{1, 3, 2\}$, and $\{2, 3, 1\}$ denote the same set, namely the set of the first three natural numbers.

Basic relations between several sets are fixed in the next definition.

Definition 2.2 (Subsets and Set Equality). Let M and N be two sets.

- A set M is called a *subset* of a set N if, for every element $m \in M$, we also have $m \in N$. If M is a subset of N , we write

$$M \subseteq N \quad (2.2)$$

and call M a *subset* of N and N a *superset* of M .

- A set M is called a *proper subset* of a set N if, for every element $m \in M$, we also have $m \in N$, but there is at least one element $n \in N$ for which $n \notin M$. If M is a proper subset of N , we write

$$M \subset N. \quad (2.3)$$

- Two sets M and N are called *equal* if, for every element $m \in M$, we also have $m \in N$, and if, for every element $n \in N$, we also have $n \in M$. If the sets M and N are equal, we write

$$M = N. \quad (2.4)$$

•

Example

For example, consider the sets $M := \{1\}$, $N := \{1, 2\}$, and $O := \{1, 2\}$. Then, by the definitions above, $M \subset N$, because $1 \in M$ and $1 \in N$, but $2 \in N$ and $2 \notin M$. Furthermore, $N \subseteq O$, because $1 \in N$ and $1 \in O$, as well as $2 \in N$ and $2 \in O$, and there is no element of O that is not in N . Likewise, $O \subseteq N$, because $1 \in O$ and $1 \in N$, as well as $2 \in O$ and $2 \in N$, and there is no element of N that is not in O . Finally, we even have $N = O$, because, for every element $n \in N$, we also have $n \in O$, and at the same time, for every element $o \in O$, we also have $o \in N$. We represent these relations schematically by means of *Venn-Euler diagrams* in Figure 2.1.

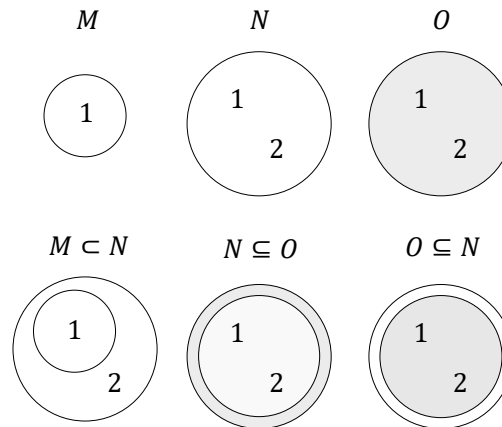


Figure 2.1 Venn-Euler diagrams of the subset properties of the sets $M := \{1\}$, $N := \{1, 2\}$, and $O := \{1, 2\}$.

An important property of a set is the number of elements it contains. This is called the *cardinality* of the set.

Definition 2.3 (Cardinality). The number of elements of a set M is called its *cardinality* and is denoted by $|M|$.

•

A special set is the set without elements.

Definition 2.4. A set with cardinality zero is called the *empty set* and is denoted by $\emptyset$.

•

As examples, let $M := \{1, 2, 3\}$, $N = \{a, b, c, d\}$, and $O := \emptyset$. Then $|M| = 3$, $|N| = 4$, and $|O| = 0$.

For every set, one can consider the set of all subsets of this set. This leads to the important concept of the *power set*.

Definition 2.5 (Power Set). The set of all subsets of a set M is called the *power set* of M and is denoted by $\mathcal{P}(M)$.

•

Note that the empty subset of M and M itself are also always elements of $\mathcal{P}(M)$. We first consider four examples of the concept of a power set.

- Let $M_0 := \emptyset$ be the empty set. Then

$$\mathcal{P}(M_0) = \{\emptyset\}. \quad (2.5)$$

- Let M_1 be the one-element set $M_1 := \{a\}$. Then

$$\mathcal{P}(M_1) = \{\emptyset, \{a\}\}. \quad (2.6)$$

- Let $M_2 := \{a, b\}$. Then M_2 has both one-element and two-element subsets, and

$$\mathcal{P}(M_2) = \{\emptyset, \{a\}, \{b\}, \{a, b\}\}. \quad (2.7)$$

- Finally, let $M_3 := \{a, b, c\}$. Then M_3 has, among others, one-element, two-element, and three-element subsets, and

$$\mathcal{P}(M_3) = \{\emptyset, \{a\}, \{b\}, \{c\}, \{a, b\}, \{a, c\}, \{b, c\}, \{a, b, c\}\}. \quad (2.8)$$

Theorem 2.1 (Cardinality of the Power Set). *Given a set M with cardinality $|M| = n$, and let $\mathcal{P}(M)$ be its power set. Then $|\mathcal{P}(M)| = 2^n$.*

◦

Proof. To prove the statement of the theorem, we associate each element P of the power set of M uniquely with a binary sequence of length n , where the entry at the i -th position represents whether the i -th element of M is an element of P or not. For example, let $M := \{m_1, m_2, m_3\}$ and $P := \{m_2, m_3\}$. Then P corresponds to the binary sequence 011. The empty set $P := \emptyset$ corresponds to the binary sequence 000, and the original set $P = M$ corresponds to the binary sequence 111. Thus the question is how many unique binary sequences of length n there are. Since each element of the sequence has two possible states, there are n factors $2 \cdot 2 \cdots 2$, that is, 2^n . $\square$

In the examples above, we have the cases

- $|M_0| = 0 \Rightarrow |\mathcal{P}(M_0)| = 2^0 = 1,$
- $|M_1| = 1 \Rightarrow |\mathcal{P}(M_1)| = 2^1 = 2,$
- $|M_2| = 2 \Rightarrow |\mathcal{P}(M_2)| = 2^2 = 4,$
- $|M_3| = 3 \Rightarrow |\mathcal{P}(M_3)| = 2^3 = 8,$

as can be verified by counting the elements of the corresponding power sets.

2.2 Operations

Two sets can be combined with one another in different ways. The result of such a combination is another set. We call the combination of two sets a *set operation* and give the following definitions.

Definition 2.6 (Set Operations). Let M and N be two sets.

- The *union of M and N* is defined as the set

$$M \cup N := \{x | x \in M \vee x \in N\}, \quad (2.9)$$

where $\vee$ is to be understood according to Definition 1.4 as a *non-exclusive or*, that is, as and/or.

- The *intersection of M and N* is defined as the set

$$M \cap N := \{x | x \in M \wedge x \in N\}. \quad (2.10)$$

If M and N satisfy $M \cap N = \emptyset$, then M and N are called *disjoint*.

- The *difference of M and N* is defined as the set

$$M \setminus N := \{x | x \in M \wedge x \notin N\}. \quad (2.11)$$

The difference of M and N is also called, especially when $N \subseteq M$, the *complement of N with respect to M* and is denoted by N^c . In this context, M is also called the *basic set* or the *universe*.

- The *symmetric difference of M and N* is defined as the set

$$M \Delta N := \{x | (x \in M \vee x \in N) \wedge x \notin M \cap N\}. \quad (2.12)$$

The symmetric difference can therefore be understood as an *exclusive or*.

•

Example

As an example, consider the sets $M := \{1, 2, 3\}$ and $N := \{2, 3, 4, 5\}$. Then

- $M \cup N = \{1, 2, 3, 4, 5\}$, because $1 \in M$, $2 \in M$, $3 \in M$, $4 \in N$, and $5 \in N$.
- $M \cap N = \{2, 3\}$, because only for 2 and 3 do we have $2 \in M, 3 \in M$ and also $2 \in N, 3 \in N$. For 1, we only have $1 \in M$, and for 4 and 5, we only have $4 \in N$ and $5 \in N$.
- $M \setminus N = \{1\}$, because $1 \in M$, but $1 \notin N$, and $2 \in M$, but also $2 \in N$.
- $N \setminus M = \{4, 5\}$, because $4 \in N$ and $5 \in N$, but $4 \notin M$ and $5 \notin M$. This shows in particular that the difference of M and N is *not* symmetric, that is, it is *not* necessarily the case that $M \setminus N$ equals $N \setminus M$.
- $M \Delta N = \{1, 4, 5\}$, because $1 \in M$, but $1 \notin \{2, 3\}$, $2 \in M$, but $2 \in \{2, 3\}$, $3 \in M$, but $3 \in \{2, 3\}$, $4 \in N$, but $4 \notin \{2, 3\}$, and $5 \in N$, but $5 \notin \{2, 3\}$.

Figure 2.2 visualizes the set operations considered in this example.

Finally, we introduce the concept of a partition of a set.

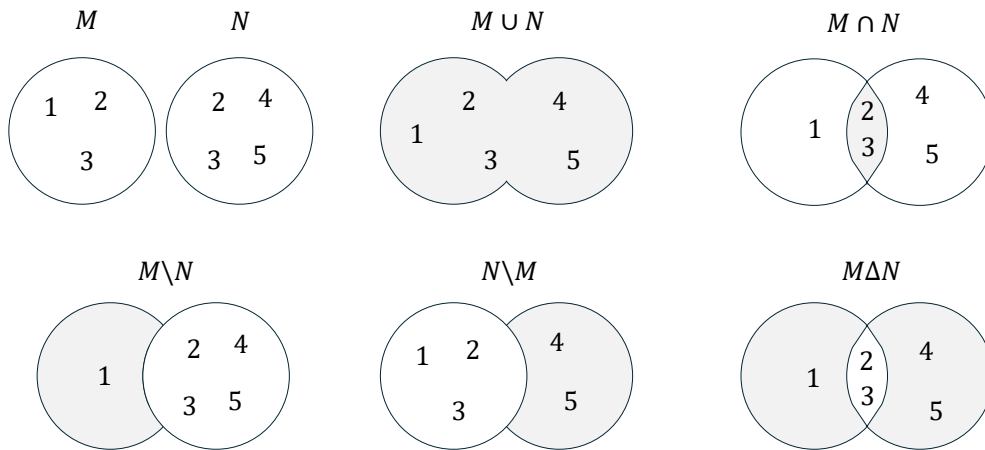


Figure 2.2 Venn-Euler diagrams of the set operations considered in the example for $M := \{1, 2, 3\}$ and $N := \{2, 3, 4, 5\}$. The gray shaded regions correspond to the resulting sets.

Definition 2.7 (Partition). Let M be a set, and let $P := \{N_i\}$ be a set of sets N_i with $i = 1, \dots, n$, such that

$$(M = \cup_{i=1}^n N_i) \wedge (N_i \cap N_j = \emptyset \text{ for } i, j = 1, \dots, n \text{ and } i \neq j). \quad (2.13)$$

Then P is called a *partition of M* .

•

The partition of a set therefore corresponds to splitting the set into disjoint subsets. Partitions are generally not unique, that is, there are usually several ways to partition a given set.

As an example, consider the set $M := \{1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6\}$. Then $P_1 := \{\{1\}, \{2, 3, 4, 5, 6\}\}$, $P_2 := \{\{1, 2, 3\}, \{4, 5, 6\}\}$, and $P_3 := \{\{1, 2\}, \{3, 4\}, \{5, 6\}\}$ are three possible partitions of M . Figure 2.3 visualizes the partitions considered in this example.

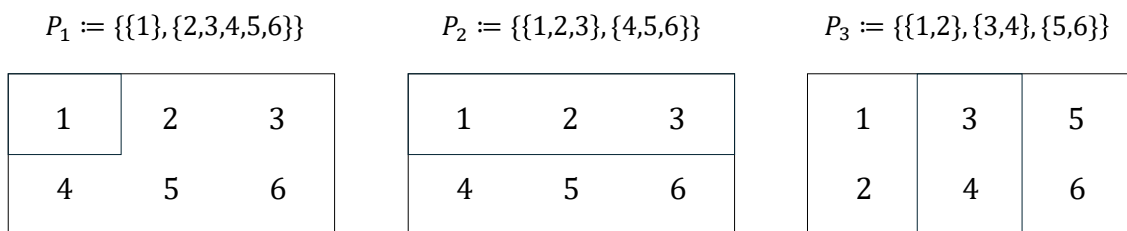


Figure 2.3 Diagrams of the partitions considered in the example for $M := \{1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6\}$.

2.3 Special Sets

Number Sets

In natural science, one attempts to describe phenomena of the world that are intuitively identified as discrete or continuous by means of numbers. Depending on the type of

phenomenon, different number sets are suitable for this purpose. Mathematics provides, among others, the number sets given in the following definition.

Definition 2.8 (Number Sets). The following denote:

- $\mathbb{N} := \{1, 2, 3, \dots\}$ the *natural numbers*,
- $\mathbb{N}_n := \{1, 2, 3, \dots, n\}$ the *natural numbers of order n* ,
- $\mathbb{N}^0 := \mathbb{N} \cup \{0\}$ the *natural numbers and zero*,
- $\mathbb{Z} := \{\dots, -3, -2, -1, 0, 1, 2, 3, \dots\}$ the *integers*,
- $\mathbb{Q} := \{\frac{p}{q} | p \in \mathbb{Z}, q \in \mathbb{N}\}$ the *rational numbers*,
- $\mathbb{R}$ the *real numbers*, and
- $\mathbb{C} := \{a + ib | a, b \in \mathbb{R}, i := \sqrt{-1}\}$ the *complex numbers*.

•

The natural numbers and the integers are suitable for quantifying discrete phenomena. The rational numbers and especially the real numbers are suitable for quantifying continuous phenomena. $\mathbb{R}$ includes the rational numbers and the so-called *irrational numbers* $\mathbb{R} \setminus \mathbb{Q}$. Rational numbers are numbers that can be expressed as fractions of integers and natural numbers. These include all integers as well as negative and positive decimal numbers such as $-\frac{9}{10} = -0.9$, $\frac{1}{3} = 0.\bar{3}$, and $\frac{196}{100} = 1.96$. Irrational numbers are numbers that cannot be expressed as rational numbers. Examples of irrational numbers are *Euler's number* $e \approx 2.71$, the *circle constant* $\pi \approx 3.14$, and the square root of 2, $\sqrt{2} \approx 1.41$.

The real numbers contain the natural numbers, the integers, and the rational numbers as subsets. Thus there are very many real numbers. Indeed, Cantor (1874) proved that there are more real numbers than natural numbers, even though there are infinitely many real numbers and infinitely many natural numbers. This property of the real numbers is called their *uncountability*. We will deepen this concept in Chapter 4. In particular,

$$\mathbb{N} \subset \mathbb{Z} \subset \mathbb{Q} \subset \mathbb{R}. \quad (2.14)$$

Between any two real numbers there are infinitely many further real numbers. Positive infinity ∞ and negative infinity $-\infty$ are not numbers with which one could calculate in standard mathematics. They also do not belong to the number sets given in the definition above; thus $\infty \notin \mathbb{R}$ and $-\infty \notin \mathbb{R}$. Complex numbers are suitable for describing two-dimensional continuous phenomena. The values of the first dimension are represented in the real part a , and the values of the second dimension in the complex part b of a complex number. Complex numbers are used, for example, in the modeling of physical phenomena and in Fourier analysis.

Important subsets of the real numbers are the so-called *intervals*. We give the following definitions.

Intervals

Definition 2.9. Connected subsets of the real numbers are called *intervals*. For $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$, one distinguishes

- the *closed interval*

$$[a, b] := \{x \in \mathbb{R} | a \leq x \leq b\}, \quad (2.15)$$

- the *open interval*

$$]a, b[:= \{x \in \mathbb{R} | a < x < b\}, \quad (2.16)$$

- and the *half-open intervals*

$$]a, b] := \{x \in \mathbb{R} | a < x \leq b\} \text{ and } [a, b[:= \{x \in \mathbb{R} | a \leq x < b\}. \quad (2.17)$$

•

As examples, Figure 2.4 graphically represents the intervals $[1, 2]$, $]1, 2]$, $[1, 2[$, and $]1, 2[$. Here one imagines the real numbers as a continuous number line and must in each case note whether the left and right endpoints are part of the interval or not. As mentioned above, positive infinity (∞) and negative infinity $-\infty$ are not elements of $\mathbb{R}$. Thus one always writes $] - \infty, b]$ or $] - \infty, b[$ and $]a, \infty[$ or $[a, \infty[$, as well as $\mathbb{R} =] - \infty, \infty[$.

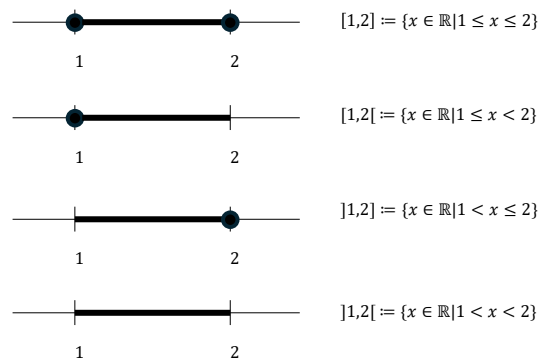


Figure 2.4 Representation of intervals on the number line. The black dot indicates that the corresponding number is part of the interval.

Cartesian Products

Often one wants to quantitatively describe several independent properties of a phenomenon at the same time. For this purpose, the one-dimensional number sets defined above can be extended to multidimensional number sets by forming *Cartesian products*. The elements of Cartesian products are called *ordered tuples* or *vectors*.

Definition 2.10 (Cartesian Products). Let M and N be two sets. Then the *Cartesian product of the sets M and N* is the set of all ordered tuples (m, n) with $m \in M$ and $n \in N$, formally

$$M \times N := \{(m, n) | m \in M, n \in N\}. \quad (2.18)$$

The Cartesian product of a set M with itself is denoted by

$$M^2 := M \times M. \quad (2.19)$$

Furthermore, let $M_1, M_2, \dots, M_n$ be sets. Then the *Cartesian product of the sets $M_1, \dots, M_n$* is the set of all ordered n -tuples $(m_1, \dots, m_n)$ with $m_i \in M_i$ for $i = 1, \dots, n$, formally

$$\prod_{i=1}^n M_i := M_1 \times \dots \times M_n := \{(m_1, \dots, m_n) | m_i \in M_i \text{ for } i = 1, \dots, n\}. \quad (2.20)$$

The n -fold Cartesian product of a set M with itself is denoted by

$$M^n := \prod_{i=1}^n M := \{(m_1, \dots, m_n) | m_i \in M \text{ for } i = 1, \dots, n\}. \quad (2.21)$$

•

In contrast to sets, the tuples introduced in Definition 2.10 are *ordered*. This means, for example, that for sets we have $\{1, 2\} = \{2, 1\}$, but for tuples we have $(1, 2) \neq (2, 1)$.

Example

Let $M := \{1, 2\}$ and $N := \{1, 2, 3\}$. Then the Cartesian product $M \times N$ is given by

$$M \times N := \{(1, 1), (1, 2), (1, 3), (2, 1), (2, 2), (2, 3)\} \quad (2.22)$$

and the Cartesian product $N \times M$ is given by

$$N \times M := \{(1, 1), (1, 2), (2, 1), (2, 2), (3, 1), (3, 2)\}. \quad (2.23)$$

The Cartesian product is therefore generally not commutative, that is, it is not necessarily the case that $M \times N = N \times M$. One may construct the sets $M \times N \neq N \times M$ in this example from Table 2.1 and Table 2.2.

Table 2.1 Cartesian product $M \times N$

(m, n)	$n = 1$	$n = 2$	$n = 3$
$m = 1$	(1, 1)	(1, 2)	(1, 3)
$m = 2$	(2, 1)	(2, 2)	(2, 3)

Table 2.2 Cartesian product $N \times M$

(n, m)	$m = 1$	$m = 2$
$n = 1$	(1, 1)	(1, 2)
$n = 2$	(2, 1)	(2, 2)
$n = 3$	(3, 1)	(3, 2)

$\mathbb{R}$ to the Power of n

As described above, the real numbers are particularly suitable for describing continuous phenomena. For the simultaneous description of several aspects of a continuous phenomenon, the *set of real tuples of n -th order*, or $\mathbb{R}$ to the power of n for short, is correspondingly useful.

Definition 2.11 (Set of Real Tuples of n -th Order). The n -fold Cartesian product of the real numbers with themselves is denoted by

$$\mathbb{R}^n := \prod_{i=1}^n \mathbb{R} := \{x := (x_1, \dots, x_n) | x_i \in \mathbb{R}\} \quad (2.24)$$

and is read as “ $\mathbb{R}$ to the power of n ”. We write the elements of $\mathbb{R}^n$ as columns

$$x := \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ \vdots \\ x_n \end{pmatrix} \quad (2.25)$$

and call them *n-dimensional vectors*. For distinction, we also call the elements of $\mathbb{R}^1 = \mathbb{R}$ *scalars*.

•

Examples

Familiar examples of $\mathbb{R}^n$ are $\mathbb{R}^1$ as the set of real numbers, $\mathbb{R}^2$ as the set of real tuples in the model of the two-dimensional plane, and $\mathbb{R}^3$ as the set of real triples in the model of three-dimensional space, as visualized in Figure 2.5.

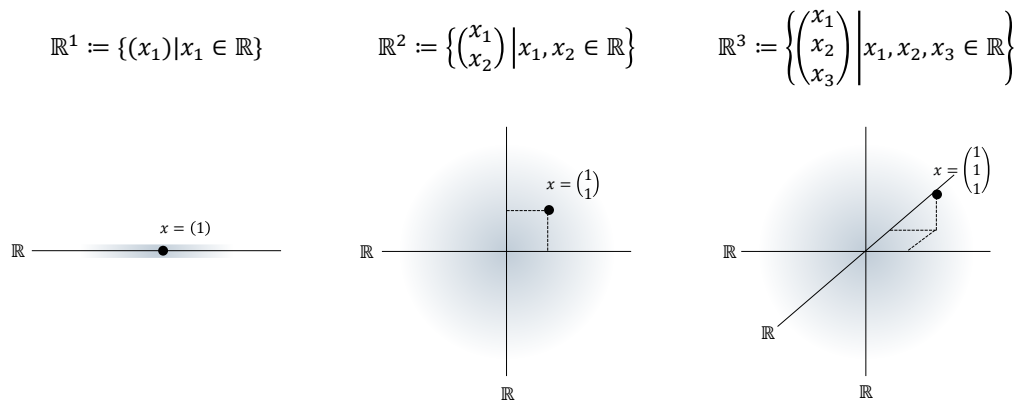


Figure 2.5 $\mathbb{R}^n$ for $n = 1, n = 2$, and $n = 3$. The black dots each represent an element of the corresponding set.

An example of an $x \in \mathbb{R}^4$ is

$$x = \begin{pmatrix} 0.16 \\ 1.76 \\ 0.23 \\ 7.11 \end{pmatrix}. \quad (2.26)$$

3 Sums, Products, Powers

This unit introduces notation for the elementary arithmetic operations.

3.1 Sums

Definition 3.1 (Summation Symbol). It denotes

$$\sum_{i=1}^n x_i = x_1 + x_2 + \cdots + x_n. \quad (3.1)$$

Here,

- Σ denotes the Greek letter *Sigma*, mnemonically standing for *sum*,
- the subscript $i = 1$ denotes the *running index* and the *starting index*,
- the superscript n denotes the *terminal index*, and
- $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$ denote the *summands*.

•

For meaningful use of the summation symbol, it is essential to specify the beginning and the end of the summation by means of the subscript and the superscript. The precise name of the running index, by contrast, is irrelevant for the value of the sum; thus,

$$\sum_{i=1}^n x_i = \sum_{j=1}^n x_j. \quad (3.2)$$

Sometimes the running index is also given as an element of an *index set*. If, for example, the index set $I := \{1, 5, 7\}$ is defined, then

$$\sum_{i \in I} x_i := x_1 + x_5 + x_7. \quad (3.3)$$

In the following, we briefly consider a few examples of how the summation symbol is used.

- *Summation of predefined summands.* Let $x_1 := 2$, $x_2 := 10$, and $x_3 := -4$. Then

$$\sum_{i=1}^3 x_i = x_1 + x_2 + x_3 = 2 + 10 - 4 = 8. \quad (3.4)$$

- *Summation of weighted predefined summands.* Again let $x_1 := 2$, $x_2 := 10$, and $x_3 := -4$. In addition, let the *weighting coefficients* $a_1 := \frac{1}{2}$, $a_2 := \frac{1}{5}$, and $a_3 := 2$ be defined. Then

$$\sum_{i=1}^3 a_i x_i = a_1 x_1 + a_2 x_2 + a_3 x_3 = \frac{1}{2} \cdot 2 + \frac{1}{5} \cdot 10 + 2 \cdot (-4) = 1 + 2 - 8 = -5. \quad (3.5)$$

Expressions of the form $\sum_{i=1}^n a_i x_i$ are also called *linear combinations* of $x_1, \dots, x_n$ with the *coefficients* or *weighting parameters* $a_1, \dots, a_n$.

- *Summation of natural numbers.* We have

$$\sum_{i=1}^5 i = 1 + 2 + 3 + 4 + 5 = 15. \quad (3.6)$$

- *Summation of even natural numbers.* We have

$$\sum_{i=1}^5 2i = 2 \cdot 1 + 2 \cdot 2 + 2 \cdot 3 + 2 \cdot 4 + 2 \cdot 5 = 2 + 4 + 6 + 8 + 10 = 30. \quad (3.7)$$

- *Summation of odd natural numbers.* We have

$$\sum_{i=1}^5 (2i-1) = 2 \cdot 1 - 1 + 2 \cdot 2 - 1 + 2 \cdot 3 - 1 + 2 \cdot 4 - 1 + 2 \cdot 5 - 1 = 1 + 3 + 5 + 7 + 9 = 25. \quad (3.8)$$

Working with the summation symbol can often be simplified by applying the following calculation rules.

Theorem 3.1 (Calculation Rules for Sums).

- (1) *Sums of identical summands*

$$\sum_{i=1}^n x = nx \quad (3.9)$$

- (2) *Associativity for sums of equal length*

$$\sum_{i=1}^n x_i + \sum_{i=1}^n y_i = \sum_{i=1}^n (x_i + y_i) \quad (3.10)$$

- (3) *Distributivity under multiplication by a constant*

$$\sum_{i=1}^n a x_i = a \sum_{i=1}^n x_i \quad (3.11)$$

- (4) *Splitting sums for $1 < m < n$*

$$\sum_{i=1}^n x_i = \sum_{i=1}^m x_i + \sum_{i=m+1}^n x_i \quad (3.12)$$

- (5) *Reindexing*

$$\sum_{i=0}^n x_i = \sum_{j=m}^{n+m} x_{j-m} \quad (3.13)$$

◦

Proof. These calculation rules can be verified by writing out the sums and applying the rules of addition and multiplication. Here, we show associativity for sums of equal length and distributivity under multiplication by a constant as examples. For the former, we have

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{i=1}^n x_i + \sum_{i=1}^n y_i &= x_1 + x_2 + \cdots + x_n + y_1 + y_2 + \cdots + y_n \\ &= x_1 + y_1 + x_2 + y_2 + \cdots + x_n + y_n \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^n (x_i + y_i). \end{aligned} \quad (3.14)$$

For the latter, we have

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{i=1}^n ax_i &= ax_1 + ax_2 + \cdots + ax_n \\ &= a(x_1 + x_2 + \cdots + x_n) \\ &= a \sum_{i=1}^n x_i. \end{aligned} \quad (3.15)$$

□

Examples

As a first example of applying the calculation rules recorded in Theorem 3.1, we consider the evaluation of a *mean* (sometimes also called an *average*). Let $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$ be real numbers. The mean of these numbers is the sum of $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$ divided by the number of numbers n . By statement (3) of Theorem 3.1, it is irrelevant whether the numbers are first added up and the resulting sum is then divided by n , or whether the individual numbers are each divided by n and the corresponding results are then added up. More precisely, by applying Theorem 3.1 (3) with $a = 1/n$, we obtain

$$\frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n x_i = \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{x_i}{n}. \quad (3.16)$$

For example, the mean of $x_1 := 1, x_2 := 4, x_3 := 2$, and $x_4 := 1$ is given by

$$\frac{1}{4} \sum_{i=1}^4 x_i = \frac{1}{4}(1 + 4 + 2 + 1) = \frac{8}{4} = 2 = \frac{8}{4} = \frac{1}{4} + \frac{4}{4} + \frac{2}{4} + \frac{1}{4} = \sum_{i=1}^4 \frac{x_i}{4}. \quad (3.17)$$

As a second example, we consider the reindexing rule recorded in Theorem 3.1 (5). Let $n := 3$ and $m := 2$, and let $x_0 := 2, x_1 := 3, x_2 := 5$, and $x_3 := 10$. Then, evidently,

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{i=0}^3 x_i &= x_0 + x_1 + x_2 + x_3 \\ &= 2 + 3 + 5 + 10 \\ &= 20. \end{aligned} \quad (3.18)$$

But we also have

$$\begin{aligned}
 \sum_{j=m}^{n+m} x_{j-m} &= \sum_{j=2}^{3+2} x_{j-2} \\
 &= \sum_{j=2}^5 x_{j-2} \\
 &= x_{2-2} + x_{3-2} + x_{4-2} + x_{5-2} \\
 &= x_0 + x_1 + x_2 + x_3 \\
 &= 2 + 3 + 5 + 10 \\
 &= 20.
 \end{aligned} \tag{3.19}$$

Double Sums

In applications, one often encounters expressions that carry out several summations one after another. For each of these sums, the definitions and calculation rules listed above apply. The meaning of double sums is best made clear by writing them out from the inside to the outside, while noting that the running index of the outer sum remains constant during each iteration of the inner sum.

The following examples may illustrate this.

(1)

$$\begin{aligned}
 \sum_{i=1}^2 \sum_{j=1}^3 (i+j) &= \sum_{i=1}^2 (i+1 + i+2 + i+3) \\
 &= (1+1 + 1+2 + 1+3) + (2+1 + 2+2 + 2+3) \\
 &= 9 + 12 \\
 &= 21
 \end{aligned} \tag{3.20}$$

(2)

$$\begin{aligned}
 \sum_{i=1}^2 \sum_{j=1}^3 (x_i + y_j) &= \sum_{i=1}^2 (x_i + y_1 + x_i + y_2 + x_i + y_3) \\
 &= (x_1 + y_1 + x_1 + y_2 + x_1 + y_3) + (x_2 + y_1 + x_2 + y_2 + x_2 + y_3)
 \end{aligned} \tag{3.21}$$

(3)

$$\begin{aligned}
 \sum_{i=1}^3 \sum_{j=1}^2 (x_i y_j) &= \sum_{i=1}^3 (x_i y_1 + x_i y_2) \\
 &= (x_1 y_1 + x_1 y_2) + (x_2 y_1 + x_2 y_2) + (x_3 y_1 + x_3 y_2)
 \end{aligned} \tag{3.22}$$

3.2 Products

The product symbol provides notation for products that is analogous to the summation symbol.

Definition 3.2 (Product Symbol). It denotes

$$\prod_{i=1}^n x_i = x_1 \cdot x_2 \cdot \cdots \cdot x_n. \quad (3.23)$$

Here,

- $\prod$ denotes the Greek letter *Pi*, mnemonically standing for *product*,
- the subscript $i = 1$ denotes the *running index* and the *starting index*,
- the superscript n denotes the *terminal index*, and
- $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$ denote the *product terms*.

•

Analogously to the summation symbol, the product symbol is meaningful only with a subscript and a superscript specifying the running and terminal index. The precise name of the running index is again irrelevant; thus,

$$\prod_{i=1}^n x_i = \prod_{j=1}^n x_j. \quad (3.24)$$

Here, too, the running index is in rare cases given as an element of an index set. If, for example, the index set $J := \mathbb{N}_2^0$ is defined, then

$$\prod_{j \in J} x_j := x_0 \cdot x_1 \cdot x_2. \quad (3.25)$$

One example of the use of the product symbol is the definition of the *factorial* of a natural number n by

$$n! := \prod_{i=1}^n i. \quad (3.26)$$

For example,

$$3! := \prod_{i=1}^3 i = 1 \cdot 2 \cdot 3 = 6. \quad (3.27)$$

There are also a number of calculation rules for products that often simplify working with them. We list some in the following theorem. In doing so, we make anticipatory use of the notation of *powers* defined in Section 3.3.

Theorem 3.2 (Calculation Rules for Products).

(1) *Products of identical factors*

$$\prod_{i=1}^n x = x^n \quad (3.28)$$

(2) *Raising constants to powers*

$$\prod_{i=1}^n ax_i = a^n \prod_{i=1}^n x_i \quad (3.29)$$

(3) *Splitting products for $1 < m < n$*

$$\prod_{i=1}^n x_i = \prod_{i=1}^m x_i \prod_{j=m+1}^n x_j \quad (3.30)$$

(4) *Product of products*

$$\prod_{i=1}^n x_i y_i = \prod_{i=1}^n x_i \prod_{i=1}^n y_i \quad (3.31)$$

◦

3.3 Powers

Products of numbers with themselves can be abbreviated using power notation.

Definition 3.3 (Power). For $a \in \mathbb{R}$ and $n \in \mathbb{N}^0$, the n -th power of a is defined by

$$a^0 := 1 \text{ and } a^{n+1} := a^n \cdot a. \quad (3.32)$$

Furthermore, for $a \in \mathbb{R} \setminus \{0\}$ and $n \in \mathbb{N}^0$, the *negative n -th power of a* is defined by

$$a^{-n} := (a^n)^{-1} := \frac{1}{a^n}. \quad (3.33)$$

a is called the *base*, and n is called the *exponent*.

•

The way a^{n+1} is defined by referring back to the power a^n in the above definition is called *recursive*. The definition $a^0 := 1$ is called the *initial case* of the recursion; it is what makes the recursive definition of a^{n+1} possible in the first place. The definition $a^{n+1} := a^n \cdot a$ is also called the *recursion step*. The following calculation rules simplify computations with powers.

Theorem 3.3 (Calculation Rules for Powers). For $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$ and $n, m \in \mathbb{Z}$ with $a \neq 0$ for negative exponents, the following calculation rules hold:

$$a^n a^m = a^{n+m} \quad (3.34)$$

$$(a^n)^m = a^{nm} \quad (3.35)$$

$$(ab)^n = a^n b^n \quad (3.36)$$

◦

Instead of a proof, we consider the following three examples.

(1)

$$2^2 \cdot 2^3 = (2 \cdot 2) \cdot (2 \cdot 2 \cdot 2) = 2^5 = 2^{2+3} \quad (3.37)$$

(2)

$$(3^2)^3 = (3 \cdot 3)^3 = (3 \cdot 3) \cdot (3 \cdot 3) \cdot (3 \cdot 3) = 3^6 = 3^{2 \cdot 3} \quad (3.38)$$

(3)

$$(2 \cdot 4)^2 = (2 \cdot 4) \cdot (2 \cdot 4) = (2 \cdot 2) \cdot (4 \cdot 4) = 2^2 \cdot 4^2 \quad (3.39)$$

Closely related to powers is the definition of the n -th root:

Definition 3.4 (n -th Root). For $a \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$ and $n \in \mathbb{N}$, the n -th root of a is defined as the nonnegative real number r with

$$r^n = a. \quad (3.40)$$

•

When computing with roots, power notation for roots is often helpful because it allows the calculation rules for powers to be applied directly.

Theorem 3.4 (Power Notation for the n -th Root). Let $a \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$, let $n \in \mathbb{N}$, and let r be the n -th root of a . Then

$$r = a^{\frac{1}{n}} \quad (3.41)$$

◦

Proof. We have

$$\left(a^{\frac{1}{n}}\right)^n = a^{\frac{1}{n}} \cdot a^{\frac{1}{n}} \cdot \dots \cdot a^{\frac{1}{n}} = a^{\sum_{i=1}^n \frac{1}{n}} = a^1 = a. \quad (3.42)$$

Thus, by Definition 3.4, $r = a^{\frac{1}{n}}$. □

Computing with square roots is greatly facilitated by the power notation

$$\sqrt{x} = x^{\frac{1}{2}} \quad (3.43)$$

For example,

$$\frac{2\pi}{\sqrt{2\pi}} = \frac{2\pi}{(2\pi)^{\frac{1}{2}}} = (2\pi)^1 \cdot (2\pi)^{-\frac{1}{2}} = (2\pi)^{1-\frac{1}{2}} = (2\pi)^{\frac{1}{2}} = \sqrt{2\pi}. \quad (3.44)$$

The following relation between square, root, and absolute value is used quite often.

Theorem 3.5 (Root and Absolute Value). Let $x \in \mathbb{R}$, and let

$$|x| := \begin{cases} x & \text{for } x \geq 0 \\ -x & \text{for } x < 0 \end{cases} \quad (3.45)$$

denote the absolute value of x . Then

$$\sqrt{x^2} = |x|. \quad (3.46)$$

◦

Proof. We consider the cases $x \geq 0$ and $x < 0$. First, let $x \geq 0$. Then

$$x \geq 0 \Rightarrow x^2 \geq 0 \Rightarrow \sqrt{x^2} = x = |x|. \quad (3.47)$$

Now let $x < 0$. Then

$$x < 0 \Rightarrow x^2 > 0 \Rightarrow \sqrt{x^2} = -x = |x|. \quad (3.48)$$

□

4 Functions

Alongside sets, functions are the second foundational pillar of modern mathematics. In this unit, we define the concept of a function, introduce first properties of functions, and give an overview of several elementary functions.

4.1 Definition and Properties

Definition 4.1 (Function). A *function* or *mapping* f is an assignment rule that assigns exactly one element of a set Z to each element of a set D . D is called the *domain* of f , and Z is called the *codomain* of f . We write

$$f : D \rightarrow Z, x \mapsto f(x), \quad (4.1)$$

where $f : D \rightarrow Z$ is read as “the function f maps all elements of the set D uniquely to elements in Z ” and $x \mapsto f(x)$ is read as “ x , which is an element of D , is mapped by the function f to $f(x)$, where $f(x)$ is an element of Z .” The arrow $\rightarrow$ denotes the mapping between the sets D and Z , while the arrow $\mapsto$ denotes the mapping between an element of D and an element of Z .

•

It is essential to distinguish between the *function* f as an assignment rule and a *value of the function* $f(x)$ as an element of Z . x is the *argument* of the function (the function’s *input*), and $f(x)$ is the value that the function f takes for the argument x (the function’s *output*). Usually, the definition of a function specifies, after $f(x)$, the *functional form of f* , that is, a rule for forming the value $f(x)$ from x . For example, in the following definition of a function

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}, x \mapsto f(x) := x^2 \quad (4.2)$$

the definition of a power is used. Note that functions are always *unique* in the sense that, whenever the function is applied, they always assign one and the same $f(x) \in Z$ to each $x \in D$.

Figure 4.1 visualizes several aspects of the definition of a function. Figure 4.1 A first illustrates the central terms of the definition. Figure 4.1 B shows a first example of a function in which the function values assigned to the arguments are determined not by a computational rule but by direct definition. Figure 4.1 C and Figure 4.1 D use the same pictorial language to emphasize two aspects of the definition by means of counterexamples: the drawing in Figure 4.1 C is not the representation of a function, because by Definition 4.1 a function assigns *each element* of a set D exactly one element of a codomain Z . The sketched assignment rule does not assign any element in Z to the element $2 \in D$, and therefore it is not a function. Similarly, according to Definition 4.1, a function assigns exactly one element of a codomain Z to each element of a set D . The assignment rule

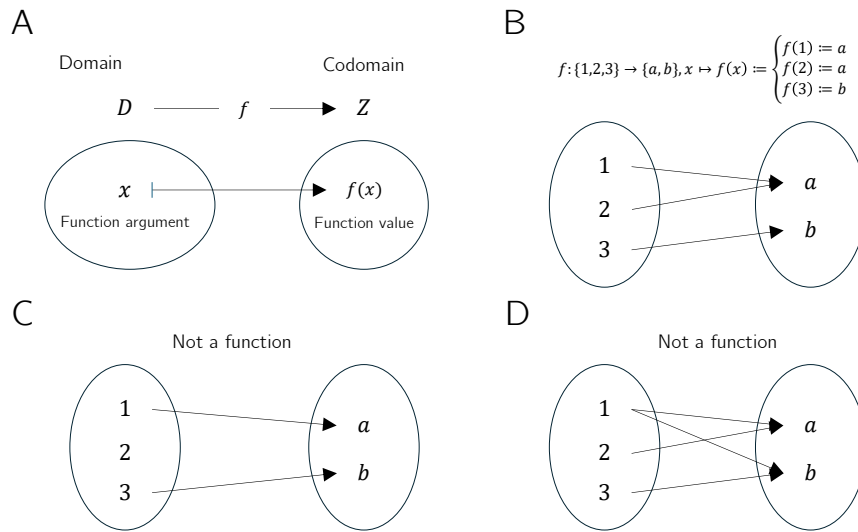


Figure 4.1 Aspects of the definition of a function

sketched in Figure 4.1 D assigns both the element $a \in Z$ and the element $b \in Z$ to $1 \in D$, and therefore it is incompatible with Definition 4.1.

Thus, functions put elements of sets into relation with one another. The sets of these elements receive special names.

Definition 4.2 (Image, Range, Preimage Set, Preimage). Let $f: D \rightarrow Z, x \mapsto f(x)$ be a function and let $D' \subseteq D$ and $Z' \subseteq Z$. The set

$$f(D') := \{z \in Z \mid \text{there exists an } x \in D' \text{ with } z = f(x)\} \quad (4.3)$$

is called the *image of D'* , and $f(D) \subseteq Z$ is called the *range of f* . Furthermore, the set

$$f^{-1}(Z') := \{x \in D \mid f(x) \in Z'\} \quad (4.4)$$

is called the *preimage set of Z'* . An $x \in D$ with $z = f(x) \in Z$ is called a *preimage of z* .

•

Note that the range $f(D)$ of f and the codomain Z of f need not be identical.

Example

To clarify the concepts introduced in Definition 4.2, we consider the function shown in Figure 4.2 A,

$$f: \{1, 2, 3, 4, 5\} \rightarrow \{a, b, c, d\}, x \mapsto f(x) := \begin{cases} f(1) := b \\ f(2) := d \\ f(3) := c \\ f(4) := c \\ f(5) := d \end{cases} \quad (4.5)$$

According to Definition 4.2, an image is always defined with respect to a subset D' of the domain D . Thus, let $D' := \{2, 3\} \subset D$, as shown in Figure 4.2 B. Then the image

of D' is the set of those $z \in Z$ for which there exists an $x \in D'$ such that $z = f(x)$. Here, the relevant $z \in Z$ for which such an $x \in D'$ exists are precisely $c, d \in Z$, because $f(2) = d$ and $f(3) = c$. Beyond these, there is no $z \in Z$ with $f(x) = z$ and $x \in \{2, 3\}$. By Definition 4.2, the range $f(D)$ is the subset of those $z \in Z$ for which there exists an $x \in D$ such that $z = f(x)$. This is true for all elements of Z except for $a \in Z$, because there is no $x \in D$ with $a = f(x)$. For the function considered here, the range of f is therefore given by $f(D) := \{b, c, d\}$.

Conversely, according to Definition 4.2, a preimage set is always defined with respect to a subset Z' of the codomain Z . Thus, let $Z' := \{c, d\} \subset Z$, as shown in Figure 4.2 C. Then the preimage set of Z' is the set of those $x \in D$ for which $f(x) \in Z'$. The elements of D whose function values under f are elements of Z' are precisely $\{2, 3, 4, 5\}$. By contrast, $1 \in D$ is not an element of this preimage set, because f maps $1 \in D$ to $b \in Z$ and $b \notin Z'$. Nevertheless, $1 \in D$ is of course a preimage of b .

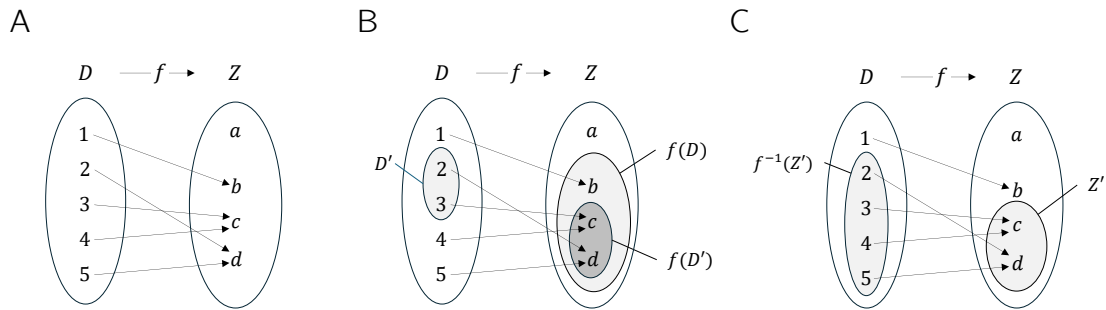


Figure 4.2 (A) Visualization of the function Equation 4.5. (B) Range and an image of f . (C) Preimage set of a set Z' under f

Basic properties of functions are named in the following definition.

Definition 4.3 (Injectivity, Surjectivity, Bijectivity). Let $f : D \rightarrow Z, x \mapsto f(x)$ be a function. f is called *injective* if, for every image element $z \in f(D)$, there is exactly one preimage $x \in D$. Equivalently, f is injective if $x_1, x_2 \in D$ and $x_1 \neq x_2$ imply $f(x_1) \neq f(x_2)$. f is called *surjective* if $f(D) = Z$, that is, if every element of the codomain Z has a preimage in the domain D . Finally, f is called *bijective* if it is both injective and surjective. Bijective functions are also called *one-to-one correspondences* or *one-to-one mappings*.

•

Examples

We first illustrate Definition 4.3 using three (counter)examples in Figure 4.3. Figure 4.3 A shows the *non-injective* function

$$f : \{1, 2, 3\} \rightarrow \{a, b\}, x \mapsto f(x) := \begin{cases} f(1) := a \\ f(2) := a \\ f(3) := b \end{cases} . \quad (4.6)$$

The function is non-injective because the element a in the range of f has more than one preimage in the domain of f , namely the elements 1 and 2. Figure 4.3 B shows the

non-surjective function

$$g : \{1, 2, 3\} \rightarrow \{a, b, c, d\}, x \mapsto g(x) := \begin{cases} g(1) := a \\ g(2) := b \\ g(3) := d \end{cases} . \quad (4.7)$$

The function is non-surjective because the element c in the codomain of g has no preimage in the domain of g . Finally, Figure 4.3 C shows the bijective function

$$h : \{1, 2, 3\} \rightarrow \{a, b, c\}, x \mapsto h(x) := \begin{cases} h(1) := a \\ h(2) := b \\ h(3) := c \end{cases} . \quad (4.8)$$

For *every* element in the codomain of h there is *exactly one* preimage, so the function is injective and surjective and therefore bijective.

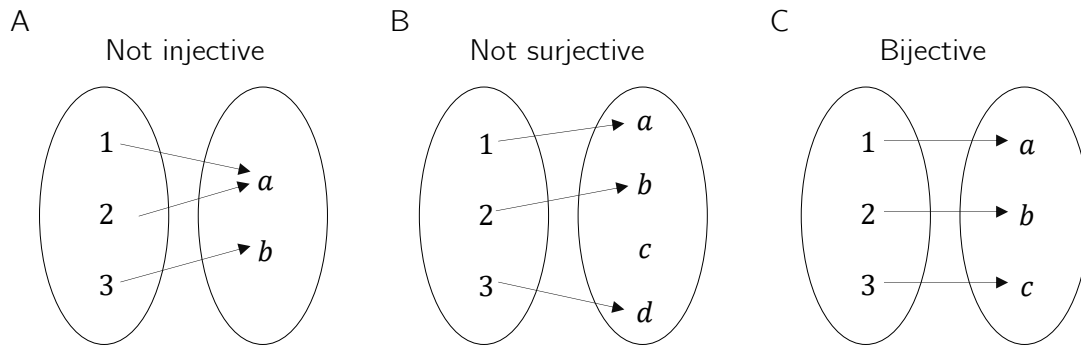


Figure 4.3 Injectivity, surjectivity, bijectivity.

As a further example, consider the function

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := x^2 \quad (4.9)$$

This function is not injective because, for example, with $x_1 = 2 \neq -2 = x_2$ we have $f(x_1) = 2^2 = 4 = (-2)^2 = f(x_2)$. Moreover, f is not surjective because, for example, $-1 \in \mathbb{R}$ has no preimage under f . However, if the domain of f is restricted to the non-negative real numbers, that is, if we define the function

$$\tilde{f} : [0, \infty[\rightarrow [0, \infty[, x \mapsto \tilde{f}(x) := x^2, \quad (4.10)$$

then, in contrast to f , $\tilde{f}$ is injective and surjective, hence bijective.

On the uncountability of the real numbers

At this point, we use the concepts of surjectivity and bijectivity of functions to deepen the idea of the *uncountability of the real numbers* a little. This idea says that there are different kinds of infinities, which is certainly not easy to grasp intuitively at first. Moreover, some aspects of probability theory are formulated in ways that accommodate the uncountability of the real numbers, so even a rough understanding of this property can help motivate some of the subtleties of probability theory. Specifically, we briefly sketch *Cantor's diagonal argument* (Cantor (1891), Gray (1994)) for the uncountability of the real numbers. We begin by recording what, against the background of bijective mappings, is meant by a *finite* and a *countably infinite* set.

Definition 4.4. A set M is called *finite* if there exists a bijective mapping of the form

$$f : \mathbb{N}_n \rightarrow M \quad (4.11)$$

onto the elements of M . Furthermore, a set M is called *countably infinite* if there exists a bijective mapping of the form

$$f : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow M \quad (4.12)$$

onto the elements of M .

•

In the case of a finite set, each element of the set can thus be assigned a natural number with maximum value $n < \infty$ in the sense of a bijective mapping. In the case of a countably infinite set, each element of the set can at least be assigned a natural number in the sense of a bijective mapping. The elements of these sets can therefore be counted.

Cantor (1891) showed that this is not true in general for the real numbers: no bijective mapping between the real numbers and the natural numbers can be constructed, and hence there must be more real numbers than natural numbers. More specifically, one can argue that even the interval $[0, 1]$ already contains more real numbers than there are natural numbers, that is, no surjective function from $\mathbb{N}$ to $[0, 1]$ can be constructed.

Cantor's argument has the following form. Suppose that $f : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow [0, 1]$ is an injective function represented in tabular form, for example as in Table 4.1.

Table 4.1 Mapping $f : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow [0, 1]$. The dots $\dots$ and $:$ indicate that the table continues indefinitely to the right and downward.

n	$f(n)$										
1	0.	3	1	4	1	5	9	2	6	5	...
2	0.	8	9	4	5	9	7	8	1	0	...
3	0.	9	6	2	3	2	1	5	8	7	...
4	0.	5	3	6	8	8	8	9	7	3	...
5	0.	7	4	3	8	1	8	0	9	7	...
$:$	$:$										

Now construct another number in $[0, 1]$ by adding 1 to each of the bold diagonal entries in Table 4.1 whenever the corresponding value is less than 9, and otherwise setting the value to 0. This is shown in Table 4.2.

Table 4.2 Construction of another real number in $[0, 1]$.

n	$f(n)$										
1	0.	4	1	4	1	5	9	2	6	5	...
2	0.	8	0	4	5	9	7	8	1	0	...
3	0.	9	6	3	3	2	1	5	8	7	...
4	0.	5	3	6	9	8	8	9	7	3	...
5	0.	7	4	3	8	2	8	0	9	7	...
$:$	$:$										

The number thus constructed,

$$0.40392... \quad (4.13)$$

cannot occur in Table 4.1, because it differs from $f(1)$ in its first decimal place, from $f(2)$ in its second decimal place, from $f(3)$ in its third decimal place, ..., from $f(n)$ in its n th decimal place, and so on indefinitely. Thus there is at least one number in $[0, 1]$ to which no natural number can be assigned. The injective mapping f is not surjective and therefore not bijective. Consequently, $[0, 1]$ is not countably infinite and is accordingly called *uncountable*.

4.2 Types of Functions

By composition, further functions can be formed from given functions.

Definition 4.5 (Composition of Functions). Let $f : D \rightarrow Z$ and $g : Z \rightarrow S$ be two functions, where the range of f is assumed to agree with the domain of g . Then

$$g \circ f : D \rightarrow S, x \mapsto (g \circ f)(x) := g(f(x)) \quad (4.14)$$

defines a function called the *composition of f and g* .

•

The notation for composed functions takes a little getting used to. It is important to recognize that $g \circ f$ denotes the composed function and $(g \circ f)(x)$ denotes an element in the codomain of the composed function. Intuitively, when evaluating $(g \circ f)(x)$, one first applies the function f to x and then applies the function g to the element $f(x)$ of Z . This is captured by the functional form $g(f(x))$. For simplicity, the composition of two functions is often denoted by a single letter; for example, one writes $h := g \circ f$ with $h(x) = g(f(x))$. A mild source of confusion can arise when elements in the codomain of f are denoted by y , so that the notation $y = f(x)$ and $h(x) = g(y)$ is used. However, this notation is sometimes needed for notational simplicity. We visualize Definition 4.5 in Figure 4.4.

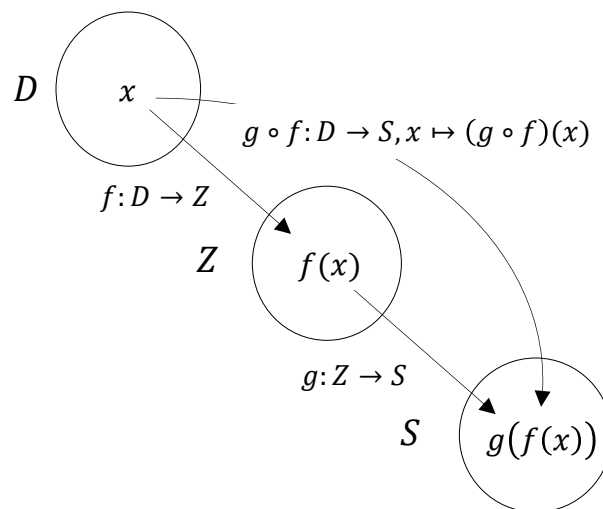


Figure 4.4 Composition of functions.

As an example of the composition of two functions, consider

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := -x^2 \quad (4.15)$$

and

$$g : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto g(x) := \exp(x). \quad (4.16)$$

In this case, the composition of f and g is

$$g \circ f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto (g \circ f)(x) := g(f(x)) = \exp(-x^2). \quad (4.17)$$

A first application of function composition appears in the following definition.

Definition 4.6 (Inverse Function). Let $f : D \rightarrow Z, x \mapsto f(x)$ be a bijective function. Then the function f^{-1} with

$$f^{-1} \circ f : D \rightarrow D, x \mapsto (f^{-1} \circ f)(x) := f^{-1}(f(x)) = x \quad (4.18)$$

is called the *inverse function*, *inverse mapping*, or simply the *inverse of f* .

•

Inverse functions are always bijective. This follows because f is bijective and therefore each $x \in D$ is assigned exactly one $f(x) = z \in Z$. Hence, each $z \in Z$ is also assigned exactly one $x \in D$, namely $f^{-1}(f(x)) = x$. Intuitively, the inverse function of f undoes the effect of f on an element x . We visualize Definition 4.6 in Figure 4.5 A.

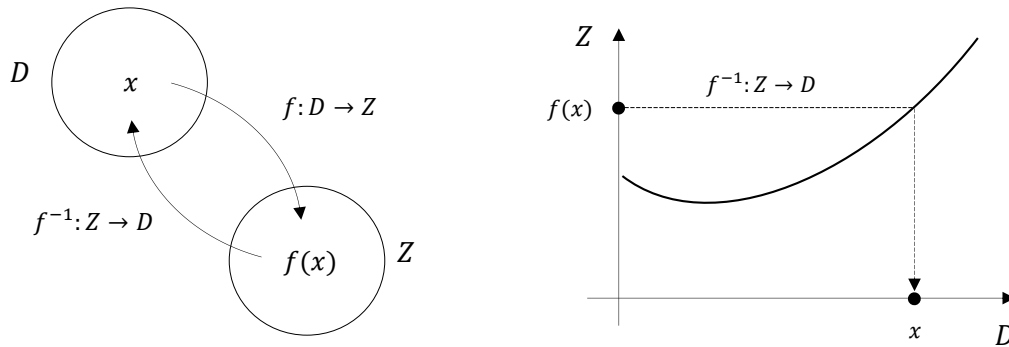


Figure 4.5 Inverse function.

If one considers the graph of a function in a Cartesian coordinate system, then applying a function to a value on the x -axis leads to a value on the y -axis. Applying the inverse function correspondingly leads from a value on the y -axis to a value on the x -axis. We visualize this in Figure 4.5 B. For example, consider the function

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := 2x =: y. \quad (4.19)$$

Then the inverse function of f is given by

$$f^{-1} : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, y \mapsto f^{-1}(y) := \frac{1}{2}y, \quad (4.20)$$

because for every $x \in \mathbb{R}$,

$$(f^{-1} \circ f)(x) := f^{-1}(f(x)) = f^{-1}(2x) = \frac{1}{2} \cdot 2x = x. \quad (4.21)$$

An important class of functions consists of *linear maps*.

Definition 4.7 (Linear Map). A map $f : D \rightarrow Z, x \mapsto f(x)$ is called a *linear map* if, for $x, y \in D$ and a scalar c ,

$$f(x + y) = f(x) + f(y) \quad (\text{additivity})$$

and

$$f(cx) = cf(x) \quad (\text{homogeneity})$$

hold. A map for which the above properties do not hold is called a *nonlinear map*. •

Linear maps are often known as “straight lines.” The general definition of linear maps is not completely congruent with this intuition. In particular, linear maps are only those functions that map zero to zero. We show this in the following theorem.

Theorem 4.1 (Linear Map of Zero). *Let $f : D \rightarrow Z$ be a linear map. Then*

$$f(0) = 0. \quad (4.22)$$

◦

Proof. First note that by additivity of f ,

$$f(0) = f(0 + 0) = f(0) + f(0). \quad (4.23)$$

Adding $-f(0)$ to both sides of the above equation gives

$$f(0) - f(0) = f(0) + f(0) - f(0) \Leftrightarrow f(0) = 0 \quad (4.24)$$

and this proves the claim. □

We illustrate the concept of a linear map with two examples.

- For $a \in \mathbb{R}$, the map

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := ax \quad (4.25)$$

is a linear map because

$$f(x + y) = a(x + y) = ax + ay = f(x) + f(y) \text{ and } f(cx) = acx = cax = cf(x). \quad (4.26)$$

- For $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$, by contrast, the map

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := ax + b \quad (4.27)$$

is nonlinear because, for example, for $a := b := 1$,

$$f(x + y) = 1(x + y) + 1 = x + y + 1 \neq x + 1 + y + 1 = f(x) + f(y). \quad (4.28)$$

A map of the form $f(x) := ax + b$ is called a *linear-affine map* or *linear-affine function*. Somewhat imprecisely, functions of the form $f(x) := ax + b$ are sometimes also called *linear functions*.

Besides the types of functions discussed so far, there are many further classes of functions. In the following definition, we classify functions by the dimensionality of their domains and codomains. This type of function classification is often helpful for gaining an initial overview of a mathematical model.

Definition 4.8 (Function Types). We distinguish

- *univariate real-valued functions* of the form

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x), \quad (4.29)$$

- *multivariate real-valued functions* of the form

$$f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) = f(x_1, \dots, x_n), \quad (4.30)$$

- and *multivariate vector-valued functions* of the form

$$f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m, x \mapsto f(x) = \begin{pmatrix} f_1(x_1, \dots, x_n) \\ \vdots \\ f_m(x_1, \dots, x_n) \end{pmatrix}, \quad (4.31)$$

where $f_i, i = 1, \dots, m$ are called the *components* or *component functions* of f .

•

In physics, multivariate real-valued functions are called *scalar fields*, and multivariate vector-valued functions are called *vector fields*. In some applications, *matrix-variate matrix-valued functions* also occur.

4.3 Elementary Functions

By *elementary functions* we mean a small set of univariate real-valued functions that frequently appear as building blocks of more complex functions. These are the *polynomial functions*, the *exponential function*, the *logarithm function*, and the *gamma function*. In the following, we give the definitions of these functions and state their main properties as theorems, and then present their graphs. For proofs of the properties introduced here, we refer to the advanced literature.

Definition 4.9 (Polynomial Functions). A function of the form

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := \sum_{i=0}^k a_i x^i = a_0 + a_1 x^1 + a_2 x^2 + \dots + a_k x^k \quad (4.32)$$

is called a *polynomial function* of degree k with coefficients $a_0, a_1, \dots, a_k \in \mathbb{R}$. Typical polynomial functions are listed in Table 4.3.

Table 4.3 Polynomial functions.

Name	Form	Coefficients
Constant function	$f(x) = a$	$a_0 := a, a_i := 0, i > 0$
Identity function	$f(x) = x$	$a_0 := 0, a_1 := 1, a_i := 0, i > 1$
Linear-affine function	$f(x) = ax + b$	$a_0 := b, a_1 := a, a_i := 0, i > 1$
Square function	$f(x) = x^2$	$a_0 := 0, a_1 := 0, a_2 := 1, a_i := 0, i > 2$

•

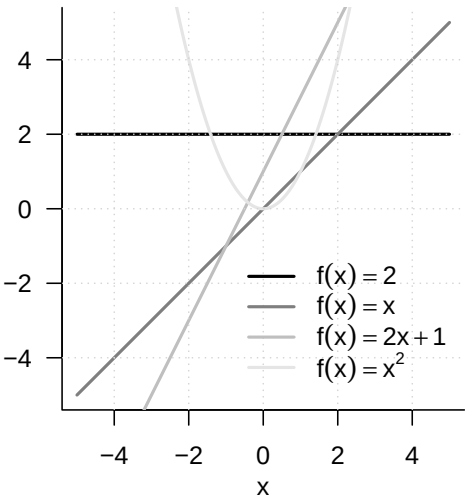


Figure 4.6 Selected polynomial functions

Figure 4.6 shows the graphs of the polynomial functions listed in Definition 4.9.

An important pair of functions consists of the exponential function and the logarithm function.

Theorem 4.2 (Exponential Function and Its Properties). *The exponential function is defined as*

$$\exp : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto \exp(x) := e^x := \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^n}{n!} = 1 + x + \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{x^4}{4!} + \dots$$

(4.33)

Among others, the exponential function has the properties listed in Table 4.4.

Table 4.4 Properties of the exponential function.

Property	Meaning
Range	$x \in]-\infty, 0[\Rightarrow \exp(x) \in]0, 1[$ $x \in]0, \infty[\Rightarrow \exp(x) \in]1, \infty[$
Monotonicity	$x < y \Rightarrow \exp(x) < \exp(y)$
Special values	$\exp(0) = 1$ and $\exp(1) = e$
Summation property	$\exp(x + y) = \exp(x) \exp(y)$
Subtraction property	$\exp(x - y) = \frac{\exp(x)}{\exp(y)}$

◦

In particular, the exponential function only takes positive values and intersects the y -axis at $x = 0$. The number $\exp(1) := e \approx 2.71\dots$ is called *Euler’s number*. Finally, the special values of the exponential function imply

$$\exp(x) \exp(-x) = \exp(x - x) = \exp(0) = 1.$$

(4.34)

Theorem 4.3 (Logarithm Function and Its Properties). *The logarithm function is defined as the inverse function of the exponential function,*

$$\ln :]0, \infty[\rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto \ln(x) \text{ with } \ln(\exp(x)) = x \text{ for all } x \in \mathbb{R}.$$

(4.35)

Among others, the logarithm function has the properties listed in Table 4.5.

Table 4.5 Properties of the logarithm function.

Property	Meaning
Range	$x \in]0, 1[\Rightarrow \ln(x) \in]-\infty, 0[$ $x \in]1, \infty[\Rightarrow \ln(x) \in]0, \infty[$
Monotonicity	$x < y \Rightarrow \ln(x) < \ln(y)$
Special values	$\ln(1) = 0$ and $\ln(e) = 1$
Product property	$\ln(xy) = \ln(x) + \ln(y)$
Power property	$\ln(x^c) = c \ln(x)$
Division property	$\ln\left(\frac{1}{x}\right) = -\ln(x)$

◦

In contrast to the exponential function, the logarithm function takes both negative and positive values. The logarithm function intersects the x -axis at $x = 1$. The product property and the power property are central when calculating with the logarithm function. Intuitively, they can be remembered as: “The logarithm function turns products into sums and powers into products.” The graphs of the exponential and logarithm functions are shown in Figure 4.7.

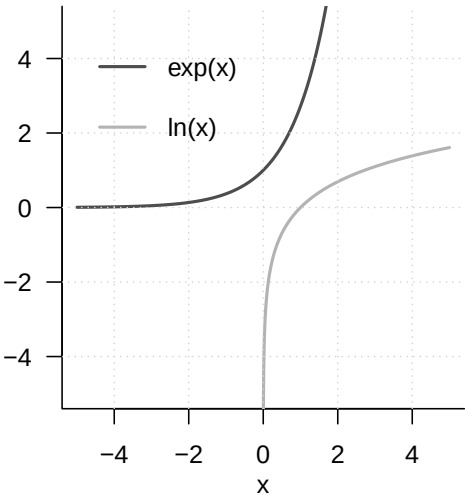


Figure 4.7 Exponential function and logarithm function

A frequent companion in probability theory is the *gamma function*.

Definition 4.10 (Gamma Function). The *gamma function* is defined by

$$\Gamma : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto \Gamma(x) := \int_0^\infty \xi^{x-1} \exp(-\xi) d\xi$$

(4.36)

Among others, the gamma function has the properties listed in Table 4.6.

Table 4.6 Properties of the gamma function.

Property	Meaning
Special values	$\Gamma(1) = 1$
	$\Gamma\left(\frac{1}{2}\right) = \sqrt{\pi}$
	$\Gamma(n) = (n-1)!$ for $n \in \mathbb{N}$
Recursion property	For $x > 0$, $\Gamma(x+1) = x\Gamma(x)$

•

A section of the graph of the gamma function is shown in Figure 4.8.

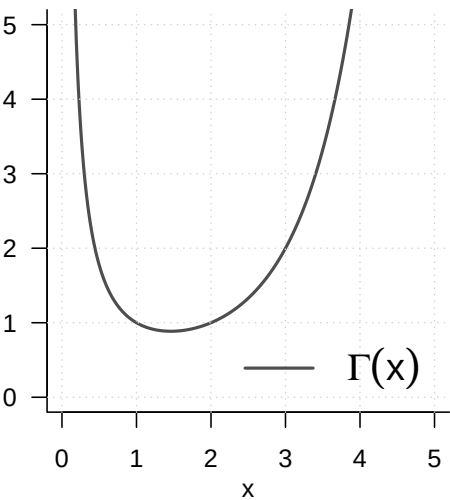


Figure 4.8 Gamma function

5 Sequences, Limits, Continuity

The topics treated in this chapter are not central to probabilistic data science but form basic building blocks of real analysis. Because modern probability theory is closely intertwined with analytic approaches, however, they help us understand certain results of probability theory. One example of such a result is the *central limit theorem*. The central limit theorem, in turn, forms the basis for the widely used normal-distribution assumption in probabilistic data science. The foundations considered here therefore indirectly increase our understanding of data-scientific principles. In brief, the central limit theorem is a statement about the *limit function* of a *sequence of functions*, more precisely about a sequence of random variables. Knowledge of the nature of *sequences*, *sequences of functions*, and their *limits* therefore allows an informed entry into the study of the central limit theorem. Furthermore, the topics treated in this chapter provide at least a first entry point for understanding continuity and smoothness of functions, which are important basic concepts in nonlinear optimization, for example when determining parameter estimators of probabilistic models.

5.1 Sequences

We begin with the definition of the concept of a *real sequence*.

Definition 5.1 (Real Sequence). A *real sequence* is a function of the form

$$f : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, n \mapsto f(n). \quad (5.1)$$

The function values $f(n)$ of a real sequence are usually denoted by x_n and called *sequence terms*. Common notations for sequences are

$$(x_1, x_2, \dots) \text{ or } (x_n)_{n=1}^{\infty} \text{ or } (x_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}} \text{ or } (x_n). \quad (5.2)$$

•

Note that a real sequence, because there are infinitely many natural numbers, always has infinitely many sequence terms. This should be kept in mind especially when using the notation $(x_1, x_2, \dots)$. We consider two standard examples of real sequences.

Examples of Real Sequences

(1) Real sequences of the form

$$f : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, n \mapsto f(n) := \left(\frac{1}{n}\right)^{\frac{p}{q}} \text{ with } p, q \in \mathbb{N} \quad (5.3)$$

are called *harmonic sequences*. For $p := q := 1$, a harmonic sequence has the sequence-term form

$$\left(\frac{1}{1}, \frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{3}, \dots\right). \quad (5.4)$$

(2) Real sequences of the form

$$f : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, n \mapsto f(n) := q^n \text{ with } q \in]-1, 1[\quad (5.5)$$

are called *geometric sequences*. For $q := \frac{1}{2}$, a geometric sequence has the sequence-term form

$$\begin{aligned} \left(\left(\frac{1}{2} \right)^1, \left(\frac{1}{2} \right)^2, \left(\frac{1}{2} \right)^3, \dots \right) &= \left(\frac{1^1}{2^1}, \frac{1^2}{2^2}, \frac{1^3}{2^3}, \dots \right) \\ &= \left(\frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{4}, \frac{1}{8}, \dots \right). \end{aligned} \quad (5.6)$$

In addition to real sequences, that is, sequences of real numbers, one can also consider sequences of other mathematical objects. An important type of sequence is the *sequence of functions*.

Definition 5.2 (Sequence of Functions). Let ϕ be a set of univariate real-valued functions with domain $D \subseteq \mathbb{R}$. Then a sequence of functions is a function of the form

$$F : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \phi, n \mapsto F(n). \quad (5.7)$$

The function values $F(n)$ of a sequence of functions are usually denoted by f_n and called *sequence terms*. Common notations for sequences of functions are

$$(f_1, f_2, \dots) \text{ or } (f_n)_{n=1}^{\infty} \text{ or } (f_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}} \text{ or } (f_n). \quad (5.8)$$

•

The definition of a sequence of functions is evidently analogous to the definition of a real sequence. The difference between a real sequence and a sequence of functions is that the sequence terms of a real sequence are real numbers, whereas the sequence terms of a sequence of functions are univariate real-valued functions. Here, too, we discuss two standard examples.

Examples of Sequences of Functions

(1) We consider the set ϕ of univariate real-valued functions of the form

$$\phi := \{f_n | f_n : [0, 1] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f_n(x) := x^n \text{ for } n \in \mathbb{N}\}. \quad (5.9)$$

Then

$$F : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \phi, n \mapsto F(n) := f_n \quad (5.10)$$

defines a sequence of functions. For the function values of the sequence terms of F , we have

$$f_1(x) := x^1, f_2(x) := x^2, f_3(x) := x^3, \dots \quad (5.11)$$

(2) We consider the set ϕ of univariate real-valued functions of the form

$$\phi := \{f_n | f_n : [-a, a] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f_n(x) := \sum_{k=0}^n \frac{x^k}{k!} \text{ for } n \in \mathbb{N}\}. \quad (5.12)$$

Then

$$F : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \phi, n \mapsto F(n) := f_n \quad (5.13)$$

defines a sequence of functions. For the function values of the sequence terms of F , we have

$$f_1(x) := \sum_{k=0}^1 \frac{x^k}{k!}, f_2(x) := \sum_{k=0}^2 \frac{x^k}{k!}, f_3(x) := \sum_{k=0}^3 \frac{x^k}{k!}, \dots \quad (5.14)$$

5.2 Limits

When considering the terms of a sequence, one can ask which values a sequence might take when the sequence index n becomes very large, that is, tends to infinity. If, in this case, the sequence terms take very similar values (and do not themselves become infinitely large), one is led to the concept of a *limit* for real sequences and a *limit function* for sequences of functions.

Definition 5.3 (Limit of a Real Sequence). $x \in \mathbb{R}$ is called the limit of a real sequence $(x_n)_{n=1}^{\infty}$ if, for every $\epsilon > 0$, there exists an $m \in \mathbb{N}$ such that

$$|x_n - x| < \epsilon \text{ for all } n \geq m. \quad (5.15)$$

A sequence that has a limit is called a *convergent sequence*; a sequence that has no limit is called a *divergent sequence*. To express that $x \in \mathbb{R}$ is the limit of the sequence $(x_n)_{n=1}^{\infty}$, one also writes

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} x_n = x \text{ or } x_n \rightarrow x \text{ for } n \rightarrow \infty \text{ or } x_n \xrightarrow{n \rightarrow \infty} x. \quad (5.16)$$

•

According to Definition 5.3, the limit of a sequence may exist, but it need not. For example, the sequence

$$f : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, n \mapsto f(n) := n \quad (5.17)$$

has no limit, because here both n and $f(n)$ become infinitely large. For a convergent sequence, that is, a sequence whose limit exists, Definition 5.3 says that, for an arbitrarily small but positive ϵ , an $m \in \mathbb{N}$ can be specified such that, for all sequence terms x_n with $n \geq m$, the distance from the limit in the positive or negative direction is smaller than ϵ . Thus the sequence terms with $n \geq m$ lie arbitrarily close to the limit x . It may often be the case that a smaller ϵ requires a larger m .

Examples

The examples of real sequences considered above, by contrast, have limits.

- (1) For the generalized harmonic sequences, with $p, q \in \mathbb{N}$,

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \left(\frac{1}{n} \right)^{\frac{p}{q}} = 0. \quad (5.18)$$

- (2) For the geometric sequences, with $q \in]-1, 1[$,

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} q^n = 0. \quad (5.19)$$

The harmonic and geometric sequences are therefore also called *null sequences*. For general proofs of Equation 5.18 and Equation 5.19, we refer to the advanced literature. In fact, these proofs are not trivial and touch on the basic assumptions about the nature of the real numbers. In Figure 5.1, we visualize the first ten sequence terms as well as the limits of the harmonic sequence for $p := q := 1$ and of the geometric sequence for $q := 1/2$. The sequence terms shown as points evidently lie increasingly closer to the limit shown by a gray line as n increases.

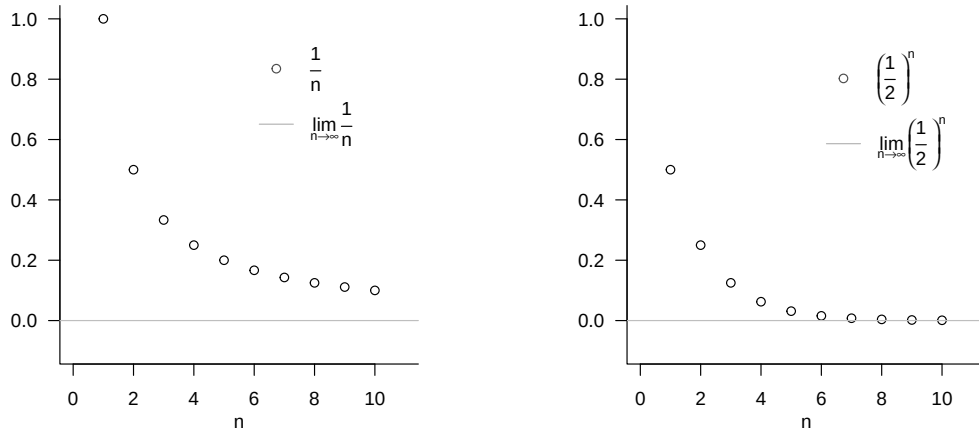


Figure 5.1 Examples of limits of real sequences.

For the special case of the harmonic sequence with $p = q = 1$, we briefly present the argument for the limit

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{1}{n} = 0. \quad (5.20)$$

According to Definition 5.3, Equation 5.20 holds if and only if, for an arbitrary $\epsilon > 0$ (and in particular for an arbitrarily small one), an $m \in \mathbb{N}$ can be specified such that, for all $n \geq m$,

$$\left| \frac{1}{n} - 0 \right| < \epsilon \Leftrightarrow \frac{1}{n} < \epsilon.$$

Thus, using the ceiling function $\lceil \cdot \rceil$, if for an arbitrary $\epsilon > 0$ we set

$$m := \left\lceil \frac{1}{\epsilon} \right\rceil + 1,$$

for example, for $\epsilon := 0.01$ correspondingly $m := \lceil \frac{1}{0.01} \rceil + 1 = 101$, then for all $n \geq m$ we have $\frac{1}{n} < \epsilon$. Since $\epsilon > 0$ was chosen arbitrarily, this construction is possible for all $\epsilon > 0$.

For sequences of functions, one possible extension of the concepts of convergence and limit is the following.

Definition 5.4 (Pointwise Convergence and Limit Function of a Sequence of Functions).

Let $F = (f_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$ be a sequence of functions of univariate real-valued functions with domain D . F is called *pointwise convergent* if the real sequence $(f_n(x))_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$ is a convergent sequence for every $x \in D$, that is, if it has a limit. The function that assigns to each $x \in D$ this limit of $(f_n(x))_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$ is then called the *limit function of the sequence of functions* F and has the form

$$f : D \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n(x). \quad (5.21)$$

•

Note that the limits of convergent real sequences are real numbers, whereas the limit functions of pointwise convergent sequences of functions are functions. In addition to

pointwise convergence of sequences of functions, there is the more powerful concept of *uniform convergence* of sequences of functions, for which we refer to the advanced literature. As examples, we consider the limit functions of the sequences of functions discussed above; for proofs, we again refer to the advanced literature.

Examples

- (1) We consider the sequence of functions

$$F : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \phi, n \mapsto F(n) \quad (5.22)$$

with

$$\phi := \{f_n | f_n : [0, 1] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f_n(x) := x^n \text{ for } n \in \mathbb{N}\}. \quad (5.23)$$

Then F is pointwise convergent with limit function

$$f : [0, 1] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := \begin{cases} 0, & \text{for } x \in [0, 1[\\ 1, & \text{for } x = 1 \end{cases} \quad (5.24)$$

because $f_n(x) := x^n$ is a geometric sequence, and thus a null sequence, for $x \in [0, 1[$, while $f_n(x) := x^n$ is a constant sequence for $x = 1$, all of whose sequence terms have distance 0 from 1. The sequence of functions F therefore converges to a function that is equal to zero on the entire interval $[0, 1]$, except at the point 1. This function evidently has a jump.

- (2) We consider the sequence of functions

$$F : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \phi, n \mapsto F(n) \quad (5.25)$$

with

$$\phi := \{f_n | f_n : [-a, a] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f_n(x) := \sum_{k=0}^n \frac{x^k}{k!} \text{ for } n \in \mathbb{N}\}. \quad (5.26)$$

Then F is pointwise convergent with limit function

$$f : [-a, a] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^k}{k!} =: \exp(x). \quad (5.27)$$

The sequence of functions F therefore converges to the exponential function on $[-a, a]$. Conversely, the exponential function is defined precisely by

$$\exp(x) := \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^k}{k!}. \quad (5.28)$$

5.3 Continuity

In this section, we approach the concept of the *continuity* of a function. Intuitively, a function is continuous if it has no jumps or, equivalently, if small changes in its arguments always lead only to small changes in its function values (and therefore precisely to no jumps). To define continuity, we first need the concept of the *limit of a function*.

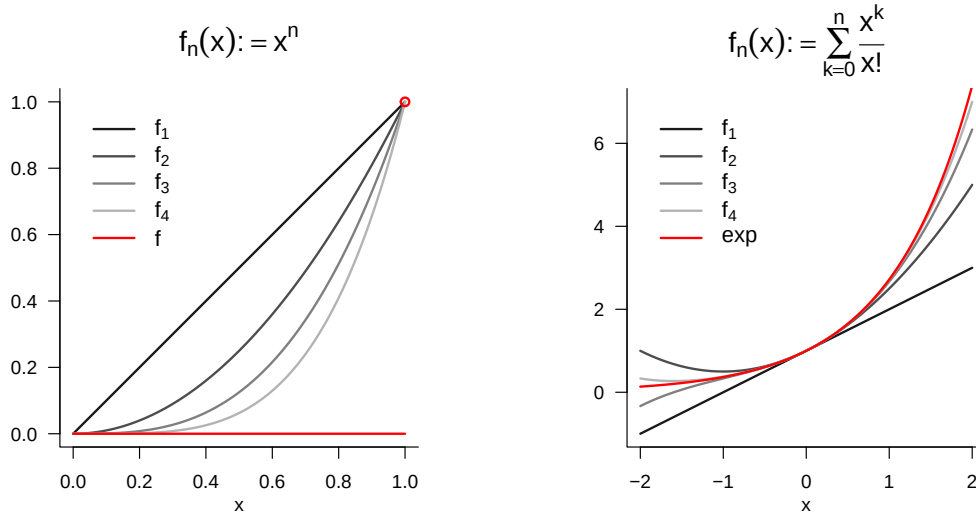


Figure 5.2 Examples of limits of sequences of functions.

Definition 5.5 (Limit of a Function).

For $D \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ and $Z \subseteq \mathbb{R}$, let $f : D \rightarrow Z, x \mapsto f(x)$ be a function, and let $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$. b is called the *limit of the function f as x tends to a* if

- (1) there exists a real sequence $(x_n)_{n=1}^{\infty}$ with sequence terms in D and limit a , that is, $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} x_n = a$, and
- (2) for every such sequence, b is the limit of the sequence of function values $f(x_n)$ of the sequence terms of $(x_n)_{n=1}^{\infty}$, that is, $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f(x_n) = b$.

If b is the limit of the function f as x tends to a , one also writes $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = b$.

•

In Figure 5.3, we visualize the limit of the exponential function at $a = 1$ by representing sequence terms $x_n \rightarrow 1$ as points parallel to the x-axis and the corresponding sequence terms $f(x_n)$ on the function graph. Evidently, $\lim_{x \rightarrow 1} \exp(x) = e \approx 2.71$.

We can now define the concept of continuity of a function.

Definition 5.6 (Continuity of a Function). A function $f : D \rightarrow Z$ with $D \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ and $Z \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ is called *continuous at $a \in D$* if

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = f(a). \quad (5.29)$$

If f is continuous at every $x \in D$, then f is *continuous on D* .

•

Note that, for a function continuous at a , it follows that

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = f\left(\lim_{x \rightarrow a} x\right). \quad (5.30)$$

For continuous functions, taking limits and evaluating the function can therefore be interchanged.

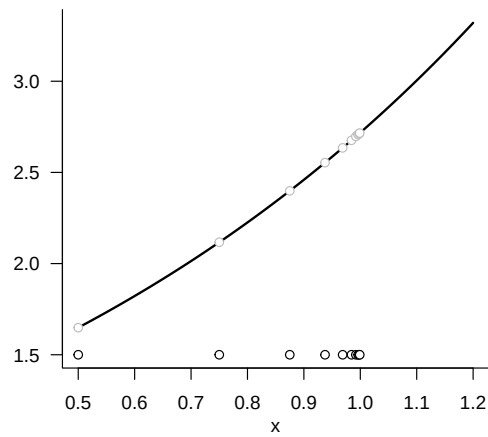


Figure 5.3 Example of the limit of a function. The sequence of x -values is defined here as $x_n := 1 - (1/2)^n$ for $n = 1, 2, \dots$.

6 Differential Calculus

Differential calculus is concerned with the change of functions. On the one hand, it provides the basis for the mathematical modelling of dynamic systems by means of *differential equations*, that is, the description of functions in terms of their rates of change. On the other hand, differential calculus provides the basis of *optimization*, that is, of determining extrema of functions. In Section 6.1 we first introduce the concept of the derivative and elementary calculation rules associated with it. In Section 6.2 we then turn to the question of how derivatives can be used to determine extrema of functions.

6.1 Definitions and Calculation Rules

We begin with the following definition.

Definition 6.1 (Differentiability and Derivative). Let $I \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ be an interval and let

$$f : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) \quad (6.1)$$

be a univariate real-valued function. f is called *differentiable* at $a \in I$ if the limit

$$f'(a) := \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(a+h) - f(a)}{h} \quad (6.2)$$

exists. $f'(a)$ is then called the *derivative of f at the point a* . If f is differentiable for all $x \in I$, then f is called *differentiable*, and the function

$$f' : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f'(x) \quad (6.3)$$

is called the *derivative of f* .

•

For $h > 0$, the expression

$$\frac{f(a+h) - f(a)}{h} \quad (6.4)$$

is called the *Newton difference quotient*. As shown in Figure 6.1, the Newton difference quotient measures the change $f(a+h) - f(a)$ of f on the y -axis per distance h on the x -axis. If, for example, $f(a)$ and $f(a+h)$ represent the position of an object at a time a and at a later time $a+h$, then $f(a+h) - f(a)$ is the distance travelled by this object in the time h , that is, its average velocity over the time interval h . For $h \rightarrow 0$, the Newton difference quotient then measures the instantaneous rate of change of f at a , in this example the velocity of the object at time a .

From a mathematical point of view, it is important to distinguish between the symbols $f'(a)$ and f' in the definition of the derivative. As usual, $f'(a)$ denotes the value of a

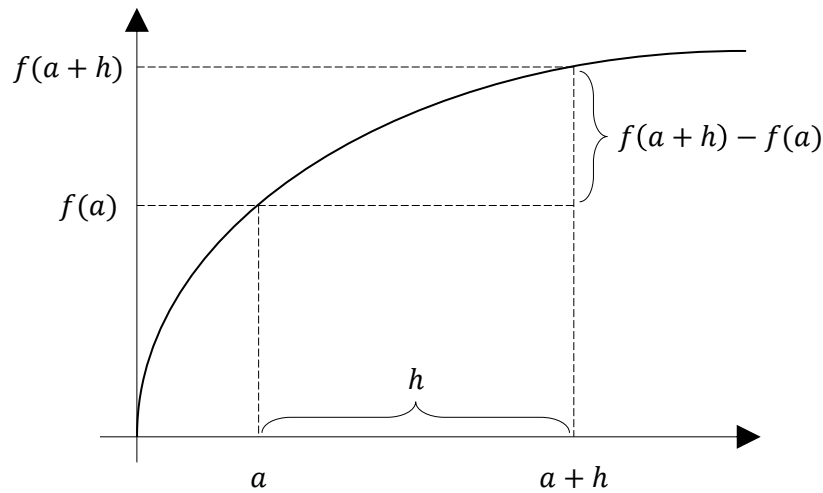


Figure 6.1 Elements of the Newton difference quotient.

function, that is, a number. In contrast, f' denotes a function, namely the function whose values are given by $f'(a)$ for all $a \in \mathbb{R}$.

Several historically established notations for derivatives exist in the literature; all of them represent the same concept of the derivative.

Definition 6.2 (Notation for Derivatives of Univariate Real-Valued Functions). Let f be a univariate real-valued function. Equivalent notations for the derivative of f and the derivative of f at a point x are

- the *Lagrange notation* f' and $f'(x)$,
- the *Leibniz notation* $\frac{df}{dx}$ and $\frac{df(x)}{dx}$,
- the *Newton notation* $\dot{f}$ and $\dot{f}(x)$,
- the *Euler notation* Df and $Df(x)$.

•

In the following, for univariate real-valued functions we will mainly use the Lagrange notation f' and $f'(x)$ as labels. In calculations, we also use an adapted form of Leibniz notation and understand the expression $\frac{d}{dx}f(x)$ as the instruction to compute the derivative of f . Newton notation is used mainly when the function argument represents time and is then usually denoted by t for *time*. Accordingly, $\dot{f}(t)$ denotes the rate of change of f at time t . Euler notation is particularly useful in the context of multivariate real-valued or vector-valued functions.

We assume a number of derivatives of elementary functions to be known; these are summarized in Table 6.1. For proofs, we refer to the advanced literature.

Table 6.1 Derivatives of elementary functions

Name	Definition	Derivative
Polynomial function	$f(x) := \sum_{i=0}^k a_i x^i$	$f'(x) = \sum_{i=1}^k i a_i x^{i-1}$
Constant function	$f(x) := a$	$f'(x) = 0$
Identity function	$f(x) := x$	$f'(x) = 1$
Linear-affine function	$f(x) := ax + b$	$f'(x) = a$
Square function	$f(x) := x^2$	$f'(x) = 2x$
Exponential function	$f(x) := \exp(x)$	$f'(x) = \exp(x)$
Logarithm function	$f(x) := \ln(x)$	$f'(x) = \frac{1}{x}$

In Figure 6.2 we visualize the identity function, a linear function, and the square function together with their respective derivatives. In Figure 6.3 we visualize the exponential and logarithm functions together with their respective derivatives.

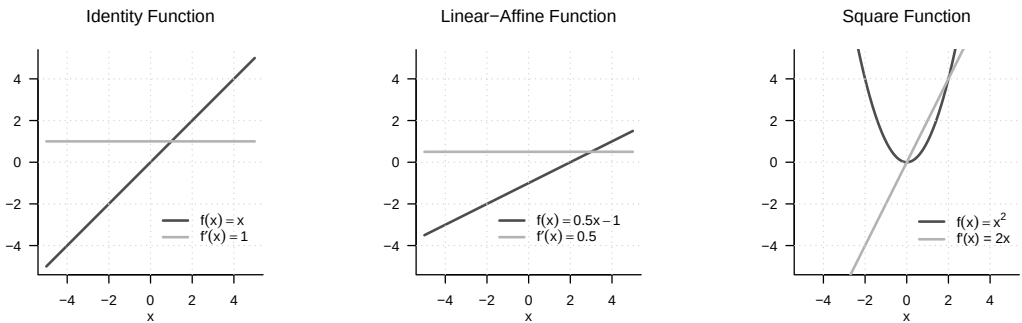


Figure 6.2 Derivatives of three elementary functions. The derivative of the identity function is the constant function with value 1, the derivative of the linear-affine function considered here is the constant function with value 0.5, and the derivative of the square function is the linear-affine function with $a = 2$ and $b = 0$.

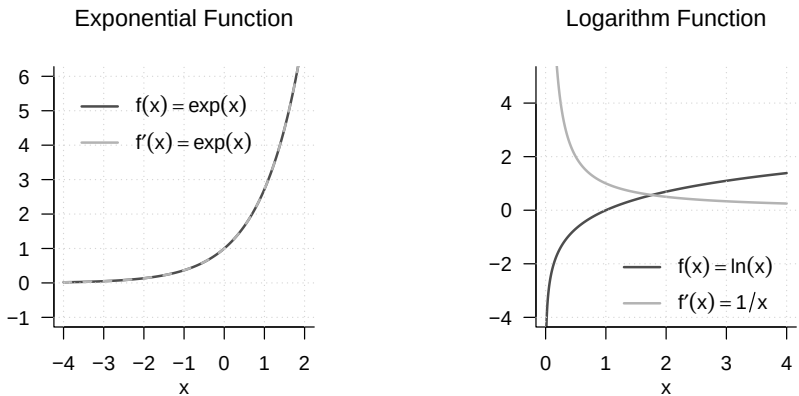


Figure 6.3 Derivatives of the exponential function and the logarithm function. The derivative of the exponential function is the exponential function itself; the derivative of the logarithm function has function values $1/x$.

Based on the definition of the derivative of a univariate real-valued function, further derivatives of such a function can be defined easily.

Definition 6.3 (Higher Derivatives). Let f be a univariate real-valued function and let

$$f^{(1)} := f' \quad (6.5)$$

be the derivative of f . The k th derivative of f is defined recursively by

$$f^{(k)} := (f^{(k-1)})' \text{ for } k > 1, \quad (6.6)$$

assuming that $f^{(k-1)}$ is differentiable. In particular, the *second derivative* of f is defined as the derivative of f' , that is,

$$f'' := (f')'. \quad (6.7)$$

•

In analogy to the above, in calculations we also write $\frac{d^2}{dx^2}f(x)$ for the instruction to determine the second derivative of a function f . The zeroth derivative $f^{(0)}$ of f is f itself. By tradition and for simplicity, for $k < 4$ one usually writes f' , f'' , and f''' according to Lagrange notation instead of $f^{(1)}$, $f^{(2)}$, and $f^{(3)}$.

Example

Let

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := x^2. \quad (6.8)$$

Then

$$f^{(1)}(x) = f'(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(x^2) = 2x. \quad (6.9)$$

Furthermore,

$$\begin{aligned} f^{(2)}(x) &= (f^{(2-1)})'(x) = (f^{(1)})'(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(2x) = 2, \\ f^{(3)}(x) &= (f^{(3-1)})'(x) = (f^{(2)})'(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(2) = 0, \\ f^{(4)}(x) &= (f^{(4-1)})'(x) = (f^{(3)})'(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(0) = 0. \end{aligned} \quad (6.10)$$

Thus, throughout this calculation, one computes only first derivatives.

A number of calculation rules are helpful for determining the derivative of a function because they allow the derivative of a function to be derived from the derivatives of its subfunctions. For proofs of the calculation rules introduced in the following theorem, we refer to the advanced literature.

Theorem 6.1 (Calculation Rules for Derivatives). *For $i = 1, \dots, n$, let g_i be real-valued univariate differentiable functions. Then the following calculation rules hold:*

(1) *Sum rule*

$$\text{For } f(x) := \sum_{i=1}^n g_i(x), \quad f'(x) = \sum_{i=1}^n g'_i(x). \quad (6.11)$$

(2) *Product rule*

$$\text{For } f(x) := g_1(x)g_2(x), \quad f'(x) = g'_1(x)g_2(x) + g_1(x)g'_2(x). \quad (6.12)$$

(3) *Quotient rule*

$$\text{For } f(x) := \frac{g_1(x)}{g_2(x)}, \quad f'(x) = \frac{g_1'(x)g_2(x) - g_1(x)g_2'(x)}{g_2^2(x)}. \quad (6.13)$$

(4) *Chain rule*

$$\text{For } f(x) := g_1(g_2(x)), \quad f'(x) = g_1'(g_2(x))g_2'(x). \quad (6.14)$$

◦

Examples

(1) *Sum rule*

Let

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := 4x^3 + 3x^2. \quad (6.15)$$

Then f has the form

$$f(x) = \sum_{i=1}^2 g_i(x) = g_1(x) + g_2(x) \text{ with } g_1(x) := 4x^3 \text{ and } g_2(x) := 3x^2. \quad (6.16)$$

Moreover,

$$g_1'(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(4x^3) = 12x^2 \text{ and } g_2'(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(3x^2) = 6x. \quad (6.17)$$

Thus, by the sum rule,

$$f'(x) = \sum_{i=1}^2 g_i'(x) = g_1'(x) + g_2'(x) = 12x^2 + 6x. \quad (6.18)$$

(2) *Product rule*

Let

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := x^2 \sin(x). \quad (6.19)$$

Then f has the form

$$f(x) = g_1(x)g_2(x) \text{ with } g_1(x) := x^2 \text{ and } g_2(x) := \sin(x). \quad (6.20)$$

Moreover,

$$g_1'(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(x^2) = 2x \text{ and } g_2'(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(\sin x) = \cos(x). \quad (6.21)$$

Thus, by the product rule,

$$f'(x) = g_1'(x)g_2(x) + g_1(x)g_2'(x) = 2x \sin(x) + x^2 \cos(x). \quad (6.22)$$

(3) *Quotient rule*

Let

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := \frac{x^2}{x+1}. \quad (6.23)$$

Then f has the form

$$f(x) = \frac{g_1(x)}{g_2(x)} \text{ with } g_1(x) := x^2 \text{ and } g_2(x) := x + 1. \quad (6.24)$$

Moreover,

$$g_1'(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(x^2) = 2x \text{ and } g_2'(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(1 + x) = 1. \quad (6.25)$$

Thus, by the quotient rule,

$$f'(x) = \frac{g_1'(x)g_2(x) - g_1(x)g_2'(x)}{g_2^2(x)} = \frac{2x(x+1) - x^2}{(x+1)^2} = \frac{2x^2 + 2x - x^2}{(x+1)^2} = \frac{x^2 + 2x}{(x+1)^2}. \quad (6.26)$$

(4) Chain rule

Let

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := \exp(-x^2). \quad (6.27)$$

Then f has the form

$$f(x) = g_1(g_2(x)) \text{ with } g_1(x) := \exp(x) \text{ and } g_2(x) := -x^2. \quad (6.28)$$

Moreover,

$$g_1'(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(\exp(x)) = \exp(x) \text{ and } g_2'(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(-x^2) = -2x. \quad (6.29)$$

Thus, by the chain rule,

$$f'(x) = g_1'(g_2(x))g_2'(x) = \exp(-x^2)(-2x) = -2x \exp(-x^2). \quad (6.30)$$

One can therefore remember the derivative resulting from the chain rule as: “The derivative of the outer function at the value of the inner function times the derivative of the inner function.”

6.2 Analytic Optimization

An important application of differential calculus is the determination of extrema of functions. At its core, this concerns the question for which values in its domain a function assumes a maximum or a minimum. For simple functions this is possible analytically. The general procedure is often also known under the keyword “curve sketching”. In applications, an analytic approach to optimizing functions is usually not possible, and numerical algorithms are used to determine extrema. Understanding these algorithms, however, presupposes an understanding of the principles of analytic optimization. In this section, we give an introduction to analytic optimization of univariate real-valued functions. We begin by making precise the concepts of maxima and minima of univariate real-valued functions mentioned above.

Definition 6.4 (Extreme Points and Extreme Values). Let $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ and let $f : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a univariate real-valued function. f has at the point $x_0 \in U$

- a *local minimum* if there is an interval $I :=]a, b[$ with $x_0 \in]a, b[$ and

$$f(x_0) \leq f(x) \text{ for all } x \in I \cap U, \quad (6.31)$$

- a *global minimum* if

$$f(x_0) \leq f(x) \text{ for all } x \in U, \quad (6.32)$$

- a *local maximum* if there is an interval $I :=]a, b[$ with $x_0 \in]a, b[$ and

$$f(x_0) \geq f(x) \text{ for all } x \in I \cap U, \quad (6.33)$$

- a *global maximum* if

$$f(x_0) \geq f(x) \text{ for all } x \in U. \quad (6.34)$$

The value $x_0 \in U$ of the domain of f is called, respectively, a *local* or *global minimizer* or *maximizer*, and the function value $f(x_0) \in \mathbb{R}$ is called, respectively, a *local* or *global minimum* or *maximum*. In general, the value $x_0 \in U$ is called an *extreme point*, and the function value $f(x_0) \in \mathbb{R}$ is called an *extreme value*.

•

Extreme points of functions are often denoted by

$$\operatorname{argmin}_{x \in I \cap U} f(x) \text{ or } \operatorname{argmax}_{x \in I \cap U} f(x), \quad (6.35)$$

and extreme values of functions are often denoted by

$$\min_{x \in I \cap U} f(x) \text{ or } \max_{x \in I \cap U} f(x). \quad (6.36)$$

Figure 6.4 visualizes the different types of extreme values according to Definition 6.4.

Analytic optimization of univariate real-valued functions is based on the so-called *necessary* and *sufficient conditions for extrema*. The former makes a statement about the behavior of the first derivative of a function at an extreme point; the latter makes a statement about the behavior of a function at a point that satisfies certain requirements on its first and second derivatives.

Theorem 6.2 (Necessary Condition for Extrema). *Let f be a univariate real-valued function that is differentiable in a neighborhood of x_0 . If x_0 is an interior extreme point of f , then*

$$x_0 \text{ is an interior extreme point of } f \Rightarrow f'(x_0) = 0. \quad (6.37)$$

◦

If x_0 is an interior extreme point of f , then the first derivative of f at x_0 is therefore equal to zero. Instead of giving a proof, let us reason that, for example, at a local maximizer x_0 of f , f increases to the left of x_0 and decreases to the right of x_0 . At x_0 , however, f neither increases nor decreases, so it is plausible that $f'(x_0) = 0$.

Theorem 6.3 (Sufficient Conditions for Local Extrema). *Let f be a twice differentiable univariate real-valued function.*

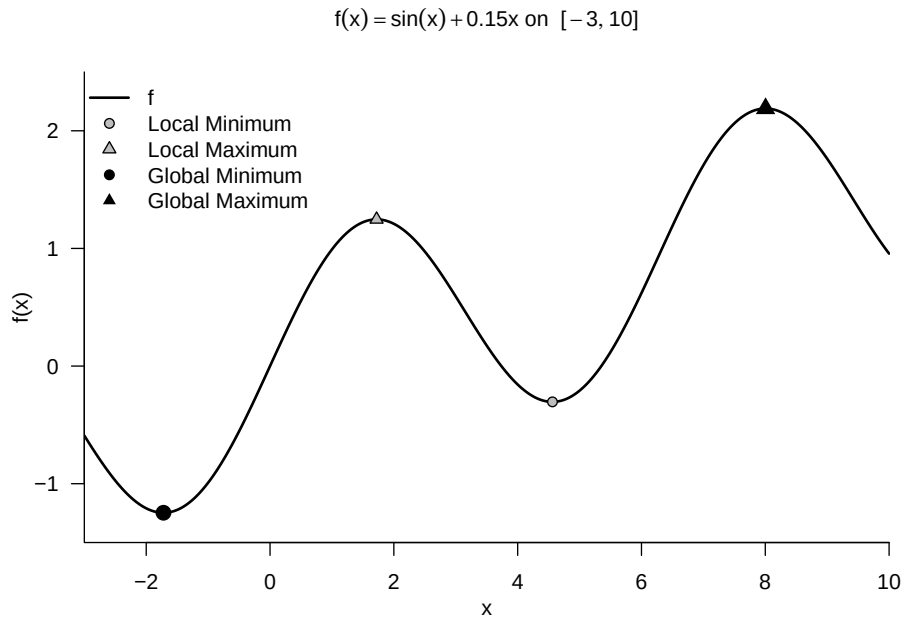


Figure 6.4 Extreme points of a function.

- If, for $x_0 \in U \subseteq \mathbb{R}$,

$$f'(x_0) = 0 \text{ and } f''(x_0) > 0 \quad (6.38)$$

holds, then f has a local minimum at the point x_0 .

- If, for $x_0 \in U \subseteq \mathbb{R}$,

$$f'(x_0) = 0 \text{ and } f''(x_0) < 0 \quad (6.39)$$

holds, then f has a local maximum at the point x_0 .

◦

Again we omit a proof and illustrate the condition with the example shown in Figure 6.5. Here, clearly, $x_0 = 1$ is a local minimizer of $f(x) = (x - 1)^2$. We can see that to the left of x_0 , f decreases, and to the right of x_0 , f increases. At x_0 , f neither increases nor decreases, so $f'(x_0) = 0$. Moreover, to the left and right of x_0 and at x_0 , the change f'' of f' is positive: to the left of x_0 , the negativity of f' weakens to 0, and to the right of x_0 , the positivity of f' increases.

In particular, the sufficient conditions for local extrema suggest the following *standard procedure* for determining local extreme points.

Theorem 6.4 (Standard Procedure of Analytic Optimization). *Let f be a univariate real-valued function. Local extreme points of f can be identified by the following standard procedure of analytic optimization:*

1. Compute the first and second derivatives of f .
2. Determine zeros x^* of f' by solving $f'(x^*) = 0$ for x^* . The zeros of f' are then candidates for extreme points of f .

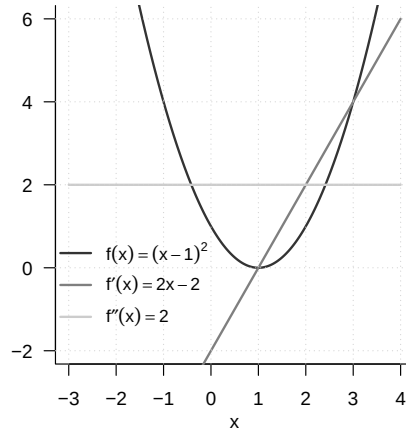


Figure 6.5 Analytic optimization of $f(x) := (x - 1)^2$.

3. Evaluate $f''(x^*)$: If $f''(x^*) > 0$, then x^* is a local minimizer of f ; if $f''(x^*) < 0$, then x^* is a local maximizer of f ; if $f''(x^*) = 0$, then this criterion does not allow a decision.

◦

Example

Instead of giving a proof, we consider the function

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := (x - 1)^2 \quad (6.40)$$

as an example. The first derivative of f from Figure 6.5 is obtained by the chain rule as

$$f'(x) = \frac{d}{dx} ((x - 1)^2) = 2(x - 1) \cdot \frac{d}{dx} (x - 1) = 2x - 2. \quad (6.41)$$

The second derivative of f is

$$f''(x) = \frac{d}{dx} f'(x) = \frac{d}{dx} (2x - 2) = 2 > 0 \text{ for all } x \in \mathbb{R}. \quad (6.42)$$

Solving $f'(x^*) = 0$ for x^* yields

$$f'(x^*) = 0 \Leftrightarrow 2x^* - 2 = 0 \Leftrightarrow 2x^* = 2 \Leftrightarrow x^* = 1. \quad (6.43)$$

Consequently, $x^* = 1$ is a minimizer of f with associated minimum value $f(1) = 0$.

6.3 Differential Calculus of Multivariate Real-Valued Functions

We first recall the concept of a multivariate real-valued function.

Definition 6.5 (Multivariate Real-Valued Function). A function of the form

$$f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) = f(x_1, \dots, x_n) \quad (6.44)$$

is called a *multivariate real-valued function*. •

The arguments of multivariate real-valued functions are thus real n -tuples of the form $x := (x_1, \dots, x_n)$, whereas their function values are real numbers. An example of a multivariate real-valued function with $n := 2$ is

$$f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := x_1^2 + x_2^2. \quad (6.45)$$

We visualize this function in Figure 6.6. The right-hand panel shows a representation by means of so-called *isocontours*, that is, lines in the domain of the function for which the function assumes identical values. The corresponding values are marked for selected isocontours in the figure.

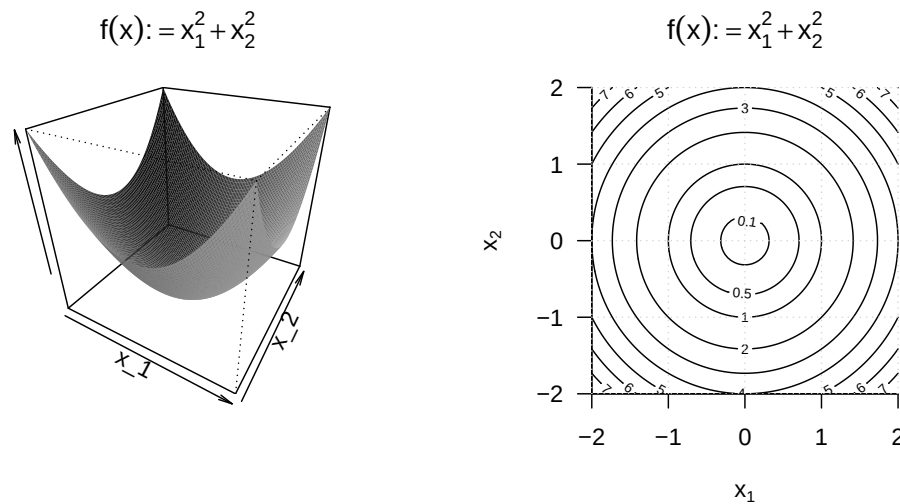


Figure 6.6 Visualizations of a bivariate function. The left-hand panel visualizes the function values as a surface above the two-dimensional domain of the function. Although this representation has a certain three-dimensional character, it is a bivariate function with a correspondingly two-dimensional domain. The right-hand panel visualizes lines with equal function values in the two-dimensional domain of the function.

We now begin to extend the concepts of differentiability and the derivative of univariate real-valued functions to the case of multivariate real-valued functions. To this end, we first introduce the concepts of *partial differentiability* and the *partial derivative*.

Definition 6.6 (Partial Differentiability and Partial Derivative). Let $D \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ be a set and let

$$f : D \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) \quad (6.46)$$

be a multivariate real-valued function. f is called *partially differentiable with respect to x_i* at $a \in D$ if the limit

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} f(a) := \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(a + he_i) - f(a)}{h} \quad (6.47)$$

exists. $\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} f(a)$ is then called the *partial derivative of f with respect to x_i at the point a* . If f is partially differentiable with respect to x_i for all $x \in D$, then f is called *partially differentiable with respect to x_i* , and the function

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} f : D \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} f(x) \quad (6.48)$$

is called the *partial derivative of f with respect to x_i* . f is called *partially differentiable at $x \in D$* if f is partially differentiable with respect to x_i at $x \in D$ for all $i = 1, \dots, n$, and f is called *partially differentiable* if f is partially differentiable with respect to x_i at all $x \in D$ for all $i = 1, \dots, n$.

•

In Definition 6.6, $e_i \in \mathbb{R}^n$ denotes the i th canonical unit vector, for which $(e_i)_j = 1$ for $i = j$ and $(e_i)_j = 0$ for $i \neq j$ with $j = 1, \dots, n$. In analogy and generalization to the Newton difference quotient, the difference quotient occurring here,

$$\frac{f(x + he_i) - f(x)}{h}, \quad (6.49)$$

therefore measures the change $f(x + he_i) - f(x)$ of f per distance h in the direction e_i . We visualize the components of this quotient for the case of a bivariate function in Figure 6.7.

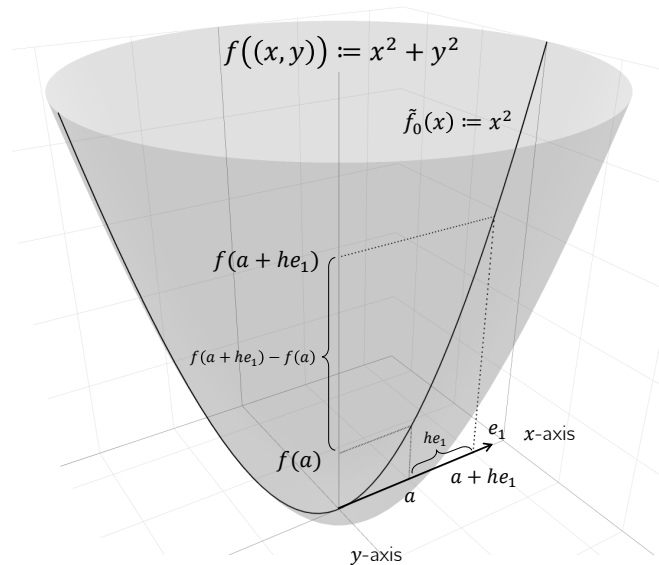


Figure 6.7 Components of the partial Newton difference quotient.

For $h \rightarrow 0$, the difference quotient correspondingly measures the *rate of change* of f at x in the direction e_i . As in the discussion of derivatives, $\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} f(x)$ is a number, whereas $\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} f$ is a function. In practice, one computes $\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} f$ as the (ordinary) derivative

$$\frac{d}{dx_i} \tilde{f}_{x_1, \dots, x_{i-1}, x_{i+1}, \dots, x_n}(x_i) \quad (6.50)$$

of the univariate real-valued function

$$\tilde{f} : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x_i \mapsto \tilde{f}_{x_1, \dots, x_{i-1}, x_{i+1}, \dots, x_n}(x_i) := f(x_1, \dots, x_i, \dots, x_n). \quad (6.51)$$

Thus, for the i th partial derivative, all x_j with $j \neq i$ are regarded as constants, and one is led back to the familiar computation of derivatives of univariate real-valued functions. We illustrate the procedure for computing partial derivatives with a first example.

Example (1)

We consider the function

$$f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := x_1^2 + x_2^2. \quad (6.52)$$

Because the domain of this function is two-dimensional, two partial derivatives can be computed:

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} f(x) \text{ and } \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} f(x). \quad (6.53)$$

To compute the first of these partial derivatives, one considers the function

$$f_{x_2} : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x_1 \mapsto f_{x_2}(x_1) := x_1^2 + x_2^2, \quad (6.54)$$

where x_2 takes the role of a constant. To make explicit that x_2 is not an argument of the function, while the function still depends on x_2 , we have used the subscript notation $f_{x_2}(x_1)$. To compute the partial derivative, we now compute the (ordinary) derivative of f_{x_2} ,

$$f'_{x_2}(x_1) = 2x_1. \quad (6.55)$$

Thus,

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} f(x) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} (x_1^2 + x_2^2) = f'_{x_2}(x_1) = 2x_1. \quad (6.56)$$

Analogously, with the corresponding formulation of f_{x_1} ,

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} f(x) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} (x_1^2 + x_2^2) = f'_{x_1}(x_2) = 2x_2. \quad (6.57)$$

As for the derivative of a univariate real-valued function, it is also possible for a multivariate real-valued function to define a higher derivative recursively.

Definition 6.7 (Second Partial Derivatives). Let $f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a multivariate real-valued function, and let $\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} f$ be the partial derivative of f with respect to x_i . Then the second partial derivative of f with respect to x_i and x_j is defined as

$$\frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_j \partial x_i} f(x) := \frac{\partial}{\partial x_j} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} f \right). \quad (6.58)$$

•

Note that for each partial derivative $\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} f$ for $i = 1, \dots, n$, there are in total n second partial derivatives $\frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_j \partial x_i} f$ for $j = 1, \dots, n$. The resulting n^2 second partial derivatives, however, are not all distinct. This is an essential statement of *Schwarz's theorem*.

Theorem 6.5 (Schwarz's Theorem). *Let $f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a partially differentiable multivariate real-valued function. Then*

$$\frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_j \partial x_i} f(x) = \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_i \partial x_j} f(x) \text{ for all } 1 \leq i, j \leq n. \quad (6.59)$$

◦

For a proof, we refer to the advanced literature. Schwarz's theorem states in particular that, when forming second partial derivatives, the order of partial differentiation is irrelevant. In this way, the theorem facilitates the calculation of second partial derivatives and also helps detect analytic errors when computing them. We illustrate this by continuing the example above.

Example (1)

We want to compute the second-order partial derivatives of the function

$$f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := x_1^2 + x_2^2 \quad (6.60)$$

With the results for the first-order partial derivatives of this function, we obtain

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_1} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} f(x) \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} (2x_1) = 2 \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_2} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} f(x) \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} (2x_2) = 0 \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_1} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} f(x) \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} (2x_1) = 0 \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_2} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} f(x) \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} (2x_2) = 2. \end{aligned} \quad (6.61)$$

Obviously,

$$\frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 x_2} f(x) = \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 x_1} f(x). \quad (6.62)$$

Example (2)

As a further example, we want to compute the first- and second-order partial derivatives of the function

$$f : \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := x_1^2 + x_1 x_2 + x_2 \sqrt{x_3} \quad (6.63)$$

With the calculation rules for derivatives, the first-order partial derivatives are

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} (x_1^2 + x_1 x_2 + x_2 \sqrt{x_3}) = 2x_1 + x_2, \\ \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} (x_1^2 + x_1 x_2 + x_2 \sqrt{x_3}) = x_1 + \sqrt{x_3}, \\ \frac{\partial}{\partial x_3} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_3} (x_1^2 + x_1 x_2 + x_2 \sqrt{x_3}) = \frac{x_2}{2\sqrt{x_3}}. \end{aligned} \quad (6.64)$$

For the second partial derivatives with respect to x_1 , we obtain

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_1} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} f(x) \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} (2x_1 + x_2) = 2, \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_1} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} f(x) \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} (2x_1 + x_2) = 1, \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_3 \partial x_1} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_3} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} f(x) \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_3} (2x_1 + x_2) = 0.\end{aligned}\tag{6.65}$$

For the second partial derivatives with respect to x_2 , we obtain

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_2} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} f(x) \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} (x_1 + \sqrt{x_3}) = 1, \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_2} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} f(x) \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} (x_1 + \sqrt{x_3}) = 0, \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_3 \partial x_2} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_3} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} f(x) \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_3} (x_1 + \sqrt{x_3}) = \frac{1}{2\sqrt{x_3}}.\end{aligned}\tag{6.66}$$

For the second partial derivatives with respect to x_3 , we obtain

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_3} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_3} f(x) \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} \left(\frac{x_2}{2\sqrt{x_3}} \right) = 0, \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_3} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_3} f(x) \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} \left(\frac{x_2}{2\sqrt{x_3}} \right) = \frac{1}{2\sqrt{x_3}}, \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_3 \partial x_3} f(x) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x_3} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_3} f(x) \right) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_3} \left(x_2 \frac{1}{2} x_3^{-\frac{1}{2}} \right) = -\frac{1}{4} x_2 x_3^{-\frac{3}{2}}.\end{aligned}\tag{6.67}$$

Furthermore, one sees that the order of partial differentiation is irrelevant, because

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_2} f(x) &= \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_1} f(x) = 1, \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_3} f(x) &= \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_3 \partial x_1} f(x) = 0, \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_3} f(x) &= \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_3 \partial x_2} f(x) = \frac{1}{2\sqrt{x_3}}.\end{aligned}\tag{6.68}$$

As seen above, for a multivariate real-valued function $f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ there are in total n first partial derivatives and n^2 second partial derivatives. These are collected in the *gradient* and the *Hessian matrix* of a multivariate real-valued function.

Definition 6.8 (Gradient). Let $f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a multivariate real-valued function. The *gradient* $\nabla f(x)$ of f at the point $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is defined as

$$\nabla f(x) := \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} f(x) \\ \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} f(x) \\ \vdots \\ \frac{\partial}{\partial x_n} f(x) \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^n.\tag{6.69}$$

•

Note that gradients are multivariate vector-valued functions of the form

$$\nabla f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n, x \mapsto \nabla f(x). \quad (6.70)$$

For $n = 1$, $\nabla f(x) = f'(x)$. An important property of the gradient is that $-\nabla f(x)$ indicates the direction of steepest descent of f in $\mathbb{R}^n$. This insight is not trivial, however, and will be deepened at a later point. As examples, we consider the gradients of the functions analyzed above.

Example (1)

For the function $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ considered in Equation 6.60,

$$\nabla f(x) := \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} f(x) \\ \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} f(x) \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2x_1 \\ 2x_2 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^2. \quad (6.71)$$

In Figure 6.8 we visualize color-coded selected values of this gradient for $(0.7, 0.7)^T$, $(-0.3, 0.1)^T$, $(-0.5, -0.4)^T$, and $(0.1, -1.0)^T$.

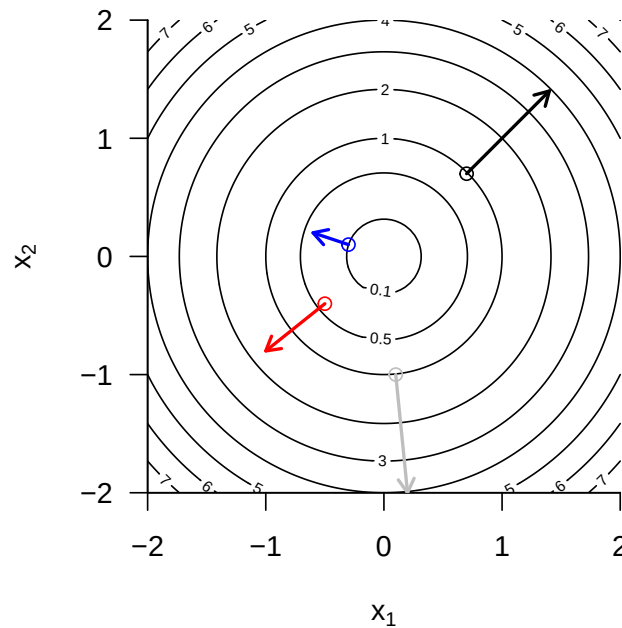


Figure 6.8 Example gradient values of the bivariate function $f(x) = x_1^2 + x_2^2$.

Example (2)

For the function $f : \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ considered in Equation 6.63,

$$\nabla f(x) := \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial}{\partial x_1} f(x) \\ \frac{\partial}{\partial x_2} f(x) \\ \frac{\partial}{\partial x_3} f(x) \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2x_1 + x_2 \\ x_1 + \sqrt{x_3} \\ \frac{x_2}{2\sqrt{x_3}} \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^3. \quad (6.72)$$

Finally, we turn to collecting the second partial derivatives of a multivariate real-valued function in the *Hessian matrix*.

Definition 6.9 (Hessian Matrix). Let $f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a multivariate real-valued function. The *Hessian matrix* $\nabla^2 f(x)$ of f at the point $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is defined as

$$\nabla^2 f(x) := \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_1} f(x) & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_2} f(x) & \cdots & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_n} f(x) \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_1} f(x) & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_2} f(x) & \cdots & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_n} f(x) \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_n \partial x_1} f(x) & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_n \partial x_2} f(x) & \cdots & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_n \partial x_n} f(x) \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}. \quad (6.73)$$

•

Note that Hessian matrices are multivariate matrix-valued mappings of the form

$$\nabla^2 f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}, x \mapsto \nabla^2 f(x). \quad (6.74)$$

For $n = 1$, $\nabla^2 f(x) = f''(x)$. Furthermore, from

$$\frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_i \partial x_j} f(x) = \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_j \partial x_i} f(x) \text{ for } 1 \leq i, j \leq n \quad (6.75)$$

it follows that the Hessian matrix is symmetric, that is,

$$(\nabla^2 f(x))^T = \nabla^2 f(x). \quad (6.76)$$

Example (1)

For the function $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ considered in Equation 6.60,

$$\nabla^2 f(x) := \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_1} f(x) & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_2} f(x) \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_1} f(x) & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_2} f(x) \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{2 \times 2}. \quad (6.77)$$

The Hessian matrix of this function is therefore a constant function that does not depend on x .

Example (2)

For the function $f : \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ considered in Equation 6.63,

$$\nabla^2 f(x) := \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_1} f(x) & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_2} f(x) & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_1 \partial x_3} f(x) \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_1} f(x) & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_2} f(x) & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_2 \partial x_3} f(x) \\ \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_3 \partial x_1} f(x) & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_3 \partial x_2} f(x) & \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x_3 \partial x_3} f(x) \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & \frac{1}{2\sqrt{x_3}} \\ 0 & \frac{1}{2\sqrt{x_3}} & -\frac{1}{4}x_2x_3^{-3/2} \end{pmatrix}. \quad (6.78)$$

In contrast to Example (1), the Hessian matrix of the function considered here is not a constant function, and its value depends on the value of the function argument $x \in \mathbb{R}^3$.

7 Integral Calculus

This chapter gives an overview of central concepts of integral calculus. The main focus throughout is on clarifying terminology, mathematical symbolism, and the intuition conveyed by it, rather than on the concrete computation of integrals.

7.1 Indefinite Integrals

We begin with the definition of the indefinite integral and the concept of an antiderivative.

Definition 7.1 (Indefinite Integral and Antiderivative). Let $I \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ be an interval and let $f : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a univariate real-valued function. Then a differentiable function $F : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ with the property

$$F' = f \tag{7.1}$$

is called an *antiderivative* of f . If F is an antiderivative of f , then

$$\int f(x) dx := F + c \text{ with } c \in \mathbb{R} \tag{7.2}$$

is called the *indefinite integral of the function* f . The indefinite integral of a function thus denotes the set of all antiderivatives of a function.

•

The above definition states that the derivative of an antiderivative of a function f is precisely f . In addition, the indefinite integral of a function f is the set of *all* antiderivatives of f obtained by adding different constants $c \in \mathbb{R}$. Such a constant $c \in \mathbb{R}$ is also called an *integration constant*; of course, $\frac{d}{dx}c = 0$. The symbol $\int f(x) dx$ is defined as $F + c$. In this expression, $f(x)$ is called the *integrand*. $\int$ and dx have no meaning of their own; they are merely symbols.

For the elementary functions introduced in the previous sections, the antiderivatives listed in Table 7.1 result. This can be verified by differentiating the respective antiderivative with the calculation rules of differential calculus. The indefinite integrals of these elementary functions then follow directly from these antiderivatives by adding an integration constant.

Table 7.1 Antiderivatives of elementary functions

Name	Definition	Antiderivative
Polynomial function	$f(x) := \sum_{i=0}^k a_i x^i$	$F(x) = \sum_{i=0}^k \frac{a_i}{i+1} x^{i+1}$
Constant function	$f(x) := a$	$F(x) = ax$
Identity function	$f(x) := x$	$F(x) = \frac{1}{2}x^2$

Table 7.1 Antiderivatives of elementary functions

Name	Definition	Antiderivative
Linear-affine function	$f(x) := ax + b$	$F(x) = \frac{1}{2}ax^2 + bx$
Square function	$f(x) := x^2$	$F(x) = \frac{1}{3}x^3$
Exponential function	$f(x) := \exp(x)$	$F(x) = \exp(x)$
Logarithm function	$f(x) := \ln(x)$	$F(x) = x \ln x - x$

The calculation rules collected in the following theorem are often helpful for determining antiderivatives of functions that are composed of functions with known antiderivatives.

Theorem 7.1 (Calculation Rules for Antiderivatives). *Let f and g be univariate real-valued functions that possess antiderivatives, and let g be invertible. Then the following calculation rules hold for determining antiderivatives.*

(1) *Sum rule*

$$\int af(x) + bg(x) dx = a \int f(x) dx + b \int g(x) dx \text{ for } a, b \in \mathbb{R} \quad (7.3)$$

(2) *Integration by parts*

$$\int f'(x)g(x) dx = f(x)g(x) - \int f(x)g'(x) dx \quad (7.4)$$

(3) *Substitution rule*

$$\int f(g(x))g'(x) dx = \int f(t) dt \text{ with } t = g(x) \quad (7.5)$$

◦

Proof. For a proof of the sum rule, we refer to the advanced literature. The calculation rule for integration by parts follows by integrating the product rule of differentiation. Recall that

$$(f(x)g(x))' = f'(x)g(x) + f(x)g'(x). \quad (7.6)$$

Integrating both sides of the equation and taking into account the sum rule for antiderivatives then yields

$$\begin{aligned} \int (f(x)g(x))' dx &= \int f'(x)g(x) + f(x)g'(x) dx \\ \Leftrightarrow f(x)g(x) &= \int f'(x)g(x) dx + \int f(x)g'(x) dx \\ \Leftrightarrow \int f'(x)g(x) dx &= f(x)g(x) - \int f(x)g'(x) dx. \end{aligned} \quad (7.7)$$

For $F' = f$, the substitution rule follows by applying the chain rule of differentiation to the composite function $F(g)$. Specifically, first

$$(F(g(x)))' = F'(g(x))g'(x) = f(g(x))g'(x). \quad (7.8)$$

Integrating both sides of the equation

$$(F(g(x)))' = f(g(x))g'(x) \quad (7.9)$$

then yields

$$\begin{aligned} \int (F(g(x)))' dx &= \int f(g(x))g'(x) dx \\ \Leftrightarrow F(g(x)) + c &= \int f(g(x))g'(x) dx \\ \Leftrightarrow \int f(g(x))g'(x) dx &= \int f(t) dt \text{ with } t := g(x). \end{aligned} \quad (7.10)$$

Here, the right-hand side of the last equation above is to be understood as $F(g(x)) + c$, that is, as the antiderivative of f evaluated at the point $t := g(x)$. The dt is not to be replaced by $dg(x)$; it is purely notational in nature. $\square$

Indefinite integrals occupy a central place in the solution of differential equations. More immediate, however, is the use of indefinite integrals in the context of evaluating *definite integrals*, as introduced in the next section.

7.2 Definite Integrals

Intuitively, a definite integral corresponds to the signed area between the graph of a function f and the x -axis, restricted to an interval $[a, b]$ (cf. Figure 7.1). *Signed* means that areas between the x -axis and positive values of f contribute positively to the area, whereas areas between the x -axis and negative values of f contribute negatively. For example, the value of the definite integral shown in Figure 7.1 A is 0.68, the value of the definite integral shown in Figure 7.1 B is 0.95 (the shaded area is clearly larger than in Figure 7.1 A), and the value of the definite integral shown in Figure 7.1 C is 0 (the shaded positive and negative areas cancel exactly). The latter example also suggests interpreting the integral as the average value of a function f over an interval $[a, b]$.

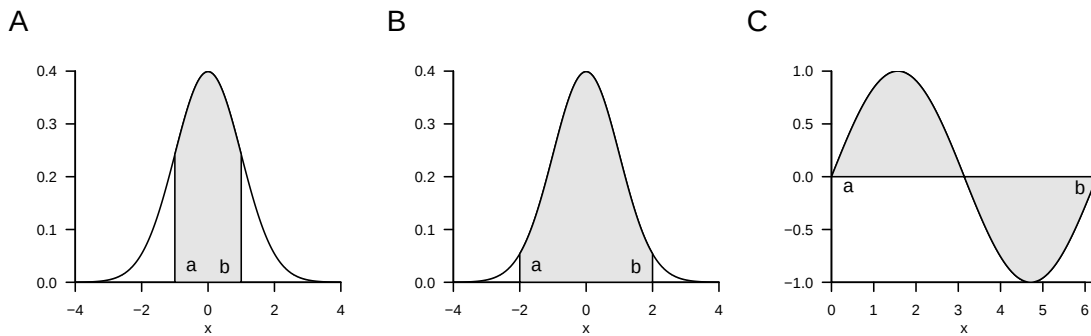


Figure 7.1 Examples of definite integrals

To introduce the concept of the *definite integral* in the sense of the *Riemann integral*, we first need to do some preliminary work. We begin by introducing a term for the subdivision of an interval into smaller sections.

Definition 7.2 (Partition of an Interval and Mesh). Let $[a, b] \subset \mathbb{R}$ be an interval and let $x_0, x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n \in [a, b]$ be a set of points with

$$a =: x_0 < x_1 < x_2 < \dots < x_n := b \quad (7.11)$$

and

$$\Delta x_i := x_i - x_{i-1} \text{ for } i = 1, \dots, n. \quad (7.12)$$

Then the set

$$Z := \{[x_0, x_1], [x_1, x_2], \dots, [x_{n-1}, x_n]\} \quad (7.13)$$

of subintervals of $[a, b]$ defined by $x_0, x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$ is called a *partition of $[a, b]$* . Furthermore,

$$Z_{\max} := \max_{i \in \mathbb{N}_n} \Delta x_i, \quad (7.14)$$

that is, the largest of the subinterval lengths Δx_i , is called the *mesh of Z* .

•

Intuitively, Δx_i is the width of the rectangles in Figure 7.2, as we will see in what follows. With the concepts of the partition of an interval, we can now introduce the concept of *Riemann sums*.

Definition 7.3 (Riemann Sums). Let $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a bounded function on $[a, b]$, that is, $|f(x)| < c$ for $0 < c < \infty$ and all $x \in [a, b]$. Let Z be a partition of $[a, b]$ with subinterval lengths Δx_i for $i = 1, \dots, n$. Furthermore, let ξ_i for $i = 1, \dots, n$ be an arbitrary point in the subinterval $[x_{i-1}, x_i]$ of the partition Z . Then

$$R(Z) := \sum_{i=1}^n f(\xi_i) \Delta x_i \quad (7.15)$$

is called the *Riemann sum of f on $[a, b]$ with respect to the partition Z* .

•

If, for example, one chooses the maximum of f in each subinterval in the Riemann sum, the so-called *upper Riemann sum* results,

$$R_o(Z) := \sum_{i=1}^n \left(\max_{[x_{i-1}, x_i]} f(\xi_i) \right) \cdot \Delta x_i. \quad (7.16)$$

If, by contrast, one chooses the minimum of f in each subinterval, the so-called *lower Riemann sum* results,

$$R_u(Z) := \sum_{i=1}^n \left(\min_{[x_{i-1}, x_i]} f(\xi_i) \right) \cdot \Delta x_i. \quad (7.17)$$

Figure 7.2 illustrates the definition of these Riemann sums: the dark gray rectangles each have area $\Delta x_i \cdot \min_{[x_{i-1}, x_i]} f(\xi)$ and thus form the summands in the lower Riemann sum

$$R_u(Z) := \sum_{i=1}^4 \left(\min_{[x_{i-1}, x_i]} f(\xi_i) \right) \cdot \Delta x_i. \quad (7.18)$$

The vertical combination of dark gray and light gray rectangles each has area $\Delta x_i \cdot \max_{[x_{i-1}, x_i]} f(\xi)$ and thus forms the summands in the upper Riemann sum

$$R_o(Z) := \sum_{i=1}^4 \left(\max_{[x_{i-1}, x_i]} f(\xi_i) \right) \cdot \Delta x_i. \quad (7.19)$$

Now imagine letting Δx_i tend to zero for all $i = 1, \dots, n$, thereby making the mesh of the partition Z smaller and smaller. The values of $\min_{[x_{i-1}, x_i]} f(\xi_i)$ and $\max_{[x_{i-1}, x_i]} f(\xi_i)$, and hence also the values of $R_u(Z)$ and $R_o(Z)$, will then approach each other more and more. This limiting process is used in the definition of the Riemann integral.

Definition 7.4 (Definite Riemann Integral). Let $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a bounded real-valued function on $[a, b]$. Furthermore, for Z_k with $k = 1, 2, 3, \dots$, let there be a sequence of partitions of $[a, b]$ with corresponding mesh $Z_{\max, k}$. If, for every sequence of partitions $Z_1, Z_2, \dots$ with $|Z_{\max, k}| \rightarrow 0$ as $k \rightarrow \infty$ and for arbitrarily chosen points ξ_{ki} with $i = 1, \dots, n$ in the subinterval $[x_{k,i-1}, x_{k,i}]$ of the partition Z_k , the sequence of corresponding Riemann sums $R(Z_1), R(Z_2), \dots$ tends to the same limit, then f is called *integrable* on $[a, b]$. The

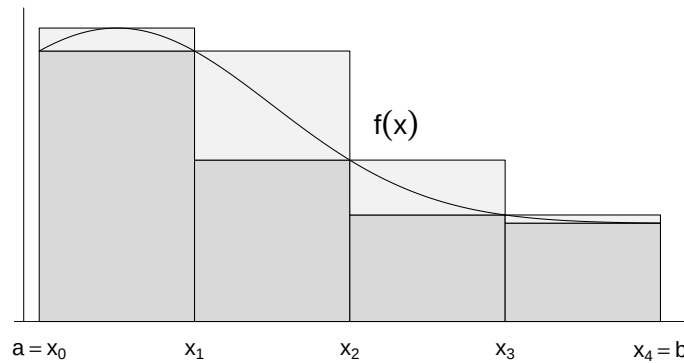


Figure 7.2 Riemann sums

corresponding limit of the sequence of Riemann sums is called the *definite Riemann integral* and denoted by

$$\int_a^b f(x) dx := \lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} R(Z_k) \text{ for } |Z_{\max, k}| \rightarrow 0. \quad (7.20)$$

In this context, the values a and b are called the *lower* and *upper* limits of integration, respectively, $f(x)$ is called the *integrand*, and x is called the *variable of integration*.

•

The Riemann integrability of a function and the value of a definite Riemann integral are thus defined in terms of a limiting process. However, the theory of Riemann integrals can be extended by the fundamental theorems of differential and integral calculus, so that the concrete computation of a definite integral rarely requires forming partitions and determining a limit. For simplicity, in what follows we omit the designation *Riemann* and simply speak of *definite integrals*.

A first step toward simplifying the computation of definite integrals is to record the following calculation rules, for whose proof we refer to the advanced literature.

Theorem 7.2 (Calculation Rules for Definite Integrals). *Let f and g be integrable functions on $[a, b]$. Then the following calculation rules hold.*

(1) *Linearity.* For $c_1, c_2 \in \mathbb{R}$,

$$\int_a^b (c_1 f(x) + c_2 g(x)) dx = c_1 \int_a^b f(x) dx + c_2 \int_a^b g(x) dx. \quad (7.21)$$

(2) *Additivity.* For $a < c < b$,

$$\int_a^b f(x) dx = \int_a^c f(x) dx + \int_c^b f(x) dx. \quad (7.22)$$

(3) *Change of sign when reversing the limits of integration*

$$\int_a^b f(x) dx = - \int_b^a f(x) dx. \quad (7.23)$$

(4) *Independence from the choice of the variable of integration*

$$\int_a^b f(x) dx = \int_a^b f(y) dy. \quad (7.24)$$

(5) *Independence of the integral from the type of interval*

$$\int_a^b f(x) dx = \int_{]a,b[} f(x) dx = \int_{[a,b]} f(x) dx = \int_{]a,b]} f(x) dx = \int_{[a,b[} f(x) dx, \quad (7.25)$$

where $\int_I$ denotes the definite integral of f on the interval $I \subseteq \mathbb{R}$.

◦

Note that the linearity of the definite integral is analogous to associativity for sums of equal length and distributivity when multiplying by a constant (cf. Theorem 3.1),

$$\sum_{i=1}^n (c_1 x_i + c_2 y_i) = c_1 \sum_{i=1}^n x_i + c_2 \sum_{i=1}^n y_i,$$

that the additivity of definite integrals is analogous to splitting sums, and that the independence of the value of an integral from the choice of the variable of integration has its counterpart in the independence of the value of a sum from its summation index. A graphical representation of the additivity calculation rule for integrals is shown in Figure 7.3. The sum of the areas given by the definite integrals $\int_a^c f(x) dx$ and $\int_c^b f(x) dx$ with $a < c < b$ is the area of $\int_a^b f(x) dx$.

With the help of additivity and the zero-interval integral

$$\int_a^a f(x) dx = 0 \quad (7.26)$$

the change of sign when reversing the limits of integration, which will be important below, can be justified. To this end, as in Figure 7.3, let

$$\int_a^b f(x) dx = \int_a^c f(x) dx + \int_c^b f(x) dx. \text{ and } \int_b^a f(x) dx = \int_b^c f(x) dx + \int_c^a f(x) dx. \quad (7.27)$$

Adding both equations gives

$$\begin{aligned} \int_a^b f(x) dx + \int_b^a f(x) dx &= \int_a^c f(x) dx + \int_c^b f(x) dx + \int_b^c f(x) dx + \int_c^a f(x) dx \\ &\Leftrightarrow \int_a^a f(x) dx = \int_a^b f(x) dx + \int_b^a f(x) dx \\ &\Leftrightarrow 0 = \int_a^b f(x) dx + \int_b^a f(x) dx \\ &\Leftrightarrow \int_a^b f(x) dx = - \int_b^a f(x) dx. \end{aligned} \quad (7.28)$$

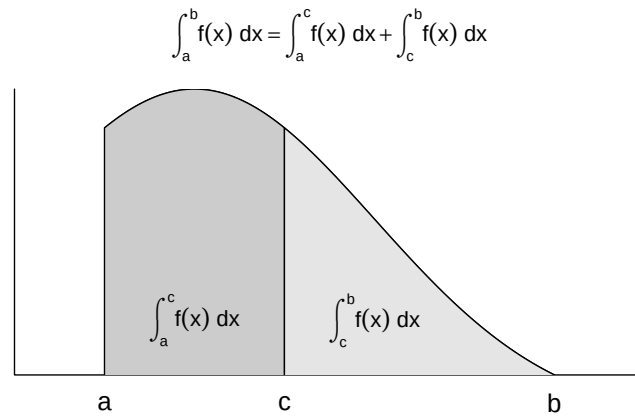


Figure 7.3 Additivity of definite integrals

The *fundamental theorems of differential and integral calculus* finally make it possible to compute definite integrals of a function f directly with the help of the antiderivative F of f . For the proof of the first fundamental theorem of differential and integral calculus, we need the *mean value theorem of integral calculus*, which we state here without proof and illustrate in Figure 7.4.

Theorem 7.3 (Mean Value Theorem of Integral Calculus). *For a continuous function $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, there exists a $\xi \in]a, b[$ such that*

$$\int_a^b f(x) \, dx = f(\xi)(b - a) \quad (7.29)$$

◦

The mean value theorem of integral calculus guarantees the existence of a $\xi \in [a, b]$ such that the definite integral $\int_a^b f(x) \, dx$ equals the product of the “rectangle height” $f(\xi)$ and the “rectangle width” $(b - a)$. In Figure 7.4, this ξ lies exactly halfway between a and b . That the resulting gray rectangle area equals $\int_a^b f(x) \, dx$ follows from the visually at least plausible fact that the areas between $f(x)$ and $f(\xi)$ on the interval $[a, \xi]$ and between $f(\xi)$ and $f(x)$ on the interval $[\xi, b]$ have the same magnitude, but the former has a negative sign. In general, however, the mean value theorem of integral calculus only guarantees the existence of a $\xi \in [a, b]$ with the discussed property; it does not provide a formula for determining ξ .

With this preliminary work, we can now formulate and prove the first fundamental theorem of differential and integral calculus.

Theorem 7.4 (First Fundamental Theorem of Calculus). *If $f : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is a continuous function on the interval $I \subset \mathbb{R}$, then the function*

$$F : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto F(x) := \int_a^x f(t) \, dt \text{ with } x, a \in I \quad (7.30)$$

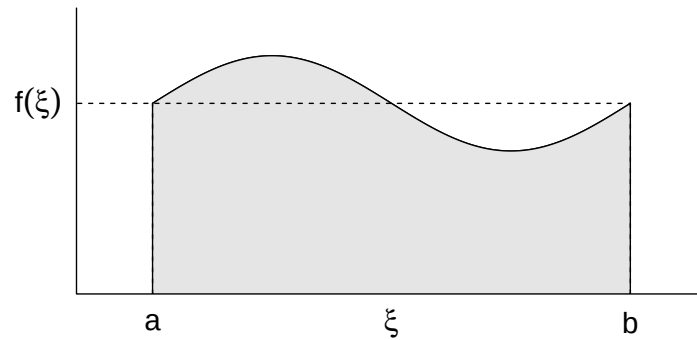


Figure 7.4 On the mean value theorem of integral calculus

is an antiderivative of f .

◦

Proof. We consider the difference quotient

$$\frac{1}{h}(F(x+h) - F(x)) \quad (7.31)$$

With the definition $F(x) := \int_a^x f(t) dt$ and the additivity of the definite integral, it follows that

$$\frac{1}{h}(F(x+h) - F(x)) = \frac{1}{h} \left(\int_a^{x+h} f(t) dt - \int_a^x f(t) dt \right) = \frac{1}{h} \int_x^{x+h} f(t) dt \quad (7.32)$$

By the mean value theorem of integral calculus, there is therefore a $\xi \in]x, x+h[$ such that

$$\frac{1}{h}(F(x+h) - F(x)) = f(\xi) \quad (7.33)$$

Taking the limit then yields

$$\lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{1}{h}(F(x+h) - F(x)) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} f(\xi) \text{ for } \xi \in]x, x+h[\Leftrightarrow F'(x) = f(x). \quad (7.34)$$

□

The second fundamental theorem of differential and integral calculus states how to compute a definite integral with the help of the antiderivative.

Theorem 7.5 (Second Fundamental Theorem of Calculus). *If F is an antiderivative of a continuous function $f : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ on an interval I , then, for $a, b \in I$ with $a \leq b$,*

$$\int_a^b f(x) dx = F(b) - F(a) =: F(x)|_a^b. \quad (7.35)$$

◦

Proof. Using the calculation rules for definite integrals and the first fundamental theorem of differential and integral calculus, we obtain

$$F(b) - F(a) = \int_a^b f(t) dt - \int_a^a f(t) dt = \int_a^a f(t) dt + \int_a^b f(t) dt = \int_a^b f(x) dx. \quad (7.36)$$

□

We want to apply the second fundamental theorem of differential and integral calculus in three examples (cf. Figure 7.5).

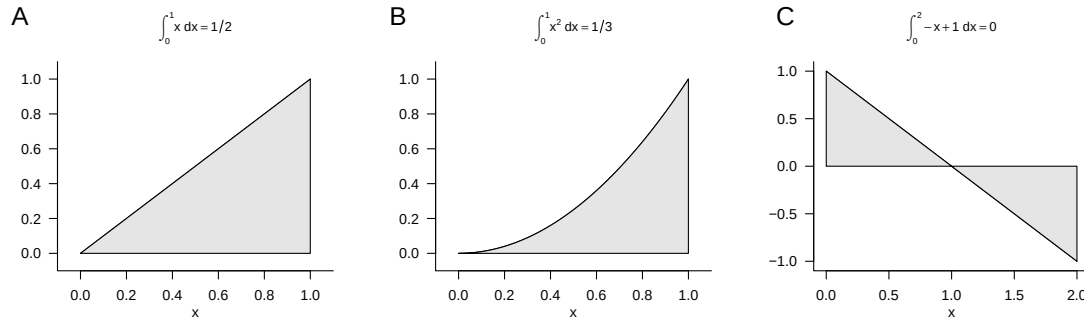


Figure 7.5 Examples of the second fundamental theorem of differential and integral calculus

Example (1)

We consider the identity function

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := x \quad (7.37)$$

and want to compute the definite integral of this function on the interval $[0, 1]$, that is,

$$\int_0^1 f(x) dx = \int_0^1 x dx. \quad (7.38)$$

To do so, recall that an antiderivative of f is given by

$$F : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto F(x) := \frac{1}{2}x^2 \quad (7.39)$$

because

$$F'(x) = \frac{d}{dx} \left(\frac{1}{2}x^2 \right) = 2 \cdot \frac{1}{2}x^{2-1} = x. \quad (7.40)$$

Substitution into the second fundamental theorem of differential and integral calculus then gives

$$\int_0^1 x dx = \frac{1}{2}1^2 - \frac{1}{2}0^2 = \frac{1}{2}. \quad (7.41)$$

This result agrees with the intuition suggested by the gray area in Figure 7.5 A.

Example (2)

Next, we consider the square function

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := x^2 \quad (7.42)$$

and want to compute the definite integral of this function on the interval $[0, 1]$, that is,

$$\int_0^1 f(x) dx = \int_0^1 x^2 dx. \quad (7.43)$$

To do so, recall that an antiderivative of f is given by

$$F : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto F(x) := \frac{1}{3}x^3 \quad (7.44)$$

because

$$F'(x) = \frac{d}{dx} \left(\frac{1}{3}x^3 \right) = 3 \cdot \frac{1}{3}x^{3-1} = x^2. \quad (7.45)$$

Substitution into the second fundamental theorem of differential and integral calculus then gives

$$\int_0^1 x^2 dx = \frac{1}{3}1^3 - \frac{1}{3}0^3 = \frac{1}{3}. \quad (7.46)$$

This result agrees with the intuition that follows from comparing the gray areas in Figure 7.5 A and Figure 7.5 B.

Example (3)

Finally, we consider the linear-affine function

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := -x + 1 \quad (7.47)$$

and want to compute the definite integral of this function on the interval $[0, 2]$, that is,

$$\int_0^2 f(x) dx = \int_0^2 -x + 1 dx. \quad (7.48)$$

To do so, recall that an antiderivative of the linear function with $a = -1$ and $b = 1$ (cf. Table 7.1) is given by

$$F : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto F(x) := -\frac{1}{2}x^2 + x \quad (7.49)$$

because

$$F'(x) = \frac{d}{dx} \left(-\frac{1}{2}x^2 + x \right) = -2 \cdot \frac{1}{2}x^{2-1} + 1 \cdot x^{1-1} = -x + 1. \quad (7.50)$$

Substitution into the second fundamental theorem of differential and integral calculus then gives

$$\int_0^2 -x + 1 dx = \left(-\frac{1}{2}2^2 + 2 \right) - \left(-\frac{1}{2}0^2 + 0 \right) = -2 + 2 - 0 = 0. \quad (7.51)$$

This result agrees with the intuition that the positive and negative gray areas in Figure 7.5 C cancel each other.

7.3 Improper Integrals

Improper integrals are definite integrals in which at least one limit of integration is not a real number, but rather $-\infty$ or ∞ . We illuminate the nature of improper integrals with the following definition and an example.

Definition 7.5 (Improper Integrals). Let $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a univariate real-valued function. With the definitions

$$\int_{-\infty}^b f(x) dx := \lim_{a \rightarrow -\infty} \int_a^b f(x) dx \text{ and } \int_a^{\infty} f(x) dx := \lim_{b \rightarrow \infty} \int_a^b f(x) dx \quad (7.52)$$

and the additivity of integrals

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} f(x) dx = \int_{-\infty}^b f(x) dx + \int_b^{\infty} f(x) dx \quad (7.53)$$

the concept of the definite integral is extended to the unbounded intervals of integration $]-\infty, b]$, $[a, \infty[$, and $]-\infty, \infty[$. Integrals with unbounded intervals of integration are called *improper integrals*. If the corresponding limits exist, one says that the improper integrals *converge*.

•

As an example, we consider the improper integral of the function

$$f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, x \mapsto f(x) := \frac{1}{x^2} \quad (7.54)$$

on the interval $[1, \infty[$, that is,

$$\int_1^{\infty} \frac{1}{x^2} dx. \quad (7.55)$$

According to the conventions in the definition of improper integrals,

$$\int_1^{\infty} \frac{1}{x^2} dx = \lim_{b \rightarrow \infty} \int_1^b \frac{1}{x^2} dx. \quad (7.56)$$

With the antiderivative $F(x) = -x^{-1}$ of $f(x) = x^{-2}$, the definite integral in the above equation becomes

$$\int_1^b \frac{1}{x^2} dx = F(b) - F(1) = -\frac{1}{b} - \left(-\frac{1}{1}\right) = -\frac{1}{b} + 1. \quad (7.57)$$

Thus,

$$\int_1^{\infty} \frac{1}{x^2} dx = \lim_{b \rightarrow \infty} \int_1^b \frac{1}{x^2} dx = \lim_{b \rightarrow \infty} \left(-\frac{1}{b} + 1\right) = -\lim_{b \rightarrow \infty} \frac{1}{b} + \lim_{b \rightarrow \infty} 1 = 0 + 1 = 1. \quad (7.58)$$

7.4 Multidimensional Integrals

So far, we have only considered integrals of univariate real-valued functions. The concept of the integral can also be extended to multivariate real-valued functions. In that case, however, the integration domain of the function is not necessarily as easy to describe as an interval. In particular, arbitrarily shaped integration domains are already possible for bivariate functions, for example. Here, we now want to consider the simplest case of a *hyperrectangle*. In this case, we can define multidimensional definite integrals as follows.

Definition 7.6 (Multidimensional Definite Integrals on Hyperrectangles). Let $f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a multivariate real-valued function. Then integrals of the form

$$\int_{[a_1, b_1] \times \dots \times [a_n, b_n]} f(x) dx = \int_{a_1}^{b_1} \dots \int_{a_n}^{b_n} f(x_1, \dots, x_n) dx_1 \dots dx_n \quad (7.59)$$

are called *multidimensional definite integrals on hyperrectangles*. Furthermore, integrals of the form

$$\int_{\mathbb{R}^n} f(x) dx = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \dots \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} f(x_1, \dots, x_n) dx_1 \dots dx_n \quad (7.60)$$

are called *multidimensional improper integrals*.

•

As an example of Definition 7.6, we consider the two-dimensional definite integral of the function

$$f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, (x_1, x_2) \mapsto f(x_1, x_2) := x_1^2 + 4x_2 \quad (7.61)$$

on the rectangle $[0, 1] \times [0, 1]$. Fubini's theorem from the theory of multidimensional integrals states that multidimensional integrals can be evaluated in any coordinate order. Thus, for example,

$$\int_{a_1}^{b_1} \left(\int_{a_2}^{b_2} f(x_1, x_2) dx_2 \right) dx_1 = \int_{a_2}^{b_2} \left(\int_{a_1}^{b_1} f(x_1, x_2) dx_1 \right) dx_2. \quad (7.62)$$

In this sense, for the example we consider

$$\int_0^1 \int_0^1 x_1^2 + 4x_2 dx_1 dx_2 = \int_0^1 \left(\int_0^1 x_1^2 + 4x_2 dx_1 \right) dx_2 \quad (7.63)$$

and therefore first the inner integral. Here, x_2 takes on the role of a constant. An antiderivative of $g(x_1) := x_1^2 + 4x_2$ is $G(x_1) = \frac{1}{3}x_1^3 + 4x_2x_1$, which can be verified by differentiating G . Thus, for the inner integral,

$$\begin{aligned} \int_0^1 x_1^2 + 4x_2 dx_1 &= G(1) - G(0) \\ &= \frac{1}{3} \cdot 1^3 + 4x_2 \cdot 1 - \frac{1}{3} \cdot 0^3 - 4x_2 \cdot 0 \\ &= \frac{1}{3} + 4x_2. \end{aligned} \quad (7.64)$$

Considering the outer integral

$$\int_0^1 4x_2 + \frac{1}{3} dx_2$$

then gives, with the antiderivative

$$H(x_2) = 2x_2^2 + \frac{1}{3}x_2 \quad (7.65)$$

of

$$h(x_2) := 4x_2 + \frac{1}{3}, \quad (7.66)$$

that

$$\begin{aligned}\int_0^1 \int_0^1 x_1^2 + 4x_2 \, dx_1 \, dx_2 &= \int_0^1 4x_2 + \frac{1}{3} \, dx_2 \\ &= H(1) - H(0) \\ &= 2 \cdot 1^2 + \frac{1}{3} \cdot 1 - 2 \cdot 0^2 - \frac{1}{3} \cdot 0 \\ &= \frac{7}{3}.\end{aligned}\tag{7.67}$$

8 Vectors

In scientific modeling, one often considers phenomena characterized by several quantitative features. For example, the position of an object in three-dimensional space is determined by three coordinates with respect to the three axes of a Cartesian coordinate system. Similarly, a person's health state may be characterized by three measured values, for example a self-report score, a biomarker, and an expert rating. For modeling and analyzing such multidimensional quantitative phenomena, mathematics provides a versatile tool in the form of the real vector space. In this chapter, we first introduce the concept of a real vector space and the basic arithmetic of vectors (Section 8.1). A vector space structure that is strongly guided by three-dimensional spatial intuition is then provided by the Euclidean vector space (Section 8.2). With vector arithmetic, all vectors of a vector space can be formed from a small collection of distinguished vectors. We discuss the concepts underlying this principle in Section 8.3 and Section 8.4.

8.1 Real Vector Space

We begin with the general definition of a vector space, which specifies basic rules for computing with vectors.

Definition 8.1 (Vector Space). Let V be a nonempty set and let S be a set of scalars. Furthermore, let a mapping

$$+ : V \times V \rightarrow V, (v_1, v_2) \mapsto +(v_1, v_2) =: v_1 + v_2, \quad (8.1)$$

called *vector addition*, be defined. Finally, let a mapping

$$\cdot : S \times V \rightarrow V, (s, v) \mapsto \cdot(s, v) =: sv, \quad (8.2)$$

called *scalar multiplication*, be defined. Then the tuple $(V, S, +, \cdot)$ is called a *vector space* if and only if, for arbitrary elements $v, w, u \in V$ and $a, b \in S$, the following conditions hold:

(1) *Commutativity of vector addition.*

$$v + w = w + v.$$

(2) *Associativity of vector addition.*

$$(v + w) + u = v + (w + u)$$

(3) *Existence of an identity element for vector addition.*

$$\text{There exists a vector } 0 \in V \text{ with } v + 0 = 0 + v = v.$$

(4) *Existence of inverse elements for vector addition.*

For all vectors $v \in V$ there exists a vector $-v \in V$ with $v + (-v) = 0$.

(5) *Existence of an identity element for scalar multiplication.*

There exists a scalar $1 \in S$ with $1 \cdot v = v$.

(6) *Associativity of scalar multiplication.*

$$a \cdot (b \cdot v) = (a \cdot b) \cdot v.$$

(7) *Distributivity with respect to vector addition.*

$$a \cdot (v + w) = a \cdot v + a \cdot w.$$

(8) *Distributivity with respect to scalar addition.*

$$(a + b) \cdot v = a \cdot v + b \cdot v.$$

•

It is striking that Definition 8.1 specifies how one should compute with vectors, but does not state what a vector actually is beyond being an element of a set. This is due to the fact that there are many different mathematical objects for which vector space structures can be defined. Examples include the set of real m -tuples, the set of matrices, the set of polynomials, the set of solutions of a linear system of equations, the set of real sequences, the set of continuous functions, and many others.

Here we are initially interested only in the vector space of the set of real m -tuples. We recall that we denote the real m -tuples by

$$\mathbb{R}^m := \left\{ \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ \vdots \\ x_m \end{pmatrix} \mid x_i \in \mathbb{R} \text{ for all } 1 \leq i \leq m \right\} \quad (8.3)$$

and pronounce $\mathbb{R}^m$ as “ $\mathbb{R}$ to the power of m ”. The elements $x \in \mathbb{R}^m$ are called *real vectors* or simply *vectors*. We now want to use the set $\mathbb{R}^m$ as the basis for the definition of a vector space. To this end, we first define vector addition for elements of $\mathbb{R}^m$ and scalar multiplication for elements of $\mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbb{R}^m$.

Definition 8.2 (Vector Addition and Scalar Multiplication in $\mathbb{R}^m$). For all $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^m$ and $a \in \mathbb{R}$, let *vector addition* be defined by

$$+ : \mathbb{R}^m \times \mathbb{R}^m \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m, (x, y) \mapsto x + y = \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ \vdots \\ x_m \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} y_1 \\ \vdots \\ y_m \end{pmatrix} := \begin{pmatrix} x_1 + y_1 \\ \vdots \\ x_m + y_m \end{pmatrix} \quad (8.4)$$

and let *scalar multiplication* be defined by

$$\cdot : \mathbb{R} \times \mathbb{R}^m \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m, (a, x) \mapsto ax = a \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ \vdots \\ x_m \end{pmatrix} := \begin{pmatrix} ax_1 \\ \vdots \\ ax_m \end{pmatrix} \quad (8.5)$$

•

This yields the following result.

Theorem 8.1 (Real Vector Space). $(\mathbb{R}^m, \mathbb{R}, +, \cdot)$ with the arithmetic rules of addition and multiplication in $\mathbb{R}$ is a vector space.

◦

For a proof, which we omit here, one has to verify conditions (1) to (8) from Definition 8.1 for the set considered here and the forms of vector addition and scalar multiplication specified here. These follow easily from the arithmetic rules of addition and multiplication in $\mathbb{R}$ and from the fact that vector addition and scalar multiplication for elements of $\mathbb{R}^m$ were defined componentwise in Definition 8.2. We thus define the concept of the *real vector space*.

Definition 8.3 (Real Vector Space). For $\mathbb{R}^m$, let $+$ and $\cdot$ be the vector addition and scalar multiplication defined in Definition 8.2. Then, based on Theorem 8.1, we call the vector space $(\mathbb{R}^m, \mathbb{R}, +, \cdot)$ the *real vector space*.

•

On the basis of Definition 8.3, we now illustrate computing with real vectors by means of a few examples.

Examples

(1) For

$$x := \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \\ 4 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^4 \text{ and } y := \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^4$$

we have

$$x + y = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \\ 4 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1+2 \\ 2+1 \\ 3+0 \\ 4+1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 3 \\ 3 \\ 5 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^4.$$

In **R**, one implements this example as follows.

```
x = matrix(c(1,2,3,4), nrow = 4) # vector definition
y = matrix(c(2,1,0,1), nrow = 4) # vector definition
x + y # vector addition
```

```
[,1]
[1,] 3
[2,] 3
[3,] 3
[4,] 5
```

(2) For

$$x := \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^2 \text{ and } y := \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^2$$

we have

$$x - y = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2-1 \\ 3-3 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^2.$$

In **R**, one implements this example as follows.

```
x = matrix(c(2,3), nrow = 2) # vector definition
y = matrix(c(1,3), nrow = 2) # vector definition
x - y # vector subtraction
```

```
      [,1]
[1,]    1
[2,]    0
```

(3) For

$$x := \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^3 \text{ and } a := 3 \in \mathbb{R}$$

we have

$$ax = 3 \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 3 \cdot 2 \\ 3 \cdot 1 \\ 3 \cdot 3 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 6 \\ 3 \\ 9 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^3.$$

In **R**, one implements this example as follows.

```
x = matrix(c(2,1,3), nrow = 3) # vector definition
a = 3 # scalar definition
a*x # scalar multiplication
```

```
      [,1]
[1,]    6
[2,]    3
[3,]    9
```

For $m \in \{1, 2, 3\}$, real vectors and computations with them can be visualized. For $m > 3$, for example when more than three quantitative features of a person's health state are available, as is regularly the case in applications, this is not possible. Nevertheless, visual intuition for $m \leq 3$ may facilitate an initial understanding of vector spaces. We focus here on the case $m := 2$. In this case, the real vectors under consideration lie in the two-dimensional plane and are usually visualized as points or arrows (Figure 8.1).

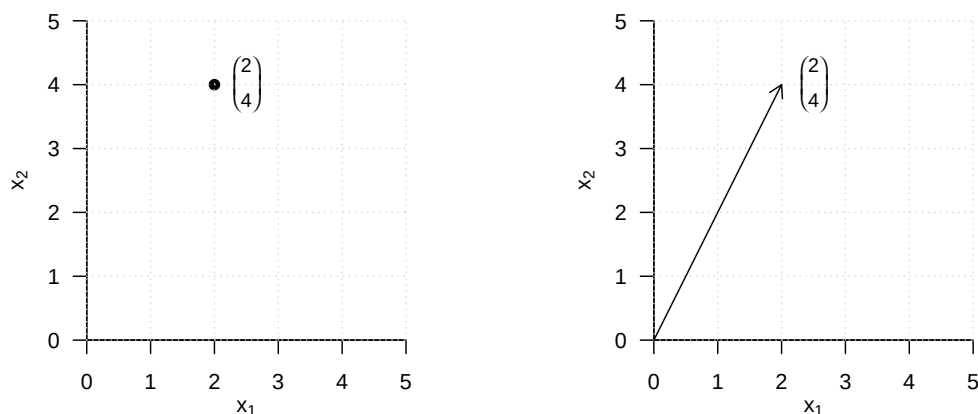


Figure 8.1 Visualization of vectors in $\mathbb{R}^2$

Figure 8.2 visualizes the vector addition

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix}. \quad (8.6)$$

The sum vector corresponds to the diagonal of the parallelogram spanned by the two summands.

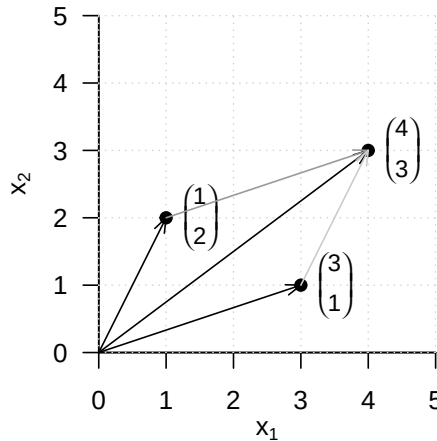


Figure 8.2 Vector addition in $\mathbb{R}^2$

Figure 8.3 visualizes the vector subtraction

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} -3 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -2 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \quad (8.7)$$

The resulting vector corresponds to the diagonal of the parallelogram spanned by the first vector and the opposite vector of the second vector.

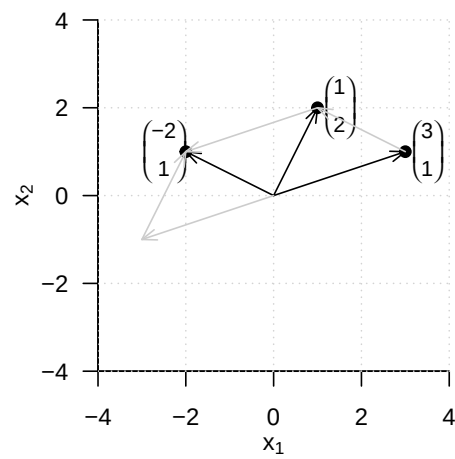
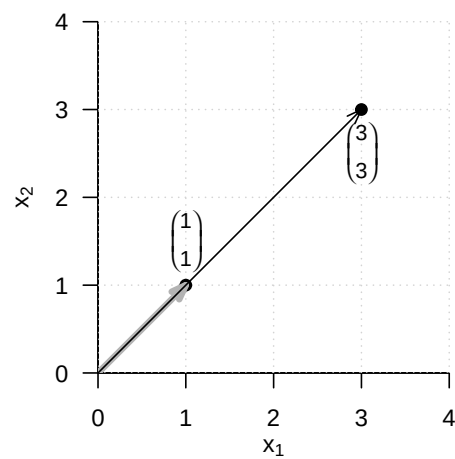
Finally, Figure 8.4 visualizes the scalar multiplication

$$3 \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix} \quad (8.8)$$

Multiplication of a vector by a positive scalar changes only its length, but not its direction.

8.2 Euclidean Vector Space

By defining the *inner product*, the real vector space can be endowed with spatial-geometric intuition in the sense of a *Euclidean vector space*. In particular, this makes it possible to define and compute concepts such as the *length of a vector*, the *distance between two vectors*, and, not least, the *angle between two vectors*. We first introduce the *inner product*.

**Figure 8.3** Vector subtraction in $\mathbb{R}^2$ **Figure 8.4** Scalar multiplication in $\mathbb{R}^2$

Definition 8.4 (Inner Product on $\mathbb{R}^m$). The *inner product on $\mathbb{R}^m$* is defined as the mapping

$$\langle \rangle : \mathbb{R}^m \times \mathbb{R}^m \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, (x, y) \mapsto \langle (x, y) \rangle := \langle x, y \rangle := \sum_{i=1}^m x_i y_i. \quad (8.9)$$

•

The inner product is called an inner product because it yields a scalar, not because it involves multiplication by scalars. The inner product is closely related to the matrix product, as we will see later. We first consider an example and its implementation in **R**.

Example

Let

$$x := \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix} \text{ and } y := \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \quad (8.10)$$

Then

$$\langle x, y \rangle = x_1 y_1 + x_2 y_2 + x_3 y_3 = 1 \cdot 2 + 2 \cdot 0 + 3 \cdot 1 = 2 + 0 + 3 = 5. \quad (8.11)$$

In **R**, there are several ways to evaluate an inner product. We list two of them for the given example below.

```
# vector definitions
x = matrix(c(1,2,3), nrow = 3)
y = matrix(c(2,0,1), nrow = 3)

# inner product using R's componentwise multiplication and sum() function
sum(x*y)
```

```
[1] 5
```

```
# inner product using R's matrix transposition and multiplication
t(x) %*% y
```

```
      [,1]
[1,]      5
```

With the help of the inner product, the concept of the real vector space can be extended to the concept of the *real canonical Euclidean vector space*.

Definition 8.5 (Euclidean Vector Space). The tuple $((\mathbb{R}^m, +, \cdot), \langle \rangle)$ consisting of the real vector space $(\mathbb{R}^m, +, \cdot)$ and the inner product $\langle \rangle$ on $\mathbb{R}^m$ is called the *real canonical Euclidean vector space*.

•

In general, every tuple consisting of a vector space and an inner product is called a “Euclidean vector space”. Informally, however, we often simply speak of $\mathbb{R}^m$ as a “Euclidean vector space” and, in particular, of $((\mathbb{R}^m, +, \cdot), \langle \rangle)$ as the “Euclidean vector space”. A Euclidean vector space is a vector space with geometric structure induced by the inner product. In particular, the geometric concepts of *length*, *distance*, and *angle* now acquire meaning in the Euclidean vector space. We define them as follows.

Definition 8.6. $((\mathbb{R}^m, +, \cdot), \langle \rangle)$ is the Euclidean vector space.

(1) The *length* of a vector $x \in \mathbb{R}^m$ is defined as

$$\|x\| := \sqrt{\langle x, x \rangle}. \quad (8.12)$$

(2) The *distance* between two vectors $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^m$ is defined as

$$d(x, y) := \|x - y\|. \quad (8.13)$$

(3) The *angle* α between two vectors $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^m$ with $x, y \neq 0$ is defined by

$$0 \leq \alpha \leq \pi \text{ and } \cos \alpha := \frac{\langle x, y \rangle}{\|x\| \|y\|} \quad (8.14)$$

•

The length $\|x\|$ of a vector $x \in \mathbb{R}^m$ is also called the *Euclidean norm of x* , the ℓ_2 -*norm of x* , or simply the *norm of x* . It is often denoted by $\|x\|_2$. We consider three examples for determining the length of a vector and their corresponding **R** implementation. We illustrate these examples in Figure 8.5.

Example (1)

$$\left\| \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} \right\| = \sqrt{\left\langle \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} \right\rangle} = \sqrt{2^2 + 0^2} = \sqrt{4} = 2.00 \quad (8.15)$$

```
norm(matrix(c(2,0),nrow = 2), type = "2")      # vector length = l_2 norm
```

```
[1] 2
```

Example (2)

$$\left\| \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} \right\| = \sqrt{\left\langle \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} \right\rangle} = \sqrt{2^2 + 2^2} = \sqrt{8} \approx 2.83 \quad (8.16)$$

```
norm(matrix(c(2,2),nrow = 2), type = "2")      # vector length = l_2 norm
```

```
[1] 2.828427
```

Example (3)

$$\left\| \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \end{pmatrix} \right\| = \sqrt{\left\langle \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \end{pmatrix} \right\rangle} = \sqrt{2^2 + 4^2} = \sqrt{20} \approx 4.47 \quad (8.17)$$

```
norm(matrix(c(2,4),nrow = 2), type = "2")      # vector length = l_2 norm
```

```
[1] 4.472136
```

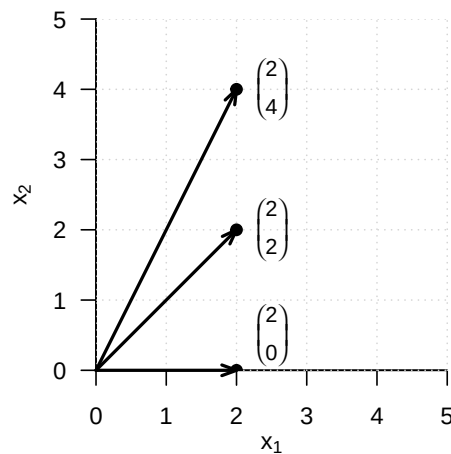


Figure 8.5 Vector length in $\mathbb{R}^2$

For the distance $d(x, y)$ between two vectors $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^m$, we note without proof that it is nonnegative and symmetric, that is,

$$d(x, y) \geq 0, d(x, x) = 0 \text{ and } d(x, y) = d(y, x) \quad (8.18)$$

hold. Moreover, $d(x, y)$ satisfies the so-called *triangle inequality*, which states that the direct path between two points in space is always shorter than an indirect path through a third point,

$$d(x, y) \leq d(x, z) + d(z, y). \quad (8.19)$$

Thus, $d(x, y)$ satisfies important aspects of spatial intuition. We give two examples for determining distances between vectors in $\mathbb{R}^2$, which we visualize in Figure 8.6.

Example (1)

$$d\left(\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix}\right) = \left\| \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} \right\| = \left\| \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix} \right\| = \sqrt{(-1)^2 + (-1)^2} = \sqrt{2} \approx 1.41 \quad (8.20)$$

```
norm(matrix(c(1,1),nrow = 2) - matrix(c(2,2),nrow = 2), type = "2")
```

```
[1] 1.414214
```

Example (2)

$$d\left(\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 4 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}\right) = \left\| \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 4 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \right\| = \left\| \begin{pmatrix} -3 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} \right\| = \sqrt{(-3)^2 + 0^2} = \sqrt{9} = 3 \quad (8.21)$$

```
norm(matrix(c(1,1),nrow = 2) - matrix(c(4,1),nrow = 2), type = "2")
```

```
[1] 3
```

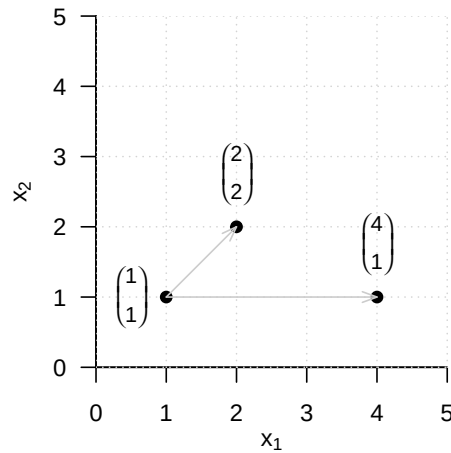


Figure 8.6 Vector distances in $\mathbb{R}^2$

Finally, we note that for the calculation of the angle between two vectors based on the above definition, the cosine function $\cos$ is bijective on $[0, \pi]$ and hence invertible with inverse function $\arccos$, the arccosine function. We also consider two examples for the concept of angle. Note in particular that Definition 8.6 gives the angle in radians. For a specification in degrees, a corresponding conversion is required.

Example (1)

$$\arccos \left(\frac{\left\langle \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix} \right\rangle}{\left\| \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} \right\| \left\| \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix} \right\|} \right) = \arccos \left(\frac{3 \cdot 3 + 3 \cdot 0}{\sqrt{3^2 + 0^2} \cdot \sqrt{3^2 + 3^2}} \right) = \arccos \left(\frac{9}{3 \cdot \sqrt{18}} \right) = \frac{\pi}{4} \approx 0.785 \quad (8.22)$$

The conversion to degrees then gives

$$0.785 \cdot \frac{180^\circ}{\pi} = 45^\circ \quad (8.23)$$

In **R**, one implements this as follows.

```
x = matrix(c(3,0), nrow = 2) # vector 1
y = matrix(c(3,3), nrow = 2) # vector 2
w = acos(sum(x*y)/(sqrt(sum(x*x))*sqrt(sum(y*y)))) * 180/pi # angle in degrees
print(w)
```

[1] 45

Example (2)

$$\alpha = \arccos \left(\frac{\left\langle \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix} \right\rangle}{\left\| \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} \right\| \left\| \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix} \right\|} \right) = \arccos \left(\frac{3 \cdot 0 + 0 \cdot 3}{\sqrt{3^2 + 0^2} \cdot \sqrt{0^2 + 3^2}} \right) = \arccos \left(\frac{0}{3 \cdot 3} \right) = \frac{\pi}{2} \approx 1.57 \quad (8.24)$$

The conversion to degrees then gives

$$\frac{\pi}{2} \cdot \frac{180^\circ}{\pi} = 90^\circ \quad (8.25)$$

The corresponding **R** implementation is as follows.

```
x = matrix(c(3,0), nrow = 2)      # vector 1
y = matrix(c(0,3), nrow = 2)      # vector 2
w = acos(sum(x*y)/(sqrt(sum(x*x))*sqrt(sum(y*y)))) * 180/pi  # angle in degrees
print(w)
```

[1] 90

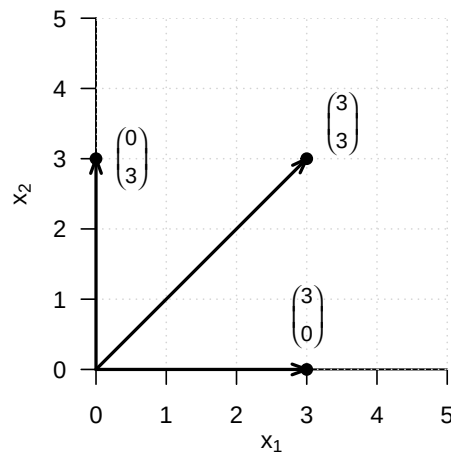


Figure 8.7 Angles in $\mathbb{R}^2$

The fact that two vectors can form a right angle, that is, can in a sense be maximally non-parallel, is an important geometric principle and is therefore singled out by the following definition.

Definition 8.7 (Orthogonality and Orthonormality of Vectors). Let $((\mathbb{R}^m, +, \cdot), \langle \rangle)$ be the Euclidean vector space.

- (1) Two vectors $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^m$ are called *orthogonal* if

$$\langle x, y \rangle = 0 \quad (8.26)$$

- (2) Two vectors $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^m$ are called *orthonormal* if

$$\langle x, y \rangle = 0 \text{ and } \|x\| = \|y\| = 1. \quad (8.27)$$

•

For orthogonal and orthonormal vectors, in particular, we therefore also have

$$\cos \alpha = \frac{\langle x, y \rangle}{\|x\| \|y\|} = \frac{0}{\|x\| \|y\|} = 0, \quad (8.28)$$

and hence

$$\alpha = \frac{\pi}{2} = 90^\circ. \quad (8.29)$$

8.3 Linear Independence

In this section, we introduce the concept of *linear independence* of vectors. To this end, we first define the concept of a *linear combination* of vectors.

Definition 8.8 (Linear Combination). Let $\{v_1, v_2, \dots, v_k\}$ be a set of k vectors of a vector space V , and let $a_1, a_2, \dots, a_k$ be scalars. Then the *linear combination* of the vectors in $\{v_1, v_2, \dots, v_k\}$ with the *coefficients* $a_1, a_2, \dots, a_k$ is defined as the vector

$$w := \sum_{i=1}^k a_i v_i \in V. \quad (8.30)$$

•

Example

Let

$$v_1 := \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, v_2 := \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, v_3 := \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \text{ and } a_1 := 2, a_2 := 3, a_3 := 0. \quad (8.31)$$

Then the linear combination of v_1, v_2, v_3 with coefficients a_1, a_2, a_3 is

$$\begin{aligned} w &= a_1 v_1 + a_2 v_2 + a_3 v_3 \\ &= 2 \cdot \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} + 3 \cdot \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} + 0 \cdot \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= \begin{pmatrix} 4 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= \begin{pmatrix} 7 \\ 5 \end{pmatrix}. \end{aligned} \quad (8.32)$$

Based on the concept of a linear combination, one can now define the concept of *linear independence* of vectors.

Definition 8.9 (Linear Independence). Let V be a vector space. A set $W := \{w_1, w_2, \dots, w_k\}$ of vectors in V is called *linearly independent* if the only representation of the zero element $0 \in V$ by a linear combination of the $w \in W$ is the so-called *trivial representation*

$$0 = a_1 w_1 + a_2 w_2 + \dots + a_k w_k \text{ with } a_1 = a_2 = \dots = a_k = 0 \quad (8.33)$$

If the set W is not linearly independent, it is called *linearly dependent*.

•

To check whether a given set of vectors is linearly dependent or independent, in principle one has to check whether a possible linear combination of the given vectors is zero. Theorem 8.2 and Theorem 8.3 show how this can be achieved with less effort for two and for finitely many vectors, respectively.

Theorem 8.2 (Linear Dependence of Two Vectors). *Let V be a vector space. Two vectors $v_1, v_2 \in V$ are linearly dependent if one of the vectors is a scalar multiple of the other vector.*

◦

Proof. Let v_1 be a scalar multiple of v_2 , that is,

$$v_1 = \lambda v_2 \text{ with } \lambda \neq 0. \quad (8.34)$$

Then

$$v_1 - \lambda v_2 = 0. \quad (8.35)$$

But this corresponds to the linear combination

$$a_1 v_1 + a_2 v_2 = 0 \quad (8.36)$$

with $a_1 = 1 \neq 0$ and $a_2 = -\lambda \neq 0$. Thus, there exists a linear combination of the zero element that is not the trivial representation, and hence v_1 and v_2 are not linearly independent. $\square$

Theorem 8.3 (Linear Dependence of a Set of Vectors). *Let V be a vector space, and let $w_1, \dots, w_k \in V$ be a set of vectors in V . If one of the vectors w_i with $i = 1, \dots, k$ is a linear combination of the other vectors, then the set of vectors is linearly dependent.*

◦

Proof. The vectors $w_1, \dots, w_k$ are linearly dependent if and only if $\sum_{i=1}^k a_i w_i = 0$ with at least one $a_i \neq 0$. Thus, for example, let $a_j \neq 0$. Then

$$0 = \sum_{i=1}^k a_i w_i = \sum_{i=1, i \neq j}^k a_i w_i + a_j w_j \quad (8.37)$$

Therefore,

$$a_j w_j = - \sum_{i=1, i \neq j}^k a_i w_i \quad (8.38)$$

and thus

$$w_j = -a_j^{-1} \sum_{i=1, i \neq j}^k a_i w_i = - \sum_{i=1, i \neq j}^k (a_j^{-1} a_i) w_i \quad (8.39)$$

Thus, w_j is a linear combination of the w_i for $i = 1, \dots, k$ with $i \neq j$. $\square$

8.4 Vector Space Bases

In this section, we introduce the concept of a *vector space basis*. A basis of a vector space is a subset of vectors of the vector space that can be used to represent all vectors of the vector space. In the sense of linear combinations of vectors, a vector space basis therefore contains all information needed to construct the corresponding vector space. However, a vector space basis is usually not unique, and many vector spaces indeed have infinitely many bases. The following definition first states how infinitely many vectors can be formed from a limited number of vectors by means of linear combinations.

Definition 8.10 (Span and Spanning). Let V be a vector space, and let $W := \{w_1, \dots, w_k\} \subset V$. Then the *span* of W is defined as the set of all linear combinations of the elements of W ,

$$\text{Span}(W) := \left\{ \sum_{i=1}^k a_i w_i \mid a_1, \dots, a_k \text{ are scalar coefficients} \right\} \quad (8.40)$$

A set of vectors $W \subseteq V$ is said to *span a vector space* V if every $v \in V$ can be written as a linear combination of vectors in W .

•

We now define the concept of a *basis* of a vector space.

Definition 8.11 (Basis). Let V be a vector space, and let $B \subseteq V$. B is called a *basis* of V if

- (1) the vectors in B are linearly independent, and
- (2) the vectors in B span the vector space V .

•

Bases of vector spaces have the following important properties.

Theorem 8.4 (Properties of Bases).

- (1) All bases of a vector space contain the same number of vectors.
- (2) Every set of m linearly independent vectors is a basis of an m -dimensional vector space.

◦

For a proof of this very deep theorem, we refer to the advanced literature. The unique number of vectors in a basis of a vector space named by the above theorem is called the *dimension of the vector space*. Since there are usually infinitely many sets of m linearly independent vectors in a vector space, vector spaces usually have infinitely many bases.

If one considers a single vector in a vector space, one may ask how this vector can be represented with the help of a vector space basis. This leads to the following concepts.

Definition 8.12 (Basis Representation and Coordinates). Let $B := \{b_1, \dots, b_m\}$ be a basis of an m -dimensional vector space V , and let $v \in V$. Then the linear combination

$$v = \sum_{i=1}^m c_i b_i \quad (8.41)$$

is called the *representation of v with respect to the basis B* , and the coefficients $c_1, \dots, c_m$ are called the *coordinates of v with respect to the basis B* .

•

For a fixed basis, the coordinates of a vector with respect to this basis are also fixed and unique. This is the statement of the following theorem.

Theorem 8.5 (Uniqueness of Basis Representation). *The basis representation of a $v \in V$ with respect to a basis B is unique.*

◦

Proof. Without loss of generality, assume that the vector space has dimension m . Assume that two representations of v with respect to the basis B exist, that is,

$$\begin{aligned} v &= a_1 b_1 + \cdots + a_m b_m \\ v &= c_1 b_1 + \cdots + c_m b_m \end{aligned} \quad (8.42)$$

Subtracting the lower equation from the upper equation gives

$$0 = (a_1 - c_1)b_1 + \cdots + (a_m - c_m)b_m \quad (8.43)$$

Because $b_1, \dots, b_m$ are linearly independent, however, $(a_i - c_i) = 0$ for all $i = 1, \dots, m$, and thus the two representations of v with respect to the basis B are identical. $\square$

At the end of this section, we consider a special basis of the real vector space.

Definition 8.13 (Orthonormal Basis of $\mathbb{R}^m$). A set of m vectors $v_1, \dots, v_m \in \mathbb{R}^m$ is called an *orthonormal basis* of $\mathbb{R}^m$ if $v_1, \dots, v_m$ each have length 1 and are mutually orthogonal, that is, if

$$\langle v_i, v_j \rangle = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{for } i = j \\ 0 & \text{for } i \neq j \end{cases}. \quad (8.44)$$

•

We first consider an example of an orthonormal basis.

Example (1)

$$B_1 := \left\{ \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \right\} \quad (8.45)$$

is an orthonormal basis of $\mathbb{R}^2$, because B_1 consists of two vectors and

$$\left\langle \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} \right\rangle = 1 \cdot 1 + 0 \cdot 0 = 1 + 0 = 1 \quad (8.46)$$

as well as

$$\left\langle \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \right\rangle = 0 \cdot 0 + 1 \cdot 1 = 0 + 1 = 1 \quad (8.47)$$

and

$$\left\langle \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \right\rangle = 1 \cdot 0 + 0 \cdot 1 = 0 + 0 = 0 \quad (8.48)$$

hold.

For general real vector spaces, bases of the form of B_1 are singled out by the concept of the *canonical basis*.

Definition 8.14 (Canonical Basis and Standard Unit Vectors). The orthonormal basis

$$B := \{e_1, \dots, e_m \mid (e_i)_j = 1 \text{ for } i = j \text{ and } (e_i)_j = 0 \text{ for } i \neq j, i, j = 1, \dots, m\} \subset \mathbb{R}^m \quad (8.49)$$

is called the *canonical basis* of $\mathbb{R}^m$, and the e_i are called *standard unit vectors*.

•

B_1 from Example (1) is therefore the canonical basis of $\mathbb{R}^2$.

The canonical basis of $\mathbb{R}^3$ is

$$B := \left\{ \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \right\}. \quad (8.50)$$

However, there are also non-canonical orthonormal bases. To see this, we consider another example.

Example (2)

$$B_2 := \left\{ \begin{pmatrix} \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \\ \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} -\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \\ \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \end{pmatrix} \right\} \quad (8.51)$$

is also an orthonormal basis of $\mathbb{R}^2$, because B_2 consists of two vectors and

$$\left\langle \begin{pmatrix} \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \\ \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \\ \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \end{pmatrix} \right\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \cdot \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} + \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \cdot \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} = \frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{2} = 1, \quad (8.52)$$

as well as

$$\left\langle \begin{pmatrix} -\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \\ \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} -\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \\ \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \end{pmatrix} \right\rangle = \left(-\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}\right) \cdot \left(-\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}\right) + \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \cdot \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} = \frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{2} = 1 \quad (8.53)$$

and

$$\left\langle \begin{pmatrix} -\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \\ \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \\ \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \end{pmatrix} \right\rangle = -\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \cdot \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} + \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \cdot \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} = -\frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{2} = 0 \quad (8.54)$$

hold.

We visualize the two orthonormal bases B_1 and B_2 of $\mathbb{R}^2$ in Figure 8.8.

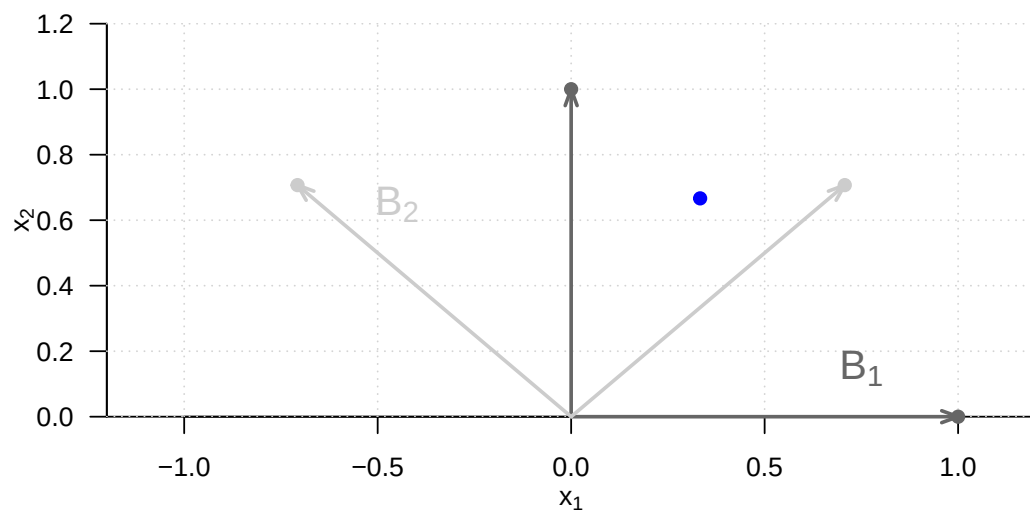


Figure 8.8 Two bases of $\mathbb{R}^2$

References

- Abbott, S. (2015). *Understanding Analysis*. Springer New York. <https://doi.org/10.1007/978-1-4939-2712-8>
- Arens, T., Hettlich, F., Karpfinger, C., Kockelkorn, U., Lichtenegger, K., & Stachel, H. (2018). *Mathematik*. Springer Berlin Heidelberg. <https://doi.org/10.1007/978-3-662-56741-8>
- Bärwolff, G. (2017). *Höhere Mathematik für Naturwissenschaftler und Ingenieure*. Springer Berlin Heidelberg. <https://doi.org/10.1007/978-3-662-55022-9>
- Cantor, G. (1874). Über eine Eigenschaft des Inbegriffes aller reellen algebraischen Zahlen. *Jahresbericht Der Deutschen Mathematiker-Vereinigung*, 1.
- Cantor, G. (1891). Über eine elementare Frage der Mannigfaltigkeitslehre. *Jahresbericht Der Deutschen Mathematiker-Vereinigung*, 1, 75–78.
- Cantor, G. (1895). Beiträge zur Begründung der transfiniten Mengenlehre. *Mathematische Annalen*, 46(4), 481–512. <https://doi.org/10.1007/BF02124929>
- Chiossi, S. G. (2021). *Essential Mathematics for Undergraduates: A Guided Approach to Algebra, Geometry, Topology and Analysis*. Springer International Publishing. <https://doi.org/10.1007/978-3-030-87174-1>
- Deisenroth, M. P., Faisal, A. A., & Ong, C. S. (2020). *Mathematics for Machine Learning* (1st ed.). Cambridge University Press. <https://doi.org/10.1017/9781108679930>
- Friston, K. (2005). A theory of cortical responses. *Philosophical Transactions of the Royal Society B: Biological Sciences*, 360(1456), 815–836. <https://doi.org/10.1098/rstb.2005.1622>
- Gray, R. (1994). Georg Cantor and Transcendental Numbers. *The American Mathematical Monthly*, 101(9), 819–832. <https://doi.org/10.1080/00029890.1994.11997035>
- Newton, I. (1687). *Philosophiae Naturalis Principia Mathematica*. Royal Society.
- Searle, S. (1982). *Matrix Algebra Useful for Statistics*. Wiley-Interscience.
- Spivak, M. (2008). *Calculus* (4th ed.). Publish or Perish, Inc.
- Strang, G. (2009). *Introduction to Linear Algebra*. Cambridge University Press.
- Unger, L. (2000). *Grundkurs Mathematik*.